CHAPTER 12 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A12.1 - 'We Are Engaged as a Band of Sisters': Class and Domesticity in the Washingtonian Temperance Movement, 1840-1850

Ruth M. Alexander

ARTICLE	'We Are Engaged as a Band of Sisters': Class and Domesticity in the Washingtonian Temperance Movement, 1840-1850
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"We Are Engaged as a Band of Sisters": Class and Domesticity in the Washingtonian Temperance Movement, 1840–1850

Ruth M. Alexander

Throughout the winter and spring of 1842, the women of the Ladies' Chelsea Temperance Benevolent Society visited the houses, alleys, and streets of their Manhattan neighborhood searching for families and individuals who suffered from the ravages of alcohol. Led by "Directress" Bowrason, a butcher's wife, the Chelsea devotees of the Washingtonian temperance movement offered cash, clothing, and the message of abstinence from alcohol to impoverished inebriates. Among those aided were three women "restored" to sobriety by the actions of the female Washingtonians. The first woman was destitute, drunk, "nearly naked," and "sick from exposure" when members of the society found her. She was persuaded to take the pledge of total abstinence, food and medical care were provided for her, and society members helped her find employment and board. Later she became a "worthy member" of the organization. The second, a young woman who was destitute and "without friends," took the pledge and was clothed, boarded, and assisted in obtaining work with a sympathetic family. The third, a mother so poor and drunken that local authorities had taken her children from her, was able to resume care of her family after receiving help from the Washingtonian women.[1]

News of these striking transformations may have caused admiration and amazement among those who read of the society's work in the pages of the *Olive Plant and Ladies' Temperance Advocate*, a monthly newspaper dedicated to women's "systematic and persevering exertions" in aid of the Washingtonian temperance movement. But lest the sympathetic readers of the *Olive Plant* be overawed by the successes of the Chelsea women, the society's report ended with the modest claim, "We

Ruth M. Alexander is assistant professor of history at Colorado State University. The author would like to extend special thanks to Mary Beth Norton, Nancy Hewitt, Mary Kelley, and David Thelen, who read this article at several stages of completion and made many helpful comments. Thanks also to Joan Brumberg, Isabel Hull, Laura Engelstein, Stuart Blumin, Margaret Boys, and the Faculty-Student Gender Study Group at Cornell University. Final acknowledgment is to Patricia Cline Cohen who first recommended the Martha Washingtonians as a subject of research and supervised a master's thesis on their activism.

[1] *Olive Plant and Ladies' Temperance Advocate*, July 15, 1842, p. 5.

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have not any cases of thrilling interest. . . . Our tale will be unvarnished, we have no disposition to shine."[2]

Feminine modesty, charity, the "rescue" of destitute or degraded females, and attentiveness to the reform of personal habits, all evident in the report from the Ladies' Chelsea Temperance Benevolent Society, were common features of the reform efforts spearheaded by middle-class women during the nineteenth century. In the antebellum era thousands of wives from the homes of merchants, manufacturers, professionals, and politicians left well-appointed parlors, nurseries, and kitchens to champion benevolent and reform causes. Numerous historians have asserted that this enthusiastic activism was inspired in part by middle-class women's adherence to the tenets of domesticity—an ideology that sharply differentiated the "public" world of men from the "private" world of women and yet ultimately prompted many matrons to take their message of moral probity into the temperance, moral reform, antislavery, and woman's rights movements.[3]

However, the Washingtonian cause, to which the Chelsea society claimed loyalty, drew its constituents largely from the working and lower middle classes. Its most visible leaders were skilled artisans newly converted to the cause of total abstinence, and Washingtonianism marked the first time that American women of relatively low rank joined and played a prominent role in reform. The thousands of women who established Martha Washington societies in the 1840s throughout the Northeast and Midwest were, like Mrs. Bowrason, primarily from the homes of laborers, artisans, shopkeepers, and clerks. (See table 1.) As one contemporary observer of the Marthas in New York and New Jersey wrote, their societies were "composed mostly of women whose earthly comforts are derived mainly from the labor of their own hands." Later in the decade the temperance benevolent societies disbanded, yet women of the working and lower middle classes remained active in the cause and organized new temperance mutual benefit societies. (See table 2.) Women of higher status and privilege were not absent from the movement, especially in small cities and towns, but the leadership of most female Washingtonian societies was probably in the hands of women of humble background and social standing. What motivated

[2] *Ibid.*, July 15, 1841, p. 12; *ibid.*, July 15, 1842, p. 5.

[3] Carroll Smith-Rosenberg, "Beauty, the Beast, and the Militant Woman," *American Quarterly*, 23 (Oct. 1971), 562–84; Keith Melder, *Beginnings of Sisterhood: The American Woman's Rights Movement, 1800–1850* (New York, 1977); Barbara Berg, *The Remembered Gate: Origins of American Feminism: The Woman and the City, 1800–1860* (New York, 1978); Ellen Carol DuBois, *Feminism and Suffrage: The Emergence of an Independent Women's Movement in America, 1848–1869* (Ithaca, 1978); Mary Beth Norton, "The Paradox of Women's Sphere," in *Women of America*, ed. Carol Berkin and Mary Beth Norton (New York, 1979); Ruth Bordin, *Woman and Temperance: The Quest for Power and Liberty, 1873–1900* (Philadelphia, 1981); Jed Dannenbaum, "The Origins of Temperance Activism and Militancy among American Women," *Journal of Social History*, 15 (Winter 1981), 235–52; Barbara Epstein, *The Politics of Domesticity: Women, Evangelism, and Temperance in Nineteenth-Century America* (Middletown, 1981); Mary P. Ryan, *Cradle of the Middle Class: The Family in Oneida County, New York, 1790–1865* (New York, 1981); Ian R. Tyrrell, "Women and Temperance in Antebellum America, 1830–1860," *Civil War History*, 28 (June 1982), 128–52; Nancy Hewitt, *Women's Activism and Social Change: Rochester, New York, 1822–1872* (Ithaca, 1984); Lori D. Ginzberg, "'Moral Suasion Is Moral Balderdash': Women, Politics, and Social Activism in the 1850s," *Journal of American History*, 73 (Dec. 1986), 601–22.

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CHAPTER 12 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A12.2 - Lucretia Mott and the Underground Railroad: The Transatlantic World of a Radical American Woman

Ikuko Asaka

ARTICLE	Lucretia Mott and the Underground Railroad: The Transatlantic World of a Radical American Woman
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Lucretia Mott and the Underground Railroad

The Transatlantic World of a Radical American Woman

IKUKO ASAKA

In 1856 Sarah Pugh, president of the Philadelphia Female Anti-Slavery Society (PFASS), reported to the membership with much satisfaction that two large parties of fugitives had arrived in their city after arduous journeys from southern bondage. The news, however, met with admonition from Lucretia Mott, the organization's nationally renowned leading member. Mott sounded caution to the ranks that fugitive assistance fell outside the rubric of legitimate antislavery work: "Lucretia Mott after acknowledging some contributions received for their benefit said it was impossible not to be interested and excited by such narratives, but we must remember that relieving the necessities of these fugitives was not properly Anti-Slavery work."[1]

To contemporary eyes, this summary of Mott's remarks might seem innocuous at best or odd at worst. Nineteenth-century auditors and readers would have recognized it for the polemical stance it was. In

Ikuko Asaka is an assistant professor of history at the University of Illinois, Urbana–Champaign and the author of *Tropical Freedom: Climate, Settler Colonialism, and Black Exclusion in the Age of Emancipation* (Durham, NC, 2017) and "Exiles in America: Canadian Anti-Black Racism and the Meaning of Nation in the Age of the 1848 Revolutions," in *Race and Nation in the Age of Emancipations*, ed. Whitney Stewart and John Garrison Marks (Athens, GA, 2018). Her work has appeared in the *Journal of African American History*, *Journal of Black Studies*, and *American Quarterly*.

1. Apr. 10, 1856, Philadelphia Female Anti-Slavery Society (hereafter PFASS) Minute Book, 1848–1862, Pennsylvania Abolition Society (hereafter PAS) Papers, Reel 30, Historical Society of Pennsylvania, Philadelphia (hereafter HSP).

Journal of the Early Republic, 38 (Winter 2018)
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denying the antislavery credentials of fugitive assistance, Mott's speech equated it with Liberian colonization, a scheme defended by some of its supporters as a gradual emancipation measure but vilified by abolitionists as a means to solidify slavery through the removal of rebellious slaves and free blacks to Africa. In Mott's mind, the Underground Railroad, much like the Liberian endeavor, contributed little to the paramount effort to eradicate the institution of slavery. Both activities produced freed people by helping them relocate abroad—Canada and Liberia—but were of little service to the ultimate goal of destroying U.S. slavery since the addition of new slaves through procreation far exceeded the numbers of slaves the two measures could possibly liberate. "When we computed all who escaped to Canada, with all that were in Liberia," she opined, "the whole did not equal the number born into slavery in one year. Our efforts must still be to destroy the system, root and branch, to lay the axe at the root of the corrupt tree." In response, corresponding secretary Mary Grew argued that fugitive flights did in fact contribute to the universal abolition of slavery because they decreased "the value of slave property." By rendering human chattel "insecure" and therefore undesirable property, slave escapes were "preparing the way for the emancipation of all."[2]

Given the intensity with which abolitionists denounced Liberian colonization, Mott's equation of it with cross-border flight appears out of line with prevailing U.S. antislavery sensibilities. What do we make of her unique language? Oddly enough, Mott's reference to Liberia has failed to interest scholars of abolitionist women and has been absent from examinations of Mott's "not properly Anti-Slavery work" speech. Nor is Grew's disagreement mentioned in scholarship. These erasures obfuscate our understanding of Mott's 1856 remark, the breadth of her intellectual orbit, and the PFASS's internal conflict over fugitive escape to Canada.

Existing literature explains Mott's 1856 speech as an extension of the discord that had occurred in the 1840s over fugitive rescue. In 1846, dissatisfied with what she saw as the PFASS's perfunctory engagement with the Underground Railroad, inaugural president Esther Moore left the society to concentrate on aiding that effort. Moore's departure

2. Ibid.

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CHAPTER 12 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A12.3 - Women and Politics in the Era before Seneca Falls

Anne M. Boylan

ARTICLE	Women and Politics in the Era before Seneca Falls
JOURNAL	Journal of the Early Republic 10, no. 3 (1990)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 363-364
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WOMEN AND POLITICS IN THE ERA BEFORE SENECA FALLS

Anne M. Boylan

To most Americans of the early nineteenth century, ''women'' and ''politics'' were mutually exclusive categories. Politics was a public endeavor and as such belonged to the world of men. Women's world, or ''sphere,'' to use the widely employed term, was to revolve around the private arena of home and family. ''Home is [woman's] appropriate sphere of action,'' wrote Mrs. A. J. Graves in 1841; and ''whenever she neglects these duties, or goes out of this sphere of action to mingle in any of the great public movements of the day, she is deserting the station which God and nature have assigned to her.'' ''If man's duties lie abroad,'' she reasoned, ''woman's duties are within the quiet seclusion of the home.''[1] Such sentiments were part of the accepted wisdom of early nineteenth-century life.

Even as Graves wrote, the conventional wisdom was under challenge by abolitionists and moral reformers. Indeed, her critique of women who ''mingle in any of the great public movements of the day'' clearly referred to them. By speaking out on issues such as slavery, by mobilizing women to lobby for specific legislation, and by engaging in petition campaigns to Congress, activist women had already defied accepted conventions. They had also begun to reconceptualize women's relationship to politics and to question their exclusion from voting, which emerged in the 1840s as a key symbol of male political privilege. The debate at the Seneca Falls Convention (1848) over whether women should exercise ''their sacred right to the elective

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Anne M. Boylan is a member of the department of history at the University of Delaware in Newark. She is the author of *Sunday School: The Formation of an American Institution, 1790-1880* (1988). For comments on an earlier version of this essay, the author is grateful to Leslie Friedman Goldstein, Peter Kolchin, Anne Firor Scott, Carroll Smith-Rosenberg, and members of the Kenyon College History Department.

[1] Graves, quoted in *Root of Bitterness: Documents of the Social History of American Women*, ed. Nancy F. Cott (New York 1972), 144, 145.

JOURNAL OF THE EARLY REPUBLIC, 10 (Fall 1990). © 1990 Society for Historians of the Early American Republic.

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franchise'' culminated a decade of discussion concerning acceptable political activities for women.[2]

It would be misleading, however, to assume that the provocative actions of abolitionists and moral reformers represented American women's first foray into politics. As Paula Baker has pointed out, since the 1760s ''a tradition of women's involvement in government'' had been evident in crowd actions, organized boycotts, and fund-raising efforts. In the early nineteenth century, through the formation of permanent organizations, women expanded and institutionalized this tradition by undertaking to provide social services—caring for widows and orphans, assisting the aged, providing health care to pregnant women—previously assumed by families and local governments. As they did so, women entered the political realm, lobbying for shares of public money, joining with local governments in delivering welfare assistance, seeking political influence or favors, and engaging in critiques of the public welfare system. Clearly, organized women were involved in politics and government well before 1848.[3]

Yet such organizational activities were seldom perceived as political, nor were they accompanied by the storms of criticism that greeted abolitionist petitioning and lobbying in later years. Why not? An analysis of women's groups in two cities—Boston and New York—during the first four decades of the nineteenth century suggests that benevolent groups founded to aid the widow or orphan differed substantially in political style from reform-oriented societies such as female abolition groups. Both types of organizations were politically involved when needs dictated. Yet benevolent societies adhered to a deferential mode of politics that was essentially eighteenth-century in tone, whereas reformist organizations adopted a nineteenth-century style that sought to mobilize women in a mass, democratic fashion. If benevolent women utilized influence to achieve their goals, reformist

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[2] ''Seneca Falls Convention,'' in *The Feminist Papers: From Adams to de Beauvoir*, ed. Alice S. Rossi (New York 1973), 415-420. See also Linda K. Kerber, *Women of the Republic: Intellect and Ideology in Revolutionary America* (Chapel Hill 1980), ch. 6.

[3] Paula Baker, ''The Domestication of Politics: Women and American Political Society, 1780-1920,'' *American Historical Review*, 89 (June 1984), 621. During the colonial and revolutionary periods, too, single women landowners had occasionally voted in local elections; the New Jersey state constitution permitted such voting from 1776 to 1807. See Sophie Drinker, ''Votes for Women in Eighteenth-Century New Jersey,'' *Proceedings of the New Jersey Historical Society*, 80 (Jan. 1962), 31-45; Mary Beth Norton, *Liberty's Daughters: The Revolutionary Experience of American Women, 1750-1800* (Boston 1980), 191-193; and Louise M. Young, ''Women's Place in American Politics: The Historical Perspective,'' *Journal of Politics*, 38 (Aug. 1976), 295-335.

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CHAPTER 12 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A12.4 - Women in Groups: An Analysis of Women's Benevolent Organizations in New York and Boston, 1797-1840

Anne M. Boylan

ARTICLE	Women in Groups: An Analysis of Women's Benevolent Organizations in New York and Boston, 1797-1840
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Women in Groups: An Analysis of Women's Benevolent Organizations in New York and Boston, 1797–1840

Anne M. Boylan

Historians have long recognized the importance of organizations in women's history. From a pioneering 1940 article by Mary Bosworth Treudley, through the work of Eleanor Flexner, to recent works by Nancy F. Cott, Keith E. Melder, and Barbara J. Berg, scholars have outlined the basic pattern of women's organizational beginnings. By 1800 the first permanent women's societies, such as the Society for the Relief of Poor Widows with Small Children in New York, the Boston Female Asylum (founded in 1800), and women's missionary groups had appeared on the urban scene. Members of those societies combined an interest in social meliorism with an emphasis on social deference while also exhibiting concern for the spiritual welfare of those whom they aided. During the 1810s and 1820s, under the influence of the Second Great Awakening, there formed new women's organizations whose members sought first to alleviate spiritual want, then to deal with temporal deprivation. Through Sunday school, tract, Bible, and missionary societies, women labored to convert the objects of their attention as well as to minister to their daily needs. During the late 1820s and 1830s, more actively reformist, even millennialist, women's organizations developed. The New-York and the Boston Female Moral Reform societies worked to reform prostitutes and to eradicate the sexual double standard; female abolitionist societies sought immediate emancipation of slaves; and groups such as the Seamen's Aid Society, Boston, became actively involved in the problems of working women.[1]

Anne M. Boylan is lecturer in history at the University of New Mexico. Research for this article was funded in part by a grant from the National Endowment for the Humanities.

[1] Mary Bosworth Treudley, "'The Benevolent Fair': A Study of Charitable Organization among American Women in the First Third of the Nineteenth Century," *Social Service Review*, 14 (Sept. 1940), 509–22; Eleanor Flexner, *Century of Struggle: The Woman's Rights Movement in the United States* (Cambridge, Mass., 1959), 41–61; Nancy F. Cott, *The Bonds of Womanhood: "Woman's Sphere" in New England, 1780–1835* (New Haven, 1977), 155–59; Keith E. Melder, *Beginnings of Sisterhood: The American Woman's Rights Movement, 1800–1850* (New York, 1977), 49–76; Barbara J. Berg, *The Remembered Gate: Origins of American Feminism: The Woman and the City, 1800–1860* (New York, 1978), 145–222. See also Lois W. Banner, "The Protestant Crusade: Religious Missions, Benevolence, and Reform in the United States,

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In outlining this basic pattern, historians have not always agreed in their evaluation of how early benevolent organizations affected individual women. Nor have they concurred in their assessment of the impact of benevolent groups on women's status. Some have argued that those early societies provided the necessary preconditions for the development of a feminist consciousness in the nineteenth century and have drawn a direct developmental line from early benevolent societies to later feminist ones. Through organization, they have suggested, women gradually built on each other's experiences, escalating their group activities from small-scale support of missionary work at the turn of the century to broadly based, active social work by the 1830s—from benevolence to reform. Within those groups, goes the argument, women developed a consciousness of themselves as individuals with needs, concerns, and ideas separate from those of men, became aware of the disabilities that all women shared, and learned useful organizational and fund-raising skills. Embedded in that viewpoint are three assumptions: first, that because the activities of women's societies in general progressed from benevolence to reform during the first decades of the century, the progression was evident within individual societies; second, and more important, that the progression over the decades was linear, with succeeding societies building on the experiences of their predecessors; and third, that individual women experienced a parallel progression in their own lives as they moved from involvement in private, melioristic organizations to active, reformist ones.[2]

Other analysts have challenged that interpretation, especially the notion that involvement in benevolence necessarily advanced the cause of women as a group. Cott has argued that while their organizations might have offered women experience and identity separate from those of men, they might also have reinforced women's secondary status by bringing them together on the basis of family role and religion rather than individuality. Indeed, the societies might have prevented women from seeing their common subordination precisely because they did offer a sense of value and self-worth. Similarly, Blanche Glassman Hersh, examining the backgrounds of a group of feminist-abolitionists, questioned whether there was any connection between benevolent work and feminism, noting that benevolent women "in no way def[ied] tradition or question[ed] male authority." And in a recent study of a southern community, Suzanne Lebsock demonstrated that women participated in a full panoply of organizations without ever getting involved in explicitly feminist issues.[3]

In order to explore these questions, I have examined the organizational histories and memberships of eleven New York and eleven Boston women's societies (see appendix A) founded between 1797 and 1835, a crucial period before

1790–1840" (Ph.D. diss., Columbia University, 1970), 188–305; and Carl N. Degler, *At Odds: Women and the Family in America from the Revolution to the Present* (New York, 1980), 298–306.

[2] Treudley, "'Benevolent Fair,'" 509–22; Melder, *Beginnings of Sisterhood*, 49–76; Berg, *Remembered Gate*, 149–75; Alice S. Rossi, "Social Roots of the Woman's Movement in America," in *The Feminist Papers: From Adams to de Beauvoir*, ed. Alice S. Rossi (New York, 1973), 241–81.

[3] Cott, *Bonds of Womanhood*, 155–59; Blanche Glassman Hersh, *The Slavery of Sex: Feminist-Abolitionists in America* (Urbana, 1978), 4; Suzanne Lebsock, *The Free Women of Petersburg: Status and Culture in a Southern Town, 1784–1860* (New York, 1984), 195–236.

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CHAPTER 12 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A12.5 - Religious Anti-Revivalism in Antebellum America

James D. Bratt

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Religious Anti-Revivalism in Antebellum America

JAMES D. BRATT

Over the past half century, evangelical revivalism has enjoyed a remarkable rehabilitation in American history writing. The grave to which it had been consigned in the 1920s by such critics as Vernon Parrington and H. L. Mencken was pried open by some neo-orthodox Protestants already in the 1930s, but full resuscitation occurred only after World War II as scholars sought to explain the contemporary boom in religious interest and joined in the search for a spiritual purpose behind the "American experiment" in its cold war with Communism.[1]

James D. Bratt is professor of history at Calvin College. He would like to thank Jon Butler, William Hutchison, Mark Noll, and Ann Taves for helpful commentary on earlier versions of this article, and Katharine Schramm who provided research assistance under a student fellowship from the McGregor Fund.

1. H. Richard Niebuhr, *The Kingdom of God in America* (Chicago and New York, 1937), effected this particularly for Jonathan Edwards and the First Great Awakening. Signal works from the 1950s include Whitney R. Cross, *The Burned-Over District: The Social and Intellectual History of Enthusiastic Religion in Western New York, 1800–1850* (Ithaca, 1950); Timothy L. Smith's proposal of a positive relationship between *Revivalism and Social Reform in Mid-Nineteenth Century America* (New York, 1957); and William G. McLoughlin, *Modern Revivalism: Charles Grandison Finney to Billy Graham* (New York, 1959). In the 1960s the subject acquired the redoubtable sponsorship of Perry Miller, *The Life of the Mind in America, from the Revolution to the Civil War* (New York, 1965), which gave pride of place (3–95) to revivalistic evangelicalism; an important political application with Alan Heimert, *Religion and the American Mind, from the Great Awakening to the Revolution* (Cambridge, MA, 1966); and a renewed link with the frontier in T. Scott Miyakawa, *Protestants and Pioneers: Individualism and Conformity on the American Frontier* (Chicago, 1964). The rehabilitation climaxed with McLoughlin's bicentennial treatment, "'Enthusiasm for Liberty': the Great

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Scholarly emphases shifted in the 1970s to attend more closely to issues of lived experience, reflecting the day's public resurgence in "born-again Christianity," and toward local case studies made viable under new micro-historical methodologies.[2] In both the earlier and later phases disagreements flourished aplenty, whether over theoretical orientation or

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Awakening as the key to the Revolution," in the co-authored (with Jack P. Greene) *Preachers and Politicians: Two Essays on the Origins of the American Revolution* (Worcester, MA, 1977), and his synthesis, *Revivals, Awakenings, and Reform: An Essay on Religion and Social Change in America, 1607–1977* (Chicago, 1978).

2. Important overviews from this generation apropos of the antebellum period are Richard Carwardine, *Transatlantic Revivalism: Popular Evangelicalism in Britain and America, 1790–1865* (Westport, CT, 1978); and Nathan O. Hatch, *The Democratization of American Christianity* (New Haven, 1989); somewhat more broadly, Edith Blumhofer and Randall Balmer, eds., *Modern Christian Revivals* (Urbana and Chicago, 1993); George M. Thomas, *Revivalism and Cultural Change: Christianity, Nation Building, and the Market in the Nineteenth-Century United States* (Chicago, 1989); and W. Reginald Ward, *The Protestant Evangelical Awakening* (New York, 1992). Revivalism's southern origins and impact are explored in John Boles, *The Great Revival: The Origins of the Southern Evangelical Mind* (Lexington, 1972); Paul K. Conkin, *Cane Ridge, America's Pentecost* (Madison, WI, 1990); Leigh Eric Schmidt, *Holy Fairs: Scottish Communions and American Revivals in the Early Modern Period* (Princeton, 1989). Key local case studies include Terry D. Bilhartz, *Urban Religion and the Second Great Awakening: Church and Society in Early National Baltimore* (Rutherford, NJ,1986); Curtis D. Johnson, *Islands of Holiness: Rural Religion in Upstate New York, 1790–1860* (Ithaca, 1989); Paul E. Johnson, *A Shopkeeper's Millennium: Society and Revivals in Rochester, New York, 1815–1837* (New York, 1978); David W. Kling, *A Field of Divine Wonders: The New Divinity and Village Revivals in Northwestern Connecticut, 1792–1822* (University Park, PA, 1993); Randolph A. Roth, *The Democratic Dilemma: Religion, Reform, and the Social Order in the Connecticut River Valley of Vermont, 1791–1850* (New York, 1987); and William R. Sutton, *Journeymen for Jesus: Evangelical Artisans Confront Capitalism in Jacksonian Baltimore* (University Park, PA, 1998). Women's roles in the movement are illuminated in Catherine A. Brekus, *Strangers and Pilgrims: Female Preaching in America, 1740–1845* (Chapel Hill, 1998); Nancy Hardesty, *Your Daughters Shall Prophesy: Revivalism and Feminism in the Age of Finney* (Brooklyn, 1991); Nancy A. Hewitt, *Women's Activism and Social Change: Rochester, New York, 1822–1872* (Ithaca, 1984); and Mary P. Ryan, *Cradle of the Middle Class: the Family in Oneida County, New York, 1790–1865* (New York, 1981). Robert H. Abzug, *Cosmos Crumbling: American Reform and the Religious Imagination* (New York, 1994), and John L. Hammond, *The Politics of Benevolence: Revival Religion and Ameri-*

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CHAPTER 12 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A12.6 - The Reorientation of American Protestantism, 1835-1845

James D. Bratt

ARTICLE	The Reorientation of American Protestantism, 1835-1845
JOURNAL	Church History 67, no. 1 (1998)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 52-53
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/3170771

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The Reorientation of American Protestantism, 1835–1845

JAMES D. BRATT

In March 1835 Charles Finney told a gathering in New York City: "If the church will do all her duty, the millennium may come in this country in three years."[1] This statement has often served as an epigram for the era, the motto of that movement for revivalism and social reform that, having already swept the churches, was to so infuse the culture with its moral imperatives as to make a Civil War against slavery inevitable and the hegemony of evangelical Protestantism secure. On this reading Finney's declaration marks the midpoint in a story of triumph—triumph for revival religion, and triumph for a nation that aspired to righteousness.[2]

In Finney's own career, however, the statement turned out to be more of a swan song. He did not settle in to fight for the nation's urban future but soon left New York for a pure Yankee enclave in the Ohio countryside. With that he also pulled back from his career as revivalist to join, of all things, the theological professoriate he had long derided. The three years he scheduled for the millennium instead brought the evangelical cause trial and disaster—personal, financial, organizational, ideological. Seen in this light 1835 spells an ending, and the decade that followed is less distinguished by the radical extension of

Earlier versions of this paper were delivered at the Center of Theological Inquiry and the Center for the Study of American Religion at Princeton University. I am grateful to the participants at both venues for their comments and questions; similarly to Professors Laurie Maffly-Kipp and Mark Noll. The research was supported by generous grants from the Evangelical Scholarship Initiative of the Pew Charitable Trusts and from the National Endowment for the Humanities and by in-kind assistance from CTI.

1. Charles Finney, "Hindrances to Revivals," Lecture XV in *Lectures on Revivals of Religion*, ed. William G. McLoughlin (Cambridge: Harvard University Press, 1960), p. 306.
2. This model was originally spelled out in Timothy L. Smith, *Revivalism and Social Reform in Mid-Nineteenth Century America* (New York: Abingdon, 1957); extended with more critique by Perry Miller, *The Life of the Mind in America: From the Revolution to the Civil War* (New York: Harcourt, Brace, 1965), pp. 3–95; and fully systematized in William G. McLoughlin, *Revivals, Awakenings, and Reform: An Essay on Religion and Social Change in America, 1607–1977* (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 1978).

James D. Bratt is professor of history and chair of the department of history at Calvin College.

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evangelicalism's logic than as the launching ground of new departures. More broadly yet, it divides two centuries of American Protestant history. The premises that had prevailed since the rise of Edwards, Wesley, and Whitefield in the 1730s were running out; the new formulas about to be devised would last through the Great Depression. Tellingly, Finney was lecturing that March night on why revivals fail.[3]

Setting dates and "turning points" might seem the most outmoded of historical labors, yet the chronological markers in any narrative are key indicators of its logic and purpose. The standard texts of American religious history, for instance, still divide their parts according to the landmarks of nation building and political development: Revolution to Civil War, Civil War to World War I, World War I to World War II. The pattern is bald in Winthrop Hudson's account, more nuanced in Sydney Ahlstrom's; it is evident in Robert Handy's textbook, even though he incorporates Canada as well as the United States; and it persists, with variations, in more recent offerings by Martin Marty, George Marsden, and (incorporating Canada again) Mark Noll.[4] The logic of nation building has commonly fit Finney's work into a cycle of "great awakenings" which in turn serves as the plot line of American Protestant history and dictates the particular interpretation each part of the cycle receives. Thus, the First Great Awakening helped, and ultimately was important because it helped, prepare the way for Independence. The Second Great Awakening mattered because it both invigorated and stabilized the early republic, then redeemed the nation by launching crusades to extend liberty to all God's children. Under such expectations Finney's momentum *had* to carry into the Civil War, and the 1850s had to be "the high tide of humanitarian reform."[5] Dissonance and reformulation already twenty years before could not register.

3. Finney, "Hindrances to Revivals," Lecture XV in *Lectures*. The broader context of Finney's lectures is detailed, with a different interpretation, in Charles E. Hambrick-Stowe, *Charles G. Finney and the Spirit of American Evangelicalism* (Grand Rapids: Eerdmans, 1996), and Keith J. Hardman, *Charles G. Finney, 1792–1875: Revivalist and Reformer* (Syracuse: Syracuse University Press, 1987).
4. Winthrop E. Hudson, *Religion in America*, 4th ed. (New York: Macmillan, 1987); Sydney E. Ahlstrom, *A Religious History of the American People* (New Haven: Yale University Press, 1972); Robert T. Handy, *A History of the Churches in the United States and Canada* (New York: Oxford University Press, 1976); Martin E. Marty, *Protestantism in the United States: Righteous Empire* (New York: Scribner's, 1986); George M. Marsden, *Religion and American Culture* (New York: Harcourt, Brace, Jovanovich, 1990); Mark A. Noll, *A History of Christianity in the United States and Canada* (Grand Rapids: Eerdmans, 1992).
5. Title of chapter 39 in Ahlstrom, *Religious History*. Contrary to its placement in the Civil War section of the text, the chapter largely treats materials from the 1830s and 1840s, in accord with the argument of the present article. McLoughlin, *Revivals, Awakenings, and Reform*, most clearly spells out the cyclical interpretation summarized here.

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CHAPTER 12 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A12.7 - Reconsidering Politics in the Study of American Abolitionists

Corey M. Brooks

ARTICLE	Reconsidering Politics in the Study of American Abolitionists
JOURNAL	Journal of the Civil War Era 8, no. 2 (2018)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 291-292
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REVIEW ESSAY

Reconsidering Politics in the Study of American Abolitionists

COREY M. BROOKS

This review essay analyzes recent historiography of American abolitionism, with especial attention to the importance of formal politics. Considering expansive syntheses, cutting-edge monographs, and recent journal articles, it reviews a wide range of influential scholarship on the American antislavery movement published in the last five years. First describing twentieth-century historiographical developments that misinterpreted or downplayed political abolitionists, this essay then discusses new studies emphasizing politics and policy. It also highlights recent work that is beginning to expand the actors, geography, and chronology of the political history of American abolitionism. By reframing abolitionism as a political movement, we will gain clearer understandings of both antislavery activism and of the broader political history of the Civil War era.

In his 2005 Society for Historians of the Early American Republic presidential address, "Reconsidering the Abolitionists in an Age of Fundamentalist Politics," James Brewer Stewart pleaded with scholars to reintegrate histories of the abolitionist movement and antebellum American politics. Stewart lamented that "to read in" the abolition studies and political history literatures was "to slip back and forth between alternate universes." Since then, historians have reinvigorated the study of abolitionist politics. With a spate of recent syntheses by "big names" in the field and some exciting new publications on the horizon, we are now primed to reexamine how the American abolitionist movement both generated novel strains of radical political thought and secured critical antislavery policy victories. Only by capturing the importance of politics to the abolitionist movement can we fully understand the processes that eroded and ultimately eliminated the governmental protections on which American slavery depended. Recent studies of abolitionists' political impact have thus reenergized old historiographical questions about the antislavery movement's precise

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contributions to the coming of the Civil War. Consequently, in returning political abolition to the center of the sectional conflict, we are also rewriting the history of nineteenth-century American politics. Recentering the sectional conflict around abolitionist politics will enable political historians to further appreciate both the power of proslavery interests in structuring American national institutions, and how sophisticated policy-oriented activism still had the potential to shake and then reorder those very institutions.[1]

Recent abolitionist historiography, as illustrated in W. Caleb McDaniel's excellent 2014 *Journal of the Civil War Era* review essay, is wide-ranging, diverse, and more concerned with identifying "bonds" than demarcating boundaries among American abolitionists. This important shift is moving abolition studies beyond value judgments about particular abolitionists. Often, the older scholarship that first rescued America's greatest radical social movement from decades of opprobrium and misrepresentation overemphasized evaluation of individual abolitionists' ideological commitments. But as scholars of the antislavery movement have examined a broader cast of characters, range of tactics, geography, and chronology, much recent work has dispensed with the historiographical partisanship that once limited the appeal of more traditional political analyses. New histories of abolitionist politics now draw on the last half-century's worth of social and cultural history that illuminated previously underappreciated black and women activists. Consequently, we find ourselves better equipped than prior political historians to recognize how people seemingly distant from the halls of power managed to influence the political debates and policymaking that were essential for broad, permanent emancipations. Thus, political abolitionist scholarship is beginning to better incorporate nontraditional political actors while also refocusing attention on how their efforts combined with partisan political work to produce revolutionary policy changes.[2]

Fully understanding political abolitionism's previous relegation to the background of both abolition studies and antebellum political history requires a longer historiographical perspective. Abolition studies took off in the 1960s and 1970s amid a broader explosion of cutting-edge social and cultural history, especially of subaltern groups. At the same time, the specific historiography of American antislavery especially prompted scholars to privilege radical morality over political efficacy. A polestar for 1960s and 1970s abolitionist historians was the pressing need to refute conservative, racist interpretations that had dominated historiography of slavery, abolitionism, and the Civil War during the interwar, World War II, and immediate postwar years. This so-called Civil War revisionist scholarship

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CHAPTER 12 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A12.8 - Stoking the 'Abolition Fire in the Capitol': Liberty Party Lobbying and Antislavery in Congress

Corey Brooks

ARTICLE	Stoking the 'Abolition Fire in the Capitol': Liberty Party Lobbying and Antislavery in Congress
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Stoking the "Abolition Fire in the Capitol"

Liberty Party Lobbying and Antislavery in Congress

COREY BROOKS

For two tense weeks in the winter of 1842, the growing abolitionist influence on congressional politics was on full display to the nation. Over several days, Representative John Quincy Adams delivered a withering excoriation of the disproportionate power slaveholders wielded in the national legislature. Each night the septuagenarian ex-president consulted abolitionist lobbyists Theodore Dwight Weld and Joshua Leavitt, the leading Liberty Party journalist at the time, to plan arguments Adams would air to the nation the next day. Defying the spirit, but not the letter, of the House gag rule barring antislavery petitions, Adams had knowingly ignited the congressional firestorm by presenting a Massachusetts abolitionist petition for dissolution of the union and calmly moving that the House report against it. When outraged

Corey Brooks is assistant professor of history at York College of Pennsylvania. This article benefited from the thoughtful feedback of participants in the Baltimore History Writing Group and the York Research Forum, as well as from a York College of Pennsylvania Academic Senate Faculty Development Committee grant. Research for this article was supported by funding from the Gilder Lehrman Foundation, the Institute for Political History, the Library Company of Philadelphia, the UC Berkeley History Department, and the UC Berkeley Institute of Governmental Studies. The author also sincerely thanks Robin Einhorn and David Henkin for their invaluable insights and advice; James Brewer Stewart, who has generously shared his time and expertise on abolitionist politics; Eric Schickler, Charles Stewart III, and other attendees of the 2010 Congress and History Conference for comments on an earlier version of this work; and the *JER* editors, staff, and anonymous reviewers.

Journal of the Early Republic, 33 (Fall 2013)
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southern congressmen demanded censure, the ex-president insisted on a formal self-defense and then came to count on support from abolitionist lobbyists in Washington. For days on end, Adams railed against proslavery interests in the federal government, echoing the anti-Slave Power rhetoric that filled political abolitionist newssheets, as Adams and the abolitionist lobbyists worked together to fixate national political attention on slavery.[1]

This episode is emblematic of the sophisticated lobbying antebellum political abolitionists employed to render Congress a forum that could magnify and disseminate antislavery arguments to a national audience. As political abolitionists lobbied and collaborated with antislavery congressmen, together they helped diffuse an anti-Slave Power message to an ever more receptive northern public. In doing so political abolitionists identified and capitalized on the predicament of select officeholders who strained to reconcile sincere antipathy to slavery with the countervailing pressures of membership in the bisectional Whig party.[2]

Political abolitionists' lobbying strategy can be fully appreciated only against the backdrop of their argument that the southern "Slave Power" controlled national politics and corrupted American democracy. The key, abolitionists contended, to understanding, and ultimately overcoming, slaveholders' stranglehold on federal policymaking was recognizing the Slave Power's domination of both the Whig and Democratic parties. Because the major parties relied on southern votes to win national office, both, political abolitionists contended, were deeply implicated in the Slave Power's dominance of the federal government. Though historians have long acknowledged anti-Slave Power rhetoric's importance to the

1. These censure proceedings and Leavitt's and Weld's involvement are discussed further below.

2. A note on terminology used in this article: "Abolitionist" refers to those who participated in an organized social movement to end American slavery. "Antislavery" refers to a wider range of viewpoints critical of slavery, including those of many who were far more moderate than abolitionists in condemning slavery and less willing to take action against it. While historians have sometimes applied "political abolitionist" to major-party politicians who considered themselves abolitionists (of whom more below), I use the term more narrowly. "Political abolitionist" here describes those whose abolitionist beliefs dictated their political affiliations and led them to reject all proslavery candidates. This term also distinguishes abolitionists who embraced an electoral strategy (through the Liberty Party beginning in 1840) from non-voting "Garrisonian" abolitionists.

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CHAPTER 12 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A12.9 - 'A Little Beyond': The Problem of the Transcendentalist Movement in American History

Charles Capper

ARTICLE	'A Little Beyond': The Problem of the Transcendentalist Movement in American History
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"A Little Beyond": The Problem of the Transcendentalist Movement in American History

Charles Capper

Something strange has happened in American historiography. Transcendentalism, once a mainstay of surveys of American thought, has virtually vanished from the historical radar screen. This is somewhat ironic, since during the past decade prominent public intellectuals as disparate as Stanley Cavell, Richard Poirier, Irving Howe, Cornel West, Christopher Lasch, and George Kateb have made leading Transcendentalists such as Ralph Waldo Emerson and Henry David Thoreau the natal sources of their various post-1960s critical "genealogies." Nor have the Transcendentalists exactly starved for lack of scholarly attention. Joel Myerson's review of research on the movement for the Modern Language Association, published a little over a decade ago, lists nearly four thousand publications, while hefty biographies of both well-known and lesser-known Transcendentalists continue to pour from major presses. But neither critical acclaim nor academic productivity constitutes the history of a movement. That requires some sense of its contours, phases, and significance as a past, multiform, collective entity, interacting with other such entities in various "times." When one raises *these* questions about Transcendentalism, the recent literature, mostly written by scholars in American literature, shrinks down considerably. As a historical movement, Transcendentalism would seem to have entered into a long eclipse.[1]

Charles Capper is associate professor of history at the University of North Carolina at Chapel Hill. An earlier version of this essay was presented as the keynote address and Lowell Lecture at the Massachusetts Historical Society Conference, "Transient and Permanent: The Transcendentalist Movement and Its Contexts," Boston, May 15–17, 1997.

I wish to thank the following readers of earlier versions of this essay for their helpful criticisms and suggestions: Catherine Albanese, Ruth Bloch, Lawrence Buell, Carole Capper, Mary Cayton, Elizabeth Clark, Andrew Delbanco, Robert Ferguson, Carl Guarneri, Philip Gura, David Hall, David Hollinger, Daniel Howe, John Kasson, Henry May, Joel Myerson, David Nord, Barbara Packer, Lewis Perry, Daniel Rodgers, and Conrad Edick Wright.

[1] Stanley Cavell, *This New Yet Unapproachable America: Lectures after Emerson after Wittgenstein* (Albuquerque, 1989); Richard Poirier, *The Renewal of Literature: Emersonian Reflections* (New Haven, 1987); Irving Howe, *The American Newness: Culture and Politics in the Age of Emerson* (Cambridge, Mass., 1992); Cornel West, *The American Evasion of Philosophy: A Genealogy of Pragmatism* (Madison, 1989), 9–68; Christopher Lasch, *The True and Only Heaven: Progress and Its Critics* (New York, 1991), 168–295; George Kateb, *The Inner Ocean: Individualism and Democratic Culture* (Ithaca, 1992); Joel Myerson, ed., *The Transcendentalists: A Review of Research and Criticism* (New York, 1984); Charles Capper, *Margaret Fuller: An American Romantic Life,* vol. 1: *The Private Years* (New York, 1992); Robert D. Richardson Jr., *Emerson: The Mind on Fire* (Berkeley, 1995); Dean David Grodzins, "Theodore Parker and Transcendentalism" (Ph.D. diss., Harvard University, 1995); Phyllis Cole, *Mary Moody Emerson and the Origins of Transcendentalism: A Family History* (New York, 1997); Bruce A. Ronda,

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Long, of course, is a relative notion. In fact, this eclipse has been a fairly recent one, roughly since the 1970s. Also, the reasons for Transcendentalism's long life in American historical writing have hardly been trivial or ephemeral ones. For one, over the past three-quarters of a century the subject has often found secure, if changing, professional and methodological footholds in the major disciplines of both history and literature. For another, historical Transcendentalism has been long buoyed up by that protean trio of cultural configurations that Alexis de Tocqueville, writing in the decade of the movement's rise in the 1830s (and completely ignorant of its existence), first virtually identified with "America" itself: liberal religion, individualist democracy, and national identity. Finally, these Transcendentalism concepts have been neither pristine nor static. On the contrary, they have been shaped, reshaped, and in some cases subverted by some of the nation's most important historians and critics, who have enlisted the Transcendentalists variously as allies or foils in their own successive Victorian, modernist, progressivist, "Americanist," liberal religious, and left ideological projects, and so have written Transcendentalism into the major designs of American history.[2]

The prospective issue then becomes, neither the isolated present moment nor past Transcendentalism scholarship as such, but two retrospective historiographic questions. How have these successive Tocquevillean and post-Tocquevillean *conceptualizations* of Transcendentalism maintained or undermined the movement's presence in American history? What are the prospects for Transcendentalism scholarship now that these discursive plots have lost something of their force in the last couple of decades? Armed with answers to these questions, and a little critical imagination, we then ought to be able at least to get (in the Transcendentalists' fellow traveler Almira Barlow's catchy definition of their movement) "*a little beyond*" its current historiographic eclipse.[3]

When did the Transcendentalist movement become history? One could begin with the Transcendentalists themselves. Puritan and revolutionary idealism, the birth of an American culture, the tradition of religious revivalism, the contemporary surge of antinomian reform movements, the rise of European romantic literature and philosophy, the discovery of Asian literature, the spread of American democracy, the repression of the spiritual in rationalistic liberal Protestantism, the "modern" longing for an organic culture—these and other historical contexts for situating their movement, the Transcendentalists themselves articulated long before historians came

Elizabeth Palmer Peabody: Reformer on Her Own Terms (Harvard University Press, forthcoming); Wesley T. Mott, ed., *Biographical Dictionary of Transcendentalism* (Westport, 1996); Wesley T. Mott, ed., *Encyclopedia of Transcendentalism* (Westport, 1996). Only three years ago there appeared the first major overview of the movement in over a generation: Barbara L. Packer, "The Transcendentalists," in *The Cambridge History of American Literature,* ed. Sacvan Bercovitch (Cambridge, Eng., 1994–), II, 329–604. Although necessarily limited by its publication date, the best bibliographical survey is Lawrence Buell, "The Transcendentalist Movement," in *Transcendenialists,* ed. Myerson, 1–36.

[2] Alexis de Tocqueville, *Democracy in America,* ed. Phillips Bradley (1835, 1840; 2 vols., New York, 1945).

[3] Ralph Waldo Emerson, Oct. 6, 1836, *The Journals and Miscellaneous Notebooks of Ralph Waldo Emerson,* ed. William H. Gilman et al. (16 vols., Cambridge, Mass., 1960–1982), V, 218.

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CHAPTER 12 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A12.10 - The Second Great Awakening in the Urban Centers: An Examination of Methodism and the 'New Measures'

Richard Carwardine

ARTICLE	The Second Great Awakening in the Urban Centers: An Examination of Methodism and the 'New Measures'
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EXCERPT	Original journal pages 327-328
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The Second Great Awakening in the Urban Centers: An Examination of Methodism and the 'New Measures'

Richard Carwardine

Almost every discussion of the shaping of religious revivalism in early and mid-nineteenth century America has been centered on and dominated by the revival movement of Charles Grandison Finney.[1] Finney's revivals in the mid-1820s swept the "Burned-over District" of western New York and then spread eastward to challenge the bastions of conservative Presbyterianism in urban centers. He threw aside the restraints and caution of an older generation of ministers sympathetic to revivalism and employed a variety of "New Measures" to promote revivals—measures which, when supported by the equally controversial New Haven theology, helped provoke an ultimately schismatic conflict. Challenging what he termed "hyper-Calvinism"—the unrelenting and long-standing Calvinistic beliefs on the subject of human inability, and of limited atonement and election—by arguing that the individual need not passively wait to see if he were one of the saved, Finney used a style of revivalism that gave the sinner and the minister a positive and active role in the conversion process.[2] Although checked momentarily in 1827 at New Lebanon by a convention called to discuss his New Measures, Finney ultimately found his way into Philadelphia, New York City, Boston, and other cities of the East.[3]

Richard Carwardine teaches history in the University of Sheffield.

[1] The most critical treatments of Charles G. Finney's revivalism and of its significance are to be found in William G. McLoughlin, Jr., *Modern Revivalism: Charles Grandison Finney to Billy Graham* (New York, 1959); Bernard A. Weisberger, *They Gathered at the River: The Story of the Great Revivalists and Their Impact upon Religion in America* (Boston, 1958); Whitney R. Cross, *The Burned-over District: The Social and Intellectual History of Enthusiastic Religion in Western New York, 1800-1850* (Ithaca, 1950).

[2] Sidney Earl Mead, *Nathaniel William Taylor 1786-1858: A Connecticut Liberal* (Chicago, 1942), gives an excellent analysis of the "New Divinity" fashioned in New Haven during the Second Great Awakening. For Charles G. Finney's theology, see James E. Johnson, "Charles G. Finney and a Theology of Revivalism," *Church History*, XXXVIII (Sept. 1969), 338-58; and William G. McLoughlin's "Introduction," Charles Grandison Finney, *Lectures on Revivals of Religion*, William G. McLoughlin, ed. (Cambridge, Mass., 1960), vii-li. George M. Marsden, *The Evangelical Mind and the New School Presbyterian Experience: A Case Study of Thought and Theology in Nineteenth-Century America* (New Haven, 1970), especially 31-103, discusses the nature and cause of the Presbyterian schism of 1837-1838.

[3] Charles C. Cole, Jr., "The New Lebanon Convention," *New York History*, XXXI (Oct. 1950), 385-97.

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As significant as this Finneyite movement undoubtedly was, the emphasis that has been given to it has tended to obscure other developments in religious revivalism at this time. The extravagant claims of Gilbert H. Barnes—that the New Measures were Finney's "invention"—are no longer given credence.[4] However, the two most scholarly treatments of American revivalism, those of William G. McLoughlin, Jr., and Bernard A. Weisberger, give such prominence to Finney's role in the development of a mass urban evangelism that equally significant developments contemporaneous with Finney have been passed by. Looking backward from the revivalism of the twentieth century and of Dwight L. Moody, McLoughlin gives Finney a near-revolutionary role in the birth of a "Modern Revivalism" and an urban revival style; while Weisberger takes as his starting-point the contribution of the individual revivalist to a developing revival pattern, and sees Finney as bringing "the lusty breath of the Western revival into the East."[5] Such an emphasis has served to reinforce the long-held view that, virtually single-handed, Finney created the mid-nineteenth century revival style of the cities.

To counterbalance this interpretation it is necessary to see more clearly what was happening in the major cities immediately prior to and during the Finneyite movement. This was not, after all, the first time that the urban centers had been visited by revivals.[6] George Whitefield's itinerancy during the eighteenth-century Great Awakening included Philadelphia, where "commerce was suspended," New York, and the principal cities and towns of New England; and in the early nineteenth century the Second Great Awakening brought revivals to many of the main cities.[7] To be sure, the latter revivals often conformed to a

[4] Gilbert Hobbs Barnes, *The Antislavery Impulse 1830-1844* (New York, 1933), 7.

[5] McLoughlin, *Modern Revivalism*, 11; Weisberger, *They Gathered at the River*, 86.

[6] The place of revivalism in the religious life of the cities in the early and middle decades of the nineteenth century has received relatively little consideration from historians. In large part this can be attributed to the powerful influence of the work of William Warren Sweet and his application of Frederick Jackson Turner's frontier thesis to the history of religion in the national period. Sweet's preoccupation with the frontier—as manifested, for example, in William Warren Sweet, *Religion on the American Frontier 1783-1840* (4 vols., New York and Chicago, 1931-1946), and William Warren Sweet, *Religion in the Development of American Culture, 1765-1840* (New York, 1952)—was reflected in his *Revivalism in America: Its Origin, Growth and Decline* (New York, 1944), which more or less ignored urban and eastern revivalism in the early nineteenth century. Timothy L. Smith, however, does recognize the status of urban revivalism in the antebellum period. Smith aims to show how, during the twenty-five years before the Civil War, "revival fervor emerged from the frontier to dominate the urban religious scene." Timothy L. Smith, *Revivalism and Social Reform In Mid-Nineteenth-Century America* (New York, 1957), 150. For a useful essay concerned in part with the historiography of nineteenth-century city evangelism, see James F. Findlay, Jr., *Dwight L. Moody: American Evangelist 1837-1899* (Chicago, 1969).

[7] Edwin Scott Gaustad, *The Great Awakening in New England* (New York, 1957), 25-28; William C. Conant, *Narratives of Remarkable Conversions and Revival Incidents: Including a Review of Revivals, from the Day of Pentecost to the Great Awakening in the Last Century . . .* (New York, 1858), 36-38. Most of the revivals outlined by Joshua Bradley, *Accounts of Religious Revivals in Many Parts of the United States from 1815 to 1818 Collected from numerous Publications, and Letters from Persons of piety and correct information* (Albany, 1819), occurred in small towns; nevertheless, churches in cities such as Boston, New York, and Philadelphia were also noted to have experienced revival movements.

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CHAPTER 12 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A12.11 - A Mother and Her Daughters at the Northampton Community: New Evidence on Women in Utopia

Christopher Clark

ARTICLE	A Mother and Her Daughters at the Northampton Community: New Evidence on Women in Utopia
JOURNAL	The New England Quarterly 75, no. 4 (2002)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 592-593
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/1559861

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A Mother and Her Daughters at the Northampton Community: New Evidence on Women in Utopia

CHRISTOPHER CLARK

LIKE many antebellum utopian communities, the Northampton Association of Education and Industry—an organization promoting social reform through cooperative work and living arrangements that existed in Northampton, Massachusetts, from April 1842 to November 1846—proclaimed the value of equality. "The rights of all are equal," declared its constitution, "without distinction of sex, color or condition, sect or religion." It was logical that gender equality should be one of its guiding values, for the Northampton Association's members were radical abolitionists. The abolitionist movement had just fragmented, in part over the issue of women's rights. Steadfast in their support, the community's founders continued to advocate women's public participation in the antislavery cause. A female member of the association later recalled that "the question of the equality of the sexes was never discussed" at Northampton because "it was accepted as one of our fundamental principles."[1]

An earlier version of this article was presented to the Twenty-third Annual Meeting of the Society for Historians of the Early American Republic, at the Johns Hopkins University, Baltimore, Md., July 2001. I would like to thank Carol A. Kolmerten, Larry Foster, Kathryn Tomasek, and other conference participants for their suggestions. I am most grateful to Kerry Buckley and Marie Panik of Historic Northampton for making available to me the materials on which much of this article is based.

[1]Northampton Association of Education and Industry, Constitution, 1842 (n.p., [1842]). A copy is available in the A. J. Macdonald Collection, p. 71, Beinecke Rare Book and Manuscript Library, Yale University, New Haven, Conn.; Frances P. Judd, "Reminiscences," in *The History of Florence, Massachusetts, Including a Complete Account of the Northampton Association of Education and Industry*, ed. Charles A. Sheffeld (Florence, Mass., 1895), p. 117. The fullest study of the Northampton community is my *The Communitarian Moment: The Radical Challenge of the Northampton Association* (Ithaca: Cornell University Press, 1995).

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Students of intentional communities have long since ceased to take such professions of gender equality at face value. A number of scholars have constructed balance sheets of the advantages and disadvantages women experienced under a variety of regimens: from Shaker celibacy, to Fourierist family life, to the "complex marriage" system of John Humphrey Noyes's Oneida Community, to the polygamy of the early Mormons.[2] Beyond such accounting exercises, however, studies have, more usefully, attempted to define the role women played and the influence they exerted in shaping both the daily life of communities and their broader character and destinies. Sixty letters written by Dolly Witter Stetson and her daughters while they lived at the Northampton Association between 1843 and 1846 form a fascinating body of evidence about women's lives in community and contribute to an ongoing debate on this issue.[3]



In 1989, literary historian Jean Pfaelzer suggested that "utopias" were essentially male conceptions, blind to the realities of women's lives and incapable of fulfilling their promises of gender equality. In an important book on the American Owenites, Carol A. Kolmerten offered a similar paradigm for

[2]Seymour R. Kesten, *Utopian Episodes: Daily Life in Experimental Colonies Dedicated to Changing the World* (Syracuse: Syracuse University Press, 1993), chap. 5; Kathryn Tomasek, "Children and Family in Fourierist Communities," *Connecticut History* 37 (1996–97): 159–73; Lawrence Foster, *Women, Family and Utopia: Communal Experiments of the Shakers, the Oneida Community, and the Mormons* (Syracuse: Syracuse University Press, 1991).

[3]Stetson Family Correspondence, Manuscript Collection, Historic Northampton, Northampton, Mass. Unless otherwise indicated, letters cited in this article are from this collection and are quoted by permission. Quotations retain original spellings and emphasis. A Stetson descendant found the letters at a house in Brooklyn, Connecticut, in 1998, and deposited them at Historic Northampton in 2000. In addition to sixty letters written by Dolly Stetson or her children around the time of their residence at the Northampton Association, the collection includes three letters from James Stetson and a dozen more letters or notes from members of their family or the community. This collection will be published, together with four interpretive essays, in *Letters from an American Utopia: The Stetson Family at the Northampton Community*, ed. Christopher Clark and Kerry W. Buckley (Amherst: University of Massachusetts Press, forthcoming).

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CHAPTER 12 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A12.12 - The Origins of Temperance Activism and Militancy among American Women

Jed Dannenbaum

ARTICLE	The Origins of Temperance Activism and Militancy among American Women
JOURNAL	Journal of Social History 15, no. 2 (1981)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 235-236
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THE ORIGINS OF TEMPERANCE ACTIVISM AND MILITANCY AMONG AMERICAN WOMEN

On Sunday, December 23, 1873, Boston-based itinerant lecturer Dio Lewis visited the community of Hillsboro, Ohio. His topic for the evening was temperance reform. Lewis urged the women of the community to band together and pray in the local saloons in an attempt to close them. The next day, Christmas Eve, a group of Hillsboro women enacted Lewis' plan. The Woman's Crusade had begun.

In the next four months over 32,000 women in more 300 Ohio communities participated in the Crusade. The movement spread throughout the country to several hundred other communities, and in many the crusades succeeded in closing, at least temporarily, all the local retail liquor outlets. The Woman's Crusade severely disrupted the liquor trade and forced out of business manufacturers and wholesalers as well as retailers. Within the year the Crusade had evolved into the Woman's Christian Temperance Union (WCTU), an organization that was to help shape American history for many decades to come.[1]

The Woman's Crusade was so dramatic and its emergence so sudden that the movement seemed to have appeared from nowhere. Indeed, most historians of the Crusade and of the WCTU have viewed the Hillsboro incident as the starting point for any analysis of the shift to female dominance of the temperance movement in the last quarter of the nineteenth century. Within this context some historians have looked for specific, immediate causes of the Crusade: the charisma of Dio Lewis; the Panic of 1873; the Ohio constitutional convention of 1873-1874; or the enactment of a Permissive Bill to allow local liquor prohibition in New Zealand and a liquor Licensing Amendment Act in Great Britain. Other historians have searched for the causes of the Crusade in psychological motivations unconnected either to the history of temperance reform or to real problems linked to drinking. The Crusade and the WCTU have been viewed as symbolic reassertions of cultural dominance; indications of moral anxiety generated by Reconstruction era corruption; disguised attacks on male culture and expressions of anti-male feelings; responses to the decline of the importance of the family and the woman's place within it; and opportunities for women to exercise power, to make men and communities do what they wanted, under the protective cover of an altruistic and religious movement.[2]

All these factors may have played a role in the Woman's Crusade, but none of them takes into account the history of the temperance movement prior to 1873. Temperance reform was one of the most popular, long-lived, and influential social movements in American history, and first became a pressing national issue nearly half a century before the Woman's Crusade. Women had been actively involved in the reform since its earliest years, and their particular perspectives and problems had generated as early as the 1850s an approach to the liquor issue distinct from that of men. The Crusade, and the WCTU which developed from it, were inextricably linked to several decades of prior female temperance activity, and can only be fully understood within the context of that earlier activity.

Female participation in temperance agitation in the decades prior to 1873 was

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not static and monolithic, nor did it evolve gradually and evenly. Rather, a period of turbulent transition at mid-century sharply divides the history of women's temperance activism in this period into two distinct phases. Prior to 1850, women had been willing to remain subordinate to men in the areas of public activity and organizational leadership within the temperance movement because the reform efforts they carried out in their homes, within their domestic roles as mothers, wives, and sisters, were considered by all to be vital to the success of moral suasion. When in the 1850s temperance tactics shifted from the advocacy of moral suasion to that of prohibition, women were left without a meaningful function to perform in the movement, and they quickly began to demand an equal role in traditionally male spheres of action. Their efforts to gain full participation brought to many temperance women a new feminist perspective, causing them to swell the ranks of the emerging women's rights movement.

Although women did secure an expanded role within the temperance movement, their inability to vote still left them largely powerless in the political arena. At the same time, temperance women began to fear for the safety of their own families. The acceptability of drinking among members of the native born Protestant middle class had declined steadily since the 1830s so that by mid-century, middle-class imbibing was rare and intoxication quite scandalous. During the 1850s, however, temperance reform experienced a reversal of fortunes, and drinking seemed to regain some of the popularity and respectability it had previously lost, while the drink trade itself gained in economic and political power. Women saw this change as immensely threatening to the security of their families. With traditional moral suasion discredited and with political efforts floundering beyond direct female influence, women, as early as the 1850s, adopted more direct, non-political methods of confronting the liquor trade. In communities throughout the country, bands of women turned to extra-legal militant action and forcibly destroyed the liquor stock of local drinking establishments. The years of the Civil War and Reconstruction only added to the danger of drink, from these women's perspective, and aggravated their frustration at the political emphasis of the temperance movement. Physical assaults on saloons, as well as assaults by non-violent bands of praying women, continued intermittently throughout the 1860s and early 1870s, culminating in the spectacular phenomenon of the Woman's Crusade in 1873-1874.

Women were active in the temperance cause from the time of its foundation as a national movement in the late 1820s. In many early societies female members equalled or outnumbered male members. Yet their organizational role was highly circumscribed: typically they did not hold office, did not vote, and did not speak at meetings where men were present. Nevertheless, women were considered crucial to the success of the movement. At the 1833 Ohio State Temperance Convention the delegates (all male) passed a resolution stating "That it is a matter of high importance to the cause of temperance that the united influence and energies of females should be enlisted actively in its support: *Resolved, therefore,* that a committee of five be appointed to prepare an address to the ladies of this State on that subject. . . ."[3] Female influence within the domestic sphere was the key to the success of the moral suasion efforts that dominated temperance reform activity after 1830. In her role as the ultimate moral authority of the family, a woman could inculcate strict temperance ideals in her children, refuse to serve alcoholic beverages to guests, abandon their use as ingredients in cooking and in medicines, maintain so attractive a home and fireside that male family members

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CHAPTER 12 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A12.13 - The Abolitionists: A Decade of Historiography, 1959-1969

Merton L. Dillon

ARTICLE	The Abolitionists: A Decade of Historiography, 1959-1969
JOURNAL	The Journal of Southern History 35, no. 4 (1969)
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The Abolitionists: A Decade of Historiography, 1959–1969

By Merton L. Dillon

Unlike the objects of their concern abolitionists were never "invisible men." Quiet work behind the scenes was not their way. Their function as advocates required them to exert every effort to insert their principles into the public mind. So successfully did they accomplish this purpose that contemporaries seldom doubted their determining influence in the shaping of events. Later, historians of nineteenth-century America, generally agreeing with the ante-bellum assessment of abolitionists, concluded that theirs had been a key role in bringing about the Civil War and in purging the nation of slavery. Of the major interpreters of American history only Charles A. and Mary R. Beard and Frederick Jackson Turner, with their emphases on economics and other impersonal aspects of history, ventured to create a perspective which diminished the abolitionists to trivial consequence.[1]

The nationalist historians writing after the Civil War were inclined to view the abolitionists as moral heroes. But by the 1930's and 1940's a near reversal in attitude had taken place. The revisionists, focusing on Civil War causation, then portrayed them as having been destructive in their effect. Abolitionists were condemned in revisionist writings as fanatics whose agitations had brought about a needless war. By the 1960's historians for the most part had abandoned a methodical search for the causes of the Civil War, and along with it the effort to measure abolitionist responsibility for the events preceding it.[2] Yet this change in interest did not signal a decline in the attention paid to the antislavery movement. In recent years abolitionists have seemed more important than ever before, not because of their relation to the Civil War but because their concern with race, prejudice, and

[1] Staughton Lynd, *Class Conflict, Slavery, and the United States Constitution* (Indianapolis and New York, 1967), 143–44; Charles A. Beard and Mary R. Beard, *The Rise of American Civilization* (2 vols., New York, 1927), I, 695–703, 709–10.

[2] David M. Potter, *The South and the Sectional Conflict* (Baton Rouge, 1968), 91–99; David Donald, "American Historians and the Causes of the Civil War," *South Atlantic Quarterly*, LIX (Summer 1960), 351–55.

Mr. Dillon is professor of history at Ohio State University.

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justice matches that of today. As the abolitionists' relevance to the contemporary situation became obvious, research and writing on them naturally increased in volume, if not in scope. Most recent works on the subject have taken the form of monographs, biographies, articles, and interpretative essays. Only Dwight L. Dumond and Louis Filler have undertaken comprehensive treatments, although David B. Davis has launched a large enterprise that promises eventually to encompass both the British and American antislavery movements.[3]

By far the largest part of the writings since 1959, in contrast with those of immediately preceding years, express sympathy for both the aims and the style of abolitionists. Their methods may not in every instance be wholeheartedly endorsed, but rarely does one any longer find them dismissed in revisionist terms as fanatics, seekers after martyrdom, or irresponsible agitators. Instead they have again become objects of respect and admiration, much as they were in the writings of nationalist historians of post–Civil War years.[4]

No doubt it places too much faith in the efficacy of historical research to attribute the recent near-revolution in attitude toward abolitionists solely to increased knowledge about them. The comprehensiveness of Dumond's writings on the antislavery movement probably should be given only partial credit for putting Avery Craven's unflattering views of abolitionists into eclipse. Surely more to the point is a New York *Times* report that as the civil rights march from Selma, Alabama, drew near to Montgomery early in 1965 it was to be joined by at least twenty historians, including some of the most prominent students of the Civil War and Reconstruction.[5] The sympathy those historians

[3] Dwight L. Dumond, *Antislavery: The Crusade for Freedom in America* (Ann Arbor, 1961); Louis Filler, *The Crusade Against Slavery, 1830–1860* (New York, 1960); David B. Davis, *The Problem of Slavery in Western Culture* (Ithaca, 1966), the first of a projected three volumes.

[4] Bertram Wyatt-Brown, "Abolitionism: Its Meaning for Contemporary American Reform," *Midwest Quarterly,* VIII (October 1966), 41–55. The fact that some reviewers so sharply criticized Dumond for being uncritical of the abolitionists suggests that attitudes toward them may be less universally sympathetic than the above paragraph claims. See especially C. Vann Woodward, "The Antislavery Myth," *American Scholar,* XXXI (Spring 1962), 312–28; and reviews by David Potter, Louis Filler, and David Donald in *American Historical Review,* LXVII (July 1962), 1064; *New England Quarterly,* XXXV (December 1962), 557; and *Political Science Quarterly,* LXXVII (June 1962), 273. For a late assertion that "many" abolitionists "coveted to become martyrs," see William H. Pease and Jane H. Pease, "Antislavery Ambivalence: Immediatism, Expediency, Race," *American Quarterly,* XVII (Winter 1965), 693.

[5] New York *Times,* March 23, 1965.

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CHAPTER 12 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A12.14 - Conscience and Consciousness: The Liberal Christian Context of Thoreau's Political Ethics

James Duban

ARTICLE	Conscience and Consciousness: The Liberal Christian Context of Thoreau's Political Ethics
JOURNAL	The New England Quarterly 60, no. 2 (1987)
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Conscience and Consciousness: The Liberal Christian Context of Thoreau's Political Ethics

JAMES DUBAN

IN a college essay submitted on 19 May 1837, young Henry David Thoreau wrote, "the fear of displeasing the world ought not, in the least, to influence my actions; were it otherwise the principal avenue to reform would be closed."[1] Thoreau followed this dictum when in 1846 he was jailed for refusing to pay a poll tax destined to support American aggression against Mexico and, to his mind, the extension of slavery into the American Southwest. Thoreau's reflections on his jailing—delivered as a lecture in 1848 and first published under the title of "Resistance to Civil Government" the following year—have elicited a variety of critical responses, several of which concentrate upon "influence": some detail the impact of Thoreau's essay upon such writers and thinkers as Count Leo Tolstoy, Upton Sinclair, Mahatma Gandhi, and Martin Luther King, Jr.; looking back in time, others see in Thoreau's conscientious dissent a reaction to Plato's *Crito* and, as Thoreau himself makes clear, to Paley's *Moral and Political Philosophy*. Figuring more positively in the formulation of Thoreau's views were, perhaps, the individualistic outlooks of Sophocles's *Antigone*, Milton's *Areopagitica*, Jonathan Dymond's *Essays on the Principles of Morality*, and Emerson's

[1] Essay on "the duty, inconvenience, and dangers of *conformity*," in *Henry D. Thoreau, Early Essays and Miscellanies*, ed. Joseph J. Moldenhauer et al. (Princeton: Princeton University Press, 1975), p. 106.

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"Self Reliance" and "Politics."[2] Thoreau seems also to have been indebted to the "non-resistant" antislavery protests of William Lloyd Garrison and Charles Lane, as well as to Amos Bronson Alcott's refusal to pay his poll tax to a government tolerant of slavery, an act that led to his arrest.[3] Still to be addressed, however, is the Unitarian dimension of Thoreau's account of his resistance, especially with respect to his dual emphasis on conscience and consciousness.

The idea—only partly true—persists that Thoreau's "Resistance to Civil Government" pushes a mainly transcendental spiritualism to its sociopolitical conclusions.[4] Transcendentalism is implicated insofar as it espoused self-reliance and celebrated the moral sentiment, yet transcendentalism was itself indebted to several key tenets of Unitarian Christianity. Notwithstanding Emerson's, Parker's, and Ripley's rejection of Unitarian rationalism and historiography, recent scholarship has detailed the aesthetic and rhetorical similarities between transcendental prose and the Unitarian sermon form and has shown that the idea of self-culture—which is central to

[2] Walter Harding, "The Influence of Civil Disobedience" (1963), reproduced as part of the introduction to Harding's *The Variorum Civil Disobedience* (New York: Twayne, 1967), pp. 11–28; George Hendrick, "The Influence of Thoreau's 'Civil Disobedience' on Gandhi's *Satyagraha*," *New England Quarterly* 29 (1956): 462–71; Michael Meyer, *Several More Lives to Live: Thoreau's Political Reputation in America* (Westport, Conn.: Greenwood Press, 1977); George Anastaplo, "On Civil Disobedience: Thoreau and Socrates," *Southwest Review* 54 (1969): 203–14; Martin K. Doudna, "Echoes of Milton, Donne, and Carlyle in 'Civil Disobedience,'" *Thoreau Journal Quarterly* 12 (1980): 5–7; (on *Antigone*) Richard Drinnon, "Thoreau's Politics of the Upright Man" (1962), in *The Recognition of Henry David Thoreau*, ed. Wendell Glick (Ann Arbor: University of Michigan Press, 1969), pp. 365–66; James Duban, "Thoreau, Garrison, and Dymond: Unbending Firmness of the Mind," *American Literature* 57 (1985): 309–17; (on Paley and Emerson) Raymond Adams, "Thoreau's Sources for 'Resistance to Civil Government,'" *Studies in Philology* 42 (1945): 642–46, 651–53.

[3] Adams, "Thoreau's Sources," pp. 647–51; Wendell Glick, "Thoreau and Radical Abolitionism: A Study of the Native Background of Thoreau's Social Philosophy" (Ph.D. diss., Northwestern University, 1950); John C. Broderick, "Thoreau, Alcott, and the Poll Tax," *Studies in Philology* 53 (1956): 612–26; Taylor Stoehr, *Nay-Saying in Concord: Emerson, Alcott, and Thoreau* (Hamden, Conn.: Archon Books, 1979), pp. 44–66.

[4] Edward H. Madden, *Civil Disobedience and Moral Law in Nineteenth-Century American Philosophy* (Seattle: University of Washington Press, 1968), p. 97; Christopher Lyle Johnstone, "Thoreau and Civil Disobedience: A Rhetorical Paradox," *Quarterly Journal of Speech* 60 (1974): 315.

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CHAPTER 12 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A12.15 - The Root of the Evil: Free Produce and Radical Antislavery, 1820-1860

Carol Faulkner

ARTICLE	The Root of the Evil: Free Produce and Radical Antislavery, 1820-1860
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The Root of the Evil

Free Produce and Radical Antislavery, 1820–1860

CAROL FAULKNER

Oh press me not to taste again
Of those luxurious banquet sweets!
Or hide from view the dark red stain
That still my shuddering vision meets.

Away! 'Tis loathsome! Bear me hence!
I cannot feed on human sighs,
Or feast with sweets my palate's sense,
While blood is 'neath the fair disguise.

No, never let me taste again
Of aught besides the coarsest fare,
Far rather, than my conscience stain,
With the polluted luxuries there.

"Oh Press Me Not To Taste Again"
Elizabeth Margaret Chandler, 1836

I wear an easy garment,
O'er it no toiling slave
Wept tears of hopeless anguish,
In his passage to the grave.

Carol Faulkner is associate professor of history at Syracuse University. She thanks Andrew Wender Cohen, Christopher Densmore, Faye Dudden, Phillip Lapsansky, Alison Parker, Mark Schmeller, James Brewer Stewart, Victoria Wolcott, the Gilder Lehrman Center for the Study of Slavery, Resistance, and Abolition at Yale University, the Historical Society of Pennsylvania and the Library Company of Philadelphia, and the anonymous reviewers of the *JER* for their comments and support.

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And from its ample folds
Shall rise no cry to God,
Upon its warp and woof shall be
No stain of tears and blood.

From "Free Labor"
Frances Ellen Watkins Harper, 1871[1]

These two poems bear witness to an important, but largely forgotten, strain of trans-Atlantic abolitionism. Between the rise of antislavery sentiment in the eighteenth century and the abolition of involuntary servitude in the United States during the 1860s, thousands of activists struggled to deliver themselves, their families, and their neighbors from the immoral products of slave labor, such as sugar and cotton. Advocates of "free produce" touted the superiority of free over slave labor, creating businesses and associations that offered producers and consumers economic alternatives to slavery. Appealing to religious notions of purity, they urged Americans to construct a moral economy through individual abstinence. Though often ignored by historians, these reformers actually preceded William Lloyd Garrison in calling for immediate emancipation. Moreover, as abolitionists like Garrison rejected "free produce," many female and black activists continued to support the cause. Emphasizing the power of individual morality, antislavery women viewed free produce as a reaffirmation of their ideological opposition to slavery. African American abolitionists increasingly promoted a boycott as a practical response to slavery, asserting their independence from the American Anti-Slavery Society. Despite these varied motivations, free produce remained a mark of radical commitment to abolition and racial equality through the Civil War.

Historical neglect flows from the hostility of many abolitionists themselves. Lucretia Mott's granddaughter, Anna Davis Hallowell, called candy made from free sugar an "abomination." In an article titled "Free Produce among the Quakers" published in 1868, Wendell Phillips Garrison, son of the abolitionist leader, mocked advocates of free produce as inconsistent and irrelevant "sentimentalists," whose only value lay in

1. Benjamin Lundy, ed., *The Poetical Works of Elizabeth Margaret Chandler* (Philadelphia, PA, 1836), 108; Maryemma Graham, ed., *Complete Poems of Frances E. W. Harper* (New York, 1988), 25.

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CHAPTER 12 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A12.16 - Theodore Parker and the Abolitionist Role in the 1850s

Michael Fellman

ARTICLE	Theodore Parker and the Abolitionist Role in the 1850s
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Theodore Parker and the Abolitionist Role in the 1850s

MICHAEL FELLMAN

IN her recent, sensitive analysis of Garrisonian tactics, Aileen S. Kraditor concluded that, by 1850, the abolitionist movement had "crystallized," both in philosophy and in leadership, into two categories: Garrisonian radicals, "who believed American society, North as well as South, was fundamentally immoral, with slavery only the worst of its many sins, and who looked forward to a thorough-going change in its institutional structure and ideology"; and conservative reformers who "considered Northern society fundamentally good and believed that abolition of slavery would eliminate a deviation from its essential goodness and thereby strengthen and preserve its basically moral arrangements."[1]

However accurate this illustration of a deep split within abolitionism prior to 1850, yet another fundamental division developed within the radical branch of abolitionism during the 1850s. The Fugitive Slave Act of 1850 visited slavery imminently upon the North as never before and led many abolitionists to reconsider their position toward direct action and to develop a more combative methodology. Radical abolitionists divided publicly and basically over the use of violent means in attacking slavery. As well as demonstrating a division over tactics for destroying the institution of slavery, this schism reflected a changing approach toward rallying the people of the North against slavery. Garrison's nonresistant tactical stance became increasingly anachronistic, his American

Michael Fellman is associate professor of history in Simon Fraser University. The author acknowledges the financial assistance of Simon Fraser University.

[1] Aileen S. Kraditor, *Means and Ends in American Abolitionism: Garrison and His Critics on Strategy and Tactics, 1834-1850* (New York, 1969), viii, 8. On the idea of "crystallization" of abolitionist philosophy before 1850, Aileen S. Kraditor has followed Louis Ruchames, ed., *The Abolitionists* (New York, 1963), 11. The debate between Kraditor and John L. Thomas provides essential contexts and distinctions concerning the meaning of Garrisonian abolitionism. John L. Thomas, *The Liberator William Lloyd Garrison: A Biography* (Boston, 1963).

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Anti-Slavery Society, always more of a speaking and publishing clearing-house than an institution with a life of its own, disintegrated, and yet the phenomenon of radical abolitionism was nourished by new leaders expressing new sentiments and grew enormously. As an intellectually rigorous, élitist movement, abolitionism lost ground, but it spread widely as a popularly shared ideological position. While the role of the abolitionist leadership shifted to a more active relationship to direct action, the emotional connotation of the radical abolitionist appeal moved from a somewhat austere and demanding call for redemption, or at least separation from evil by guilty northern onlookers, to an overtly expressed desire for destructive revenge against the slaveholding wrongdoers.[2]

This ideological alteration among radical abolitionists also pulled many of them toward partisan political involvement, thus denying another central Garrisonian premise, that of detachment from mass political parties. In support of people like Senator Charles A. Sumner, but even more centrally, in relating their position to Republican Free Soil doctrine, many radical abolitionists joined with more committed abolitionist elements within the Republican party to form a common ideological front against slavery. In an important way, radical abolitionists, excluding the shrinking faction of Garrisonian purists, found methods to deal positively with ameliorist abolitionists within the Republican party. This consolidation occurred particularly in establishing common ground concerning racial attitudes. As many radical abolitionists moved toward the principles of Republicanism in the course of the 1850s and as the Republican party moved toward power, abolitionist attitudes, both within and without the party, became more racist—anti-black, anti-southern (with the southerners seen as somehow an alien race), and exclusively white in their focus on preserving free white labor in the North and free white soil in the West. In a recent essay C. Vann Woodward concluded starkly: "The successful antislavery movement embraced anti-Negro recruits and their prejudices and triumphed over slavery in the name of white supremacy."[3]

[2] Kraditor writes that the passage of the Fugitive Slave Act made abolitionism "respectable." Kraditor, *Means and Ends in American Abolitionism*, 107-08. At least it opened many northern ears. John Demos charts the movement away from nonresistance as recorded within the pages of Garrison's own newspaper, the *Liberator*. See John Demos, "The Antislavery Movement and the Problem of Violent 'Means,'" *New England Quarterly*, XXXVII (Dec. 1964), 501-26. For a discussion of the movement of leading abolitionists toward confrontation politics, see Jane H. Pease and William H. Pease, "Confrontation and Abolition in the 1850s," *Journal of American History*, LVIII (March 1972), 923-37.

[3] C. Vann Woodward, "The Northern Crusade Against Slavery," *American Counterpoint: Slavery and Racism in the North-South Dialogue* (Boston, 1971), 148. See also Eric Foner, *Free Soil, Free Labor, Free Men: The Ideology of the Republican Party before the*

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CHAPTER 12 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A12.17 - Reason for a Renaissance: The Rhetoric of Reformation and Rebirth in the Age of Transcendentalism

Joe B. Fulton

ARTICLE	Reason for a Renaissance: The Rhetoric of Reformation and Rebirth in the Age of Transcendentalism
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Reason for a Renaissance: The Rhetoric of Reformation and Rebirth in the Age of Transcendentalism

JOE B. FULTON

> It was the day of the "Renaissance" of New England.
> —"The American Unitarian Pulpit," *Christian Examiner,* July 1865

ONE of American literary history's fundamental truisms is that the body of written work produced in New England between the 1830s and the 1860s constituted a renaissance. The authors who created that literature used the term and its cognates to refer to their cultural milieu, and since that time scholars have followed their lead. In no decade since the Transcendental Club first met in 1836 has the concept been absent from informed discussions of the period. The term's long bloodline notwithstanding, however, many, perhaps most, critics today believe that F. O. Mattheissen coined the idiom *American renaissance* in his highly influential volume *American Renaissance: Art and Expression in the Age of Emerson and Whitman* (1941). Sacvan Bercovitch, for example, claims that scholars "owe the idea of an American Renaissance to F. O. Matthiessen." Matthiessen's book, Bercovitch continues, "reset the terms for the study of American literary history."[1]

The latter half of Bercovitch's statement is quite accurate. Matthiessen did "reset" the term *renaissance,* a vital designation for a crucial period in our national literature. Perhaps without

[1] Sacvan Bercovitch, "The Problem of Ideology in American Literary History," *Critical Inquiry* 12 (1986): 631.

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knowing that he was doing so, Matthiessen adopted the transcendentalists' term, but in the process he redefined it, distorting its original meaning. In 1958 Harry Levin revealed that it was he who had proposed the title, suggesting it to Matthiessen after his publisher demanded something "more descriptively categorical" than *Man in the Open Air,* the working title Matthiessen had gleaned from Whitman.[2] Matthiessen's new title met some resistance as well, but he defended it in a letter to his publisher, promising to add "a few additional sentences in the preface" to clarify his intentions.[3] He made good on his promise. "The starting point for this book," he wrote,

> was my realization of how great a number of our past masterpieces were produced in one extraordinarily concentrated moment of expression. It may not seem precisely accurate to refer to our mid-nineteenth century as a *re-birth;* but that was how the writers themselves judged it. Not as a re-birth of values that had existed previously in America, but as America's way of producing a renaissance, by coming to its first maturity and affirming its rightful heritage in the whole expanse of art and culture.[4]

In failing to explore the ways in which the writers of 1830–60 considered their era a renaissance, however, Matthiessen not only fostered the impression that he had coined the term, but he propagated his particular version of it as well. To return the idiom to its original, self-referential historical moment, one must engage in what historian Reinhart Koselleck calls *Begriffsgeschichte,* or conceptual history, which he defines as "a specialized method for source criticism . . . directing itself in particular to the analysis of central expressions having social or political content."[5] That engagement is no trivial academic exercise; rather, it is akin to the restorer's art of stripping away

[2]Harry Levin, *The Power of Blackness: Hawthorne, Poe, Melville* (New York: Alfred A. Knopf, 1958), p. vii.

[3]Quoted in George Abbott White, "Ideology and Literature: *American Renaissance* and F. O. Matthiessen," *TriQuarterly* 22–24 (1972): 497.

[4]F. O. Matthiessen, *American Renaissance: Art and Expression in the Age of Emerson and Whitman* (New York: Oxford University Press, 1941), p. vii.

[5]Reinhart Koselleck, *Futures Past: On the Semantics of Historical Time,* trans. Keith Tribe (New York: Columbia University Press, 2004), p. 81.

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CHAPTER 12 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A12.18 - 'Moral Suasion Is Moral Balderdash': Women, Politics, and Social Activism in the 1850s

Lori D. Ginzberg

ARTICLE	'Moral Suasion Is Moral Balderdash': Women, Politics, and Social Activism in the 1850s
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"Moral Suasion Is Moral Balderdash": Women, Politics, and Social Activism in the 1850s

Lori D. Ginzberg

"This is a utilitarian age," asserted a writer in the *American Temperance Magazine* in 1852. "The speculative has in all things yielded to the practical. . . . In this sense, moral suasion is moral balderdash." "Isola," writing to woman's rights activist Paulina Wright Davis's newspaper, the *Una*, agreed: "Fanatical philanthropy is growing cooler, and the hairbrained are becoming more practical and matter of fact." In 1848 former moral reformer Sarah Smith Martyn, who in the tradition of benevolent reform still insisted that "virtue alone is indestructible and eternal," admitted, "The day of romantic dreams and visionary philanthropy has gone by. Every thing is now in motion, and he who would stamp his impress . . . on society, must be at least a practical utilitarian."[1] What had happened? Had the fervor that characterized northern Protestant benevolence in the 1830s, the hope that "moral suasion" would redeem the world, vanished in a puff of partisan smoke? Many writers in the late 1840s and 1850s contended—either gloatingly or ruefully—that it had. The transformation of benevolent activism during the 1850s, a decade too often ignored by social and intellectual historians, signaled both new settings for reform activity and a changed context for the moral radicalism in which women had played a central role.

As a result of the Second Great Awakening of the 1820s and early 1830s, a millennial spirit pervaded efforts at transforming United States society. Abolitionists, vegetarians, temperance activists, and crusaders against "male lust"—"ultraists" in nineteenth-century terms—sought not merely social change but spiritual transformation, the moral regeneration of the world. That evangelical impulse, as numerous historians have argued, provided the framework in which radical social change was articulated in the antebellum period.[2] American middle-class radicalism in the

Lori D. Ginzberg is a lecturer in history at the University of Rhode Island, Kingston, and is the 1986–1987 American Historical Association's J. Franklin Jameson fellow. The author wishes to thank Jeanne Boydston, Carol Karlsen, Teresa Murphy, Joel Steiker, and the referees and staff of the *Journal of American History* for their advice and support.

[1] David Brion Davis, *Antebellum American Culture: An Interpretive Anthology* (Lexington, Mass., 1979), 408; *Una*, Nov. 1854, p. 358; Mrs. S. T. Martyn, "The Spirit and Wants of the Age," *Ladies Wreath: An Illustrated Annual for MDCCCXLVIII–IX* (New York, 1848–1849), 82, 81.

[2] A recent work by Nancy A. Hewitt divides Rochester, New York's activist women into three groups: benevolent, perfectionist, and ultraist. I do not make explicit use of those categories, but instead discuss the spectrum

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1830s and 1840s evolved in a religious context, one in which the regeneration of individuals would precede—and assure—the salvation of society.

Women played a central role both in the ideology and in the means of the proposed national transformation.[3] Viewed as inherently moral, women were to instruct by example and to participate in movements for social, or moral, change. Moral suasion, the chosen means for those who sought nothing less than the transformation of the public soul, conformed both to women's supposed qualities and to the nature of their access to those in power.

For a brief period in the 1830s, ultraist women called on men to adhere to a single—"female"—standard of behavior in the interest of social change. Being voteless and, in theory, nonpartisan was part of the radical vision, and votelessness was a choice made with pride.[4] "Far be it from me to encourage women to vote," declared Lucretia Mott in an early speech asserting women's right to do so, "or to take an active part in politics in the present state of our government. . . . Would that man, too, would have no participation in a government recognizing the life-taking principle." "As to [women's] ever becoming partisans, i.e., sacrificing principles to power or interest," wrote Angelina Grimké, "I reprobate this under all circumstances, and in *both* sexes."[5] Access to the political process itself—long assumed by relatively elite and conservative women who petitioned legislators for legal changes, state funds, and corporate status for their organizations—represented to more radical activists the privileges of class, the advocacy of a traditional cause, and narrowness of vision. For ultraists, the adoption of "practical" means for change represented a retreat from principle, from the ideal of an aggressively Christian and implicitly "female" identity that would be shared by all. To those who believed that governments were

of activist style and thought, from ultraist to conservative, that characterized pre–Civil War benevolent work. See Nancy A. Hewitt, *Women's Activism and Social Change: Rochester, New York, 1822–1872* (Ithaca, 1984), esp. 38–68. On the evangelical framework of antebellum social reform see, for example, Gilbert Hobbs Barnes, *The Antislavery Impulse, 1830–1844* (New York, 1964), esp. 3–16; Carroll Smith Rosenberg, *Religion and the Rise of the American City: The New York City Mission Movement, 1812–1870* (Ithaca, 1971), 44–69; William G. McLoughlin, *Revivals, Awakenings, and Reform: An Essay on Religion and Social Change in America, 1607–1977* (Chicago, 1978), 98–140; and Paul E. Johnson, *A Shopkeeper's Millennium: Society and Revivals in Rochester, New York, 1815–1837* (New York, 1978).

[3] For interpretations of women's role, see Whitney R. Cross, *The Burned-over District: The Social and Intellectual History of Enthusiastic Religion in Western New York, 1800–1850* (New York, 1950), 84–89; Barbara J. Berg, *The Remembered Gate: Origins of American Feminism: The Woman and the City, 1800–1860* (New York, 1978), esp. 145–75; Keith E. Melder, *Beginnings of Sisterhood: The American Woman's Rights Movement, 1800–1850* (New York, 1977), esp. 49–61; Anne M. Boylan, "Women in Groups: An Analysis of Women's Benevolent Organizations in New York and Boston, 1797–1840," *Journal of American History*, 71 (Dec. 1984), 497–523; and Mary P. Ryan, *Cradle of the Middle Class: The Family in Oneida County, New York, 1790–1865* (New York, 1981), esp. 83–98, 105–36.

[4] The debate within the abolition movement about a "nonvoting" stance has fascinated historians, although few have associated the nonvoters' call for radical social change either with women's enforced votelessness or with the growing importance of the vote itself. See esp. Aileen S. Kraditor, *Means and Ends in American Abolitionism: Garrison and His Critics on Strategy and Tactics, 1834–1850* (New York, 1967), esp. 39–77, 118–77; Ronald G. Walters, *The Antislavery Appeal: American Abolitionism after 1830* (Baltimore, 1976), esp. 3–18; and Lawrence J. Friedman, *Gregarious Saints: Self and Community in American Abolitionism, 1830–1870* (New York, 1982), esp. 129–59.

[5] Elizabeth Cady Stanton, Susan B. Anthony, and Matilda Joslyn Gage, eds., *History of Woman Suffrage* (3 vols., Rochester, N.Y., 1889), I, 372; Angelina Grimké, *Letters to Catharine Beecher, in Reply to an Essay on Slavery and Abolitionism, Addressed to A. E. Grimké* (Boston, 1838), 111.

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CHAPTER 12 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A12.19 - Patriots and Christians: A Reassessment of Nineteenth-Century School Reformers

Mary McDougall Gordon

ARTICLE	Patriots and Christians: A Reassessment of Nineteenth-Century School Reformers
JOURNAL	Journal of Social History 11, no. 4 (1978)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 554-555
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PATRIOTS AND CHRISTIANS: A REASSESSMENT OF NINETEENTH-CENTURY SCHOOL REFORMERS

As anyone interested in the history of education knows, the publication in 1968 of *The Irony of Early School Reform,* by Michael Katz, initiated a vigorous reappraisal of the origins of public education in 19th-century America. Katz examined the pioneering school reform movement in antebellum Massachusetts and sharply questioned the standard historical interpretation. To earlier educational historians, the school reformers were humanitarians responding to popular demands, and the common-school crusade in Massachusetts was the vanguard of a national movement to establish public, secular schooling. Katz, however, saw the reformers as anxious, upper-class citizens who imposed bureaucratic school systems on a reluctant community, in order to control the children of a changing society. The school reform movement, he concluded, was a response not to democracy but to the problems of an urban industrial state. His argument has been bolstered by subsequent studies which concentrate on city schools and relate educational reform to urban growth and fear of social disorder.[1]

This revisionist interpretation has demolished the familiar and comforting myths of traditional educational history. But it leaves a number of problems unresolved. First, the thesis that "public education in nineteenth-century America grew with the nation's cities" fails to explain the establishment of similar school systems in rural America where most of the people lived.[2] Second, recent preoccupation with urban school reform understates the historic relationship between education and nationalism.

Based on examination of the formative years of reform in Massachusetts between 1830 and 1837, this essay advances another interpretation: the educational awakening was a Protestant crusade to establish a culture that became the dominant system of values in the new nation. This interpretation does not reject the work of revisionist historians; on the contrary it accommodates the urban thesis. The early school reformers assuredly were conservative, upper-class citizens disturbed about the disruptive effects of urban and industrial growth. But revisionist historians, frankly disillusioned with the bureaucratic school systems of contemporary urban America, project the present back into the past when they isolate urban growth as the catalyst of change.[3] Examination of the early reform movement reveals that reformers were impelled by a driving anxiety about the progress and character of republican society – not just urban republican society. They believed that the republic would survive only if all children – from the smallest villages and farms as well as the largest cities – were trained in the values inherited from the Puritan past. The system of universal education that they set out to establish was based firmly on religion and traditional morality.

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The role of religion has received short shrift from the two leading schools of educational history, despite striking evidence of its importance not only in school reform but in the many-faceted reform activity of antebellum America. Yet religious influence in the growth of public education has been recognized by other scholars. In 1964, for example, in her study of 19th-century schoolbooks, Ruth Elson observed that they were written mainly by New Englanders, many of whom were clergymen. Elson states that the authors saw the function of their books as the creation of American nationality, and that the "national truths" of their texts were based on Christian ethics and the Puritan heritage. Elson significantly entitled her book *Guardians of Tradition.* Two years later, an essay by David Tyack on the growth of public education in the Far West before the Civil War emphasized the crucial role of the Protestant clergy. And in another important article, published in 1967, Timothy Smith explored school reform movements in the Middle West and New York City between 1800 and 1850. He concluded that they were vigorous attempts to establish systems of Protestant schooling (a purpose clearly understood by the Catholic hierarchy), and were vitally connected with the wider antebellum crusade to establish "a national identity that was not simply religious but distinctively Protestant." The crusade was so successful, Smith declared, that by 1850 Protestantism had become synonymous with Americanism.[4]

More recently two other scholars have continued this theme. In *Americans and the California Dream,* Kevin Starr asserts that in California education went hand in hand with the Protestant churches in a determined attempt to found a Christian state on the western sea. Before the Civil War, New Englanders, led by the clergy, established the California common-school system, modeled on that of Massachusetts. California, one clergyman proclaimed in 1850, must become "the Massachusetts of the Pacific," a society founded on religion and self-rule.[5] In another study – on the emergence of the teaching profession in the 19th century – Paul Mattingly stresses the primary role of religion in educational reform. He takes the religious convictions of school reformers seriously and maintains the importance of their belief that only Christian teachers could shape a national character. Mattingly expresses dissatisfaction with the fashionable thesis of revisionist educational history, centered on urban industrialism. Its basic flaw, he writes, "is the failure to account for the moral dynamic and religious underpinnings which set the context for all discussions of educational and social reform before the Civil War."[6]

The example of Massachusetts stimulated and inspired school reformers throughout the nation, and it is essential that we get at the heart of its common-school crusade. An understanding of its intrinsic religious impulse, coupled with the insights of historians who detect a similar impulse behind the movement in other parts of the country, should lead to the proper placement of common-school reform in Massachusetts within the wider antebellum Protestant crusade to forge a Christian nation.[7]

The educational reform movement in Massachusetts emerged as a purposeful, organized force in 1830 with the founding in Boston of the American Institute of Instruction. Since the middle of the 1820s, sentiment to reform the common schools throughout the state had been growing within a small circle of college

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CHAPTER 12 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A12.20 - Emerson and the Woman Question: The Evolution of His Thought

Len Gougeon

ARTICLE	Emerson and the Woman Question: The Evolution of His Thought
JOURNAL	The New England Quarterly 71, no. 4 (1998)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 570-571
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Emerson and the Woman Question: The Evolution of His Thought

LEN GOUGEON

IN a newspaper article celebrating the one-hundredth anniversary of Emerson's birth, Thomas Wentworth Higginson complained that those who knew Mr. Emerson in the light of a reformer, as he surely did, would find precious little information "given in that direction by his biographers."[1] Noting the generally conservative character of the two most influential and popular biographies of Emerson, those by Oliver Wendell Holmes and James Elliot Cabot,[2] Higginson was particularly distressed over their "constitutional reticence" in discussing the philosopher's role in both the antislavery and women's movements. "It was a well-known fact," Higginson observed, "that Mr. Emerson spoke several times at woman suffrage conventions, and this cordially and sympathetically. Yet," he says, "this is not mentioned in Mr. Cabot's memoir." If Higginson were to return today he would find that scant progress has been made in the biographical treatment of Emerson's views on the "Woman Question." While serious efforts have recently been made to recover the record of Emerson's important activities in the antislavery movement, very little is presently known about

[1]"Emerson as the Reformer," *Boston Daily Advertiser*, 23 May 1903, p. 1. Higginson (1823–1911), an 1847 graduate of Harvard Divinity School, left the ministry, in part because of the unpopularity of his strong antislavery views. He participated in the 1854 forceful and unsuccessful attempt to free fugitive slave Anthony Burns from a Federal Court House in Boston, and he served as a colonel in a Negro Regiment during the Civil War. He was, like many abolitionists, a strong supporter of women's rights. In 1896 he presented to the Boston Public Library his "Galatea collection of books relating to the history of women," numbering about one thousand volumes.

[2]Oliver Wendell Holmes, *Ralph Waldo Emerson* (Boston: Houghton, Mifflin and Co., 1884); James Elliot Cabot, *A Memoir of Ralph Waldo Emerson*, 2 vols. (Boston: Houghton, Mifflin and Co., 1887).

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his contributions to the cause of women's rights.[3] Emerson's only published work on the topic is the well-known lecture he delivered before the women's rights convention in Boston on 20 September 1855. The address, titled simply "Woman," was first published, in part, in the *Woman's Journal* in 1881 and later, in its entirety, in both the 1883 and 1903–4 Centenary Edition of Emerson's *Complete Works*.[4] Our understanding of Emerson's public views on an important question of his day has, thus, been confined to this single source.

In editing the 1855 "Woman" address for publication in the 1903–4 Centenary Edition of his father's writings, Edward Waldo Emerson responded to Higginson's criticism of Cabot's *Memoir*. Cabot, in addition to being Emerson's biographer, was also his literary executor and worked with Edward and Emerson's older daughter, Ellen, in preparing various works for publication both before and after Emerson's death.[5] In his "Notes" to the reprinted version of "Woman" in the Centenary Edition, Edward stated that "the only other address on the subject which is known to exist Mr. Cabot did not print probably be-

[3]Emerson's substantial contributions to the antislavery movement are documented in detail in my *Virtue's Hero: Emerson, Antislavery, and Reform* (Athens: University of Georgia Press, 1990) as well as my and Joel Myerson's edition of *Emerson's Antislavery Writings* (New Haven: Yale University Press, 1995). Emerson's social reform activities also receive substantial consideration in such recent biographies and studies as Robert Richardson's *Emerson: The Mind on Fire* (Berkeley: University of California Press, 1995); David Robinson's *Emerson and the Conduct of Life* (New York: Cambridge University Press, 1993); Merton M. Sealts, Jr.'s *Emerson on the Scholar* (Columbia: University of Missouri Press, 1992); and Barbara Ryan's "Emerson's 'Domestic and Social Experiments': Service, Slavery, and the Unheard Man," *American Literature* 66 (September 1994): 485–508.

The political ramifications of Emerson's reform philosophy are considered in John Carlos Rowe's *At Emerson's Tomb: The Politics of Classic American Literature* (New York: Columbia University Press, 1997); Richard Teichgraeber's *Sublime Thoughts/Penny Wisdom: Situating Emerson and Thoreau in the American Market* (Baltimore: Johns Hopkins University Press, 1995); Stanley Cavell's *Philosophical Passages* (Cambridge: Blackwell, 1995); and George Kateb's *Emerson and Self-Reliance* (Thousand Oaks, Calif.: Sage Press, 1995).

[4]See Joel Myerson, *Ralph Waldo Emerson: A Descriptive Bibliography* (Pittsburgh: University of Pittsburgh Press, 1982), pp. 375, 680.

[5]For a comprehensive discussion of Cabot's seminal role in shaping, or misshaping, the Emerson canon in the late nineteenth century, see Nancy Craig Simmons, "Arranging the Sibylline Leaves: James Elliot Cabot's Work as Emerson's Literary Executor," in *Studies in the American Renaissance*, ed. Joel Myerson (Charlottesville: University Press of Virginia, 1983), pp. 335–89.

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CHAPTER 12 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A12.21 - Reconstructing the Antebellum Communitarian Movement: Oneida and Fourierism

Carl J. Guarneri

ARTICLE	Reconstructing the Antebellum Communitarian Movement: Oneida and Fourierism
JOURNAL	Journal of the Early Republic 16, no. 3 (1996)
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RECONSTRUCTING THE ANTEBELLUM COMMUNITARIAN MOVEMENT: ONEIDA AND FOURIERISM

Carl J. Guarneri

In his classic study *Backwoods Utopias*, Arthur Bestor emphasized that nineteenth-century utopian experiments, despite their varied origins, were not isolated phenomena but allies in communitarianism, the attempt to restructure society through scale models of harmony. Antebellum communitarians shared common ancestors in ''communitive'' religious sects such as the Shakers and Rappites. Utopians of various stripes agreed that society might be transformed through the example of cooperative communities; they located near one another and bought each other's land when experiments failed; they visited, corresponded, and in other ways influenced each other; and their communities attracted a host of idealists who migrated interchangeably between groups. These connections took place despite doctrinal differences and the distinction—later exaggerated by historians—between ''religious'' and ''secular'' groups. In linking the utopians together Bestor was only repeating what both the communitarians' sympathizers and detractors had said. ''That the experimental communities were manifestations of a single movement,'' he noted, ''was the unchallenged assumption of practically every observer in the sec-

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Carl J. Guarneri is Professor of History at Saint Mary's College of California. He is the author of *The Utopian Alternative: Fourierism in Nineteenth-century America* (Ithaca, 1991), which was awarded the 1992 SHEAR Book Prize. He thanks Professor Hiroshi Uga of Kobe Gakuin University for sharing his bibliographic researches, and three anonymous referees for their criticism and suggestions.

JOURNAL OF THE EARLY REPUBLIC, 16 (Fall 1996). © 1996 Society for Historians of the Early American Republic.

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ond quarter of the nineteenth century.''[1]

Nearly five decades after Bestor wrote, the concept of a communitarian movement has faded from the historical literature. The history of antebellum communities has become balkanized as studies concentrate on a particular experiment—New Harmony, Brook Farm, Hopedale, Modern Times—and consider it in isolation from others. Even overviews of communitarianism have chronicled the rise and fall of communal experiments episodically as disconnected examples of a recurring utopian idea or ''tradition.''[2] Another obstacle to historical synthesis has been the attraction of non-historical frameworks that promise a conceptual or practical payoff in the present. Important studies of the 1970s and 1980s treated utopian communities as grist for feminist theory or sociological generalizations, while popular works deriving from the Counterculture of the 1960s held them up as inspiring experiments in alternative lifestyles.[3] Recently, greater sensitivity to historical and cultural context has produced excellent work on how such nineteenth-century concepts as domesticity, pacifism, and millennialism influenced particular communal histories.[4] But the

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[1] Bestor, *Backwoods Utopias: The Sectarian Origins and Owenite Phase of Communitarian Socialism in America, 1663-1829* (1950; rev. ed., Philadelphia, 1970), 44-59, 47 (quotation).

[2] Studies of individual communities include: Edward K. Spann, *Hopedale: From Commune to Company Town, 1840-1920* (Columbus, OH, 1992); Roger Wunderlich, *Low Living and High Thinking at Modern Times, New York* (Syracuse, 1992); Christopher Clark, *The Communitarian Moment: The Radical Challenge of the Northampton Association* (Ithaca, 1995); Maren Lockwood Carden, *Oneida: Utopian Community to Modern Corporation* (Baltimore, 1969); and Edith R. Curtis, *A Season in Utopia: The Story of Brook Farm* (New York, 1961). For overviews, see Mark Holloway, *Heavens On Earth: Utopian Communities in America 1680-1880* (1951; 2d ed., New York, 1966); Robert S. Fogarty, *Dictionary of American Communal and Utopian History* (Westport, 1980); Yaacov Oved, *Two Hundred Years of American Communes* (New Brunswick, NJ, 1988); and Spann, *Brotherly Tomorrows: Movements for a Cooperative Society in America, 1820-1920* (New York, 1989).

[3] See, for example, Rosabeth Moss Kanter, *Commitment and Community: Communes and Utopias in Sociological Perspective* (Cambridge, MA, 1972); Sally L. Kitch, *Chaste Liberation: Celibacy and Female Cultural Status* (Champaign, 1989); and Keith Melville, *Communes in the Counter Culture: Origins, Theories, Styles of Life* (New York, 1972), 11-51.

[4] Among several titles, see Carol A. Kolmerten, *Women in Utopia: The Ideology of Gender in the American Owenite Communities* (Bloomington, 1990); Wendy E. Chmielewski, Louis J. Kern, and Marlyn Klee-Hartzell, eds., *Women in Spiritual and Communitarian Societies in the United States* (Syracuse, 1993); Thomas D. Hamm, *God's*

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CHAPTER 12 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A12.22 - Choosing a Medium: Margaret Fuller and the Forms of Sentiment

Sandra M. Gustafson

ARTICLE	Choosing a Medium: Margaret Fuller and the Forms of Sentiment
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Choosing a Medium: Margaret Fuller and the Forms of Sentiment

SANDRA M. GUSTAFSON
University of Notre Dame

THE CURRENT REPUTATION OF MARGARET FULLER AMONG SCHOLARS presents something of a paradox. For over a century, Fuller was widely regarded as a colorful but minor luminary in the Transcendentalist cosmos and was best known as Emerson's friend and coeditor of the Transcendentalist organ, the *Dial.* With the revival of the women's movement in the 1960s and the emergence of the new women's history in the 1970s, however, Fuller attracted fresh attention as the author of *Woman in the Nineteenth Century* (1845), her essay analyzing gender roles, which anticipates many themes in contemporary feminist scholarship. Over the last twenty years, critics and historians have offered new interpretations of Fuller's complex life and works and have attempted, with some success, to release her from her Transcendentalist ghetto and relate her intellectual achievements to the history of American feminism.[1] Despite the current emphasis on *Woman,* however, Fuller's relation to the early feminist movement remains vague and ill defined.[2] Its lack of definition is demonstrated in three recent histories of American women's public lives—Sara M. Evans's *Born for Liberty* (1989), Mary P. Ryan's *Women in Public* (1990), and Glenna Matthews's *The Rise of Public Woman* (1992)—none of which mentions Fuller.[3] While Fuller's current reputation depends to a significant degree on her activities as a public intellectual and her authorship of an early feminist treatise, then, she remains excluded from, or at best

Sandra M. Gustafson is an assistant professor of English at the University of Notre Dame. She is currently a fellow at the Institute of Early American History and Culture, where she is completing a project on early American oratory and performance.

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marginalized within, histories tracing the public roles of American women.

The paradox of Fuller's reputation has developed in large part as a consequence of disciplinary boundaries. While literary scholars view Fuller's work as quite explicit in its political engagement—certainly in comparison to her better-known contemporaries Emerson and Thoreau—historians regard her primarily as a literary figure. To reconcile these conflicting perspectives, it is necessary to understand the complex politics of Fuller's literary choices and the cultural environment within which she made them. Fuller's political engagements were fundamentally linguistic in nature. Contemplating the social position of woman in the nineteenth century, Fuller turned her attention to the problems of voice, form, and genre that for two centuries had shaped American women's public expression.

During the years when Fuller composed her feminist manifesto, the first women orators were mounting abolitionist platforms, an achievement she admired and envied while retaining a lively sense of the strategic limitations imposed by their rhetorical genre. Prevailing social conventions, derived most explicitly from St. Paul's dictum prohibiting women's speech in church, barred antebellum women from speaking publicly. Thus, in 1837, the General Association of Massachusetts responded to Angelina Grimké's path-breaking abolitionist lecture tour with a warning: "The appropriate duties and influence of woman are clearly stated in the New Testament. Those duties and that influence are unobtrusive and private. . . . We can not, therefore, but regret the mistaken conduct of those who encourage females to bear an obtrusive and ostentatious part in measures of reform, and countenance any of that sex who so far forget themselves as to itinerate in the character of public lecturers and teachers."[4]

In a democracy that valued oratory as the main vehicle for shaping collective values, activist women felt that attempts to exclude them from pulpit and platform severely constrained their political effectiveness. When they defied social constraints to claim the masculine authority of the orator, however, these women often chose a rhetorical model that complicated but ultimately reinforced gender distinctions. Presenting themselves as prophetesses, Quaker reformers such as Angelina Grimké and Abby Kelley, and "Quakerish" speakers such as Lucy Stone, served as female vessels for a masculine deity. When Stone addressed the National Woman's Rights Convention of 1855, for

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CHAPTER 12 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A12.23 - The Puzzle of American Methodism

Nathan O. Hatch

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The Puzzle of American Methodism

NATHAN O. HATCH

Picture, if you will, the rich landscape of American religious history that has taken shape over the last half century. At least three features of this terrain stand out, the first being a richly-textured panorama before us, a recognizable field of study that has come into existence in a relatively short span of time. This field has been shaped by a variety of forces, among them the vast expansion of religion departments since 1960, the recovery of the role of religion in the broader disciplines of history, literature, sociology and political science, and the stubborn persistence of religion in modern American life which scholars struggle to explain.

A second feature of this terrain worth noting is the coherence of the background, the distinct set of towering peaks that frame the discussion on religion in America. The recovery of American religious history, announced by Henry May in 1964, was the signal achievement of a generation that began in the 1930s and 1940s.[1] Its pioneers were scholars such as Perry Miller, Samuel Eliot Morison, and Ralph Barton Perry, and its builders were luminaries such as Alan Heiment, Edmund Morgan, William McLoughlin, Sydney Ahlstrom, Timothy Smith, and May himself—all trained at Harvard. In the middle decades of this century this momentum shifted to New Haven where a compelling vision of American religious history proceeded from the lectures and writings of a constellation of Yale professors: H. Richard Niebuhr, Edmund Morgan, Sydney Ahlstrom, and John Smith and a host of students, who, under their tutelage, explored the significance of American religion and, in particular, the tenacity of the Puritan vision.[2] The University of Chicago also played a signal role in this resurgence through the work of scholars such as William Warren Sweet, Sidney Mead, Robert Handy, Winthrop Hudson, Jerald Brauer and Martin E. Marty.[3]

For all their differences, these historians shared a common outlook: most linked the study of religion tightly to intellectual history, and most shared a

This essay was presented as the presidential address to the American Society of Church History, 8 January 1994.

1. Henry F. May, "The Recovery of American Religious History," *American Historical Review* 70 (1964): 79–92.
2. The epitome of this tradition is Sydney E. Ahlstrom's brilliant synthesis, *A Religious History of the American People* (New Haven, 1972).
3. See Sidney E. Mead, *The Lively Experiment: The Shaping of Christianity in America* (New York, 1963) and Martin E. Marty, *Righteous Empire: The Protestant Experience in America* (New York, 1970).

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basic story line of American religious development following a Puritan-turned-mainline-Protestant form of Christianity—in Winthrop Hudson's phrase, "the great tradition of the American churches."[4] Most of these historians were also consensualists, believing in a common American character, and most held a positive, affirmative reading of the overall achievement of American culture and its religion. Until the mid-1960s, it is safe to say, the canon of American religious history was surprisingly uniform and coherent. Its primary institutional base remained divinity schools at elite universities, its institutional focus the intellectual history of American mainline Protestants.[5]

Since the 1960s, a clash of convictions about the meaning of America has undermined the coherent and affirmative reading of the American religious experience. Instead of studying insiders, we have turned to study outsiders, subcultures, and the vast population of women, native and African Americans that the consensus school overlooked or subordinated to the main story of American religion. Fresh studies have poured forth on Pentecostalism, Holiness groups, and Fundamentalism, on Mormonism and Adventists and Shakers, on occultists and spiritualists, on native American religion and nature religion, and on Roman Catholics of every ethnic stripe. This pluralistic enterprise has worked to redeem those on the margins and has shattered the dominant canon for American religious history. Laurence Moore, for example, has identified religious outsiders as the central theme of American religion and Jon Butler has woven magic and folk supernaturalism into the tapestry of American faith.[6] In explaining the essence of American religion, literary critic Harold Bloom assigns the role of protagonist to Mormons, Seventh Day Adventists, Jehovah's Witnesses, Pentecostals, and Southern Baptists. With equally iconoclastic intent, sociologists Roger Finke and Rodney Stark have isolated the central theme of American religion as upstart growth and mainline decline.[7] This scholarly ferment has been a creative, invigorating process, and it is far from complete.

Amidst all of this study of insiders and outsiders, of religion elite and popular, one glaring omission becomes apparent. It is the lack of attention given to American Methodism. More accurately, what I find surprising is the lack of interest in studying American Methodists, both among religious

4. Winthrop S. Hudson, *The Great Tradition of the American Churches* (New York, 1953).
5. James D. Bratt, "A New Narrative for American Religious History?" *Fides et Historia* 23 (1991): 19–30. Harry S. Stout and Richard Taylor, "Studies of Religion in American Society: The State of the Art," a paper presented 21 October 1993 for the conference New Directions in American Religious History: The Protestant Experience, Wingspread Conference Center, Racine, Wisconsin.
6. R. Laurence Moore, *Religious Outsiders and the Making of Americans* (New York, 1986); Jon Butler, *Awash in a Sea of Faith: Christianizing the American People* (Cambridge, 1990).
7. Harold Bloom, *The American Religion: The Emergence of the Post-Christian Nation* (New York, 1992); Roger Finke and Rodney Stark, *The Churching of America, 1776–1990* (New Brunswick, 1992).

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CHAPTER 12 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A12.24 - Sympathetic Violence: Maria Stewart's Antebellum Vision of African American Resistance

Christina Henderson

ARTICLE	Sympathetic Violence: Maria Stewart's Antebellum Vision of African American Resistance
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Sympathetic Violence: Maria Stewart's Antebellum Vision of African American Resistance

Christina Henderson
University of Connecticut

Between January 7, 1832 and May 4, 1833, William Lloyd Garrison's newspaper, *The Liberator*, published six articles by abolitionist and black nationalist Maria W. Stewart.[1] In these articles, Stewart spoke in two seemingly contradictory registers as she described God's interactions with humanity. On the one hand, she portrayed a gentle God who directed his angels to carry oppressed individuals "into Abraham's bosom [where] they shall be comforted" ("Address: Delivered before" 66); on the other hand, she warned sinners—specifically white American sinners—of a wrathful and violent God who was on the verge of sending "horror and devastation" to the world ("Address, Delivered in"). While these two images may seem paradoxical to contemporary readers, they reflect the connection between sympathy and violence that permeated Stewart's theology and structured her concept of Christian community. She believed God's compassion for suffering believers would motivate him to punish their tormenters and that African American Christians should follow his example by protecting one another with force if necessary.

This juxtaposition of Christian mercy and retributive violence also points to the crucial but often minimized role of African American women such as Stewart who were uniquely situated to collaborate with black nationalists and white abolitionists. As an important figure in radical political action, Stewart helps us to better understand the multivalent forces that shaped resistance movements in the early nineteenth century. Stewart, a free African American widow who lived in Boston during the 1830s, was one of the first American women to lecture before mixed-race and mixed-gender audiences (Richardson, Preface xiii-xiv).[2] She passionately and publicly advocated for abolition and racial equality, and many of her speeches were printed in *The Liberator*. While most scholarship regarding nineteenth-century black nationalism and violent resistance movements has focused on men such as David Walker and Martin Delany,[3] discussions surrounding women abolitionists have typically highlighted pacifist activists such as Lucretia

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Mott and have underscored feminine appeals to sympathy and nonviolent forms of protest.[4] But Stewart—who considered Walker a mentor and attended meetings with Mott and other women abolitionists—fits neither model, at times causing her to be overlooked in scholarship.[5] Both black nationalism and women's abolition have received considerable critical attention, but they largely have been regarded as distinct movements marked by conflicting philosophies and strategies. Few recent studies have examined moments of collaboration between these two nineteenth-century groups or even considered the possibility that a link exists between them.

Stewart's writing, however, makes this link visible. Urging readers to cultivate both Christian love and violent resistance against slavery, Stewart stands with a foot in each camp and draws on the traditions of both. This essay argues that Stewart's articles reflect her intellectual collaboration with black nationalists and white pacifist abolitionists, offering contemporary scholars important insight into the ways these larger movements inflected one another. Recent critics have added Stewart to the traditionally male-dominated list of antebellum black nationalists by concentrating on how she adapts African American rhetorical traditions.[6] Most scholarship, though, minimizes her collaboration with white female activists. Lena Ampadu and Ebony A. Utley, for instance, focus on Stewart's contributions to black nationalist and black jeremiad traditions.[7] Evidence suggests, however, that Stewart was very much a part of the women's anti-slavery movement; for example, she attended the Women's Anti-Slavery Convention in 1837, which Mott chaired (Richardson, Introduction 27; Faulkner 72). Stewart's speeches reflect her intention to engage with this audience; in one address, she explicitly speaks to her "fairer sisters" ("Lecture"). Stewart's addresses point to her interactions and intellectual exchanges with these various voices within abolitionist and black nationalist groups. Martha S. Jones has argued that Stewart's pamphlet *Religion and the Pure Principles of Morality, the Sure Foundation on which We Must Build* (1831) "was a collaboration born out of radical abolitionism's early cross-racial alliances" among Stewart, Garrison, and Walker (24). This assertion can be extended to Stewart's articles in *The Liberator*, which evince her associations with Walker as well as with women abolitionists such as Mott and the writers whose columns appeared alongside Stewart's in the "Ladies' Department" of Garrison's paper.

Critics such as Jennifer Rycenga, Cedrick May, Willie J. Harrell, Jr., and Joycelyn Moody have noted that Stewart emphasizes God's wrath and—like Walker—incorporates the black jeremiad tradition into her speeches by condemning sin and prophesying retribution for slavery and prejudice. However, these readings do not fully account for how Stewart's vision of retribution depends on a concept of sympathetic Christian love that draws heavily on the discourse of women abolitionists.[8] Like these women, Stewart calls on her readers to comfort one

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CHAPTER 12 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A12.25 - Feminist Friends: Agrarian Quakers and the Emergence of Woman's Rights in America

Nancy A. Hewitt

ARTICLE	Feminist Friends: Agrarian Quakers and the Emergence of Woman's Rights in America
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FEMINIST FRIENDS: AGRARIAN QUAKERS AND THE EMERGENCE OF WOMAN'S RIGHTS IN AMERICA

NANCY A. HEWITT

Historian Nancy Cott captured the paradox of women's status in early-nineteenth-century America by identifying "two seemingly contradictory visions of women's relation to society: the ideology of domesticity, which gave women a sex-specific role to play, primarily in the home; and feminism, which attempted to remove sex-specific limits on women's opportunities and capacities." Cott argues that historically the emergence of feminism "depended on" the slightly earlier "subtle changes in women's view of the domestic role."[1] What was essential about that new domestic experience was the sex-consciousness it fostered, a sex-consciousness most forcefully depicted by Carroll Smith-Rosenberg. The "female world of love and ritual" that she discovered in the private interstices of middle-class life revealed the domestic circle as a seedbed not only of sex-conciousness, but also of sex solidarity.[2] Suddenly, women's separation from productive labor and relegation to the private sphere appeared less restrictive and isolating; rather, it provided the necessary resources for women's reemergence as public arbiters of moral and social order.

Numerous other historians have sought the roots of feminism first in extensions of women's domestic roles through missionary and charitable societies and then in elaborations of evangelical theology. Female neighbors, kin, and coworshipers served as agents of evangelical revivals and had their own sisterly bonds strengthened through the conversion experience. It was these tightly knit circles of women who joined forces to eradicate prostitution, intemperance, and enslavement. In these latter campaigns, women met barriers to their public efforts based solely on sex,

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leading some to claim rights for themselves as a precondition for aiding others.[3]

It is this last step in the scenario, from moral crusades to feminism, that proved the most difficult, for both the women who took it and the historians who attempted to explain it. Conventional evangelical Protestantism, which initially liberated women from the domestic circle, nonetheless proved a barrier to overt feminism. Blanche Glassman Hersh, for example, notes that "emancipation from religious orthodoxy was a crucial element in the development of a feminist leadership." Of the fifty-one feminist abolitionist leaders Hersh studied, twenty-one grew up in Quaker, Unitarian, or Universalist families. Of the twenty-seven who were raised in orthodox or evangelical faiths, nine rejected these youthful affiliations to become Unitarians, Universalists, or Quakers; and nine others "deconverted" to join radical religious sects or to join no sect at all. Nonetheless, Hersh claims that the ideology her feminist abolitionists bequeathed to later generations was rooted in the doctrine of sexual spheres and in the belief in female moral and spiritual superiority, that is, in the social and cultural mores of middle-class evangelicals.[4] Thus, the existing historical literature suggests that the birth of feminism was a two-step process—from domesticity to humanitarian reform via evangelical religion, and from evangelical crusades to feminism via a second conversion to unconventional Prostestantism.[5]

This article puts this scenario to the test by examining the origins of the woman's rights movement in early nineteenth-century Rochester, New York. In Rochester, boom-town growth, the development of a market economy, the building of the Erie Canal, and the appearance of evangelical ministers nurtured a large number of charitable and reform associations in the 1820s and 1830s, several of which were founded and directed by women. Many Rochester women, then, did take the first step from domesticity to reform. They were aided, moreover, by the preachings of Charles Grandison Finney and his local evangelical counterparts, who convinced the wives of lawyers, land speculators, artisans, and merchants to shift their emphasis from amelioration to the wholesale eradication of society's vices. As I have demonstrated elsewhere, however, neither boom-town benevolence nor evangelically inspired perfectionism proved adequate to transform these female activists into feminist advocates. When national and

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CHAPTER 12 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A12.26 - Freedom's Yoke: Gender Conventions among Antebellum Free Blacks

James Oliver Horton

ARTICLE	Freedom's Yoke: Gender Conventions among Antebellum Free Blacks
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FREEDOM'S YOKE: GENDER CONVENTIONS AMONG ANTEBELLUM FREE BLACKS

JAMES OLIVER HORTON

Honey, de white man is de ruler of everything as fur as Ah been able tuh find out. Maybe its some place way off in the ocean where de black man is in power, but we don't know nothin' but what we see. So de white man throw down the load and tell de nigger man to pick it up. He pick it up because he have to, but he don't tote it. He hand it to his womenfolks. De nigger woman is de mule of the world so fur as Ah can see.

Thus the reality of race and gender in early twentieth-century Florida was passed on to Janie Sparks by her grandmother in Zora Neale Hurston's 1937 novel, *Their Eyes Were Watching God.*[1] The folk wisdom of this old black woman set out a major theme in black history, as black women and men lived out their lives and worked out their relationships in the face of limitations imposed by American society and Western culture. The gender role expectations of antebellum society were extreme and did not conform to the realities of life for most women and men of the period. For black people the twin burden of race and sex widened the discrepancy between the real and the ideal. Attempts to approximate the gender conventions of the day in the harsh presence of racial reality strained the fabric of black personal and communal relationships.

This article will investigate gender conventions among free blacks in the antebellum North. It will seek to compare the stated ideals of the general American society to those of the free black society of the time. These ideals will then be measured against the realities of antebellum black life in the free states. Of central concern is the impact of race on the relationships of black women and men. The data for this study were drawn from the most influential black newspapers of the period, the *Colored American, Freedom's Journal,* the *North Star,* the *Weekly Advocate,* and the *Aliened*

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American. Other information was taken from the letters, speeches, and the military and probate records of northern blacks. Important data were also gathered from the U.S. census of 1850 and 1860. Because of the nature of the data used in this study, any conclusions presented here are weighted toward the urban black experience. The difficulty in this situation is partly offset by the fact that antebellum northern blacks were disproportionately urban. They were in fact the most urban group in America at that time.[2]

Freedom came to northern blacks in the wake of the Revolution in response to abolitionist pressure and to the legal and extralegal agitation of slaves who appealed to the rhetorical ideals of the American cause. The limited economic importance of northern slavery and its powerful moral opposition overwhelmed pro-slavery forces in the region. By 1800 the institution was abolished or set on the road to abolition in every northern state. As America struggled to establish a national identity during the first decades of the nineteenth century, northern blacks set about establishing communities, building institutions, and adjusting family relationships to their new "freedom."[3]

The gender conventions dictating the roles of these newly freed black women and men descended from Afro-American traditions developed during colonial times influenced by African, European, and American Indian cultures and by the realities of eighteenth-century slavery in the northern colonies. The small and scattered slave holdings of the colonial North had complicated black family life. Often husband and wife belonged to separate masters and could be together only during periods when one or both were allowed to be away from their duties. Visitation was governed not only by a slave's limited free time, but also by the considerable travel it might require. Usually the husband journeyed to the wife's home, as masters were more likely to permit men to travel. Women were limited in their travel by childcare responsibilities as their masters generally retained ownership of the children of slave marriages.[4]

The slave experience in the North, as in the South, reinforced the African traditions that assigned childcare to women. Because slave children were generally considered the property of their mother's master, the economic value of female slaves was increased and reinforced many of the gender role assumptions of white Americans. It did not limit the sphere of the slave woman to

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CHAPTER 12 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A12.27 - The Experiential Basis of the Northern Antislavery Impulse

James L. Huston

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The Experiential Basis of the Northern Antislavery Impulse

By JAMES L. HUSTON

A CURIOUS DEVELOPMENT HAS EMERGED IN RECENT STUDIES OF abolitionism and northern antislavery: the connection between the southern institution of slavery and the motivations and behaviors of abolitionists has virtually disappeared. For some time now, research on the intellectual sources of antislavery has focused so closely upon particular aspects of northern culture that the existence of slavery is almost unnecessary to explain the appearance of the antislavery crusade. This divorce of abolitionism from slavery is highly unsettling because it suggests that the movement sprang entirely from internal northern developments and had no basis at all in the actual functioning of slavery in the South. Historians can reforge the linkage between slavery and abolitionism by considering the experience of northerners who witnessed southern slavery in operation. The shock of northerners who saw slavery's inhumane features provided an experiential basis for antislavery activity. Only by coupling the experience of witnessing slavery with general currents in northern society can an accurate understanding of the abolitionists and the northern antislavery crusade be achieved.

Early studies of antislavery operated upon one essential assumption: the institution of slavery caused the rise of abolitionism because slavery, as a labor system, condoned and indeed required barbaric treatment of bondspeople.[1] Thus the abolitionist James Freeman Clarke

[1] A good example of the difference in the writing on abolitionism over the years is seen by comparing Lorenzo Sears's 1909 biography of Wendell Phillips with James Brewer Stewart's excellent 1986 biography. Early in his biography of Phillips (beginning on page 24) Sears considers the reality of southern slavery in order to explain Phillips's abolitionism. In Stewart's narrative, the actual conditions of southern slavery are simply not discussed. In the first one hundred pages of the book, Stewart, who is highly sympathetic to the abolitionists (pp. xi–xii), elaborates instead upon the current topics of upper-class hegemony, economic change, the conditions of New England operatives, republicanism, and various other social environmental features. The link between slavery and abolitionism emerges from the intellectual currents of New England, not from any perception by northerners as to the

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wrote in 1884, "No one can understand the terrible severity of the abolitionists, who does not know what the horrors of slavery were, with which, however, they had become more familiar than the slaveholders themselves."[2] It was in part this charge by the abolitionists that slavery was barbaric that gave rise to the study of southern slavery in the early days of the twentieth century. Ulrich Bonnell Phillips concluded that the abolitionist diatribe against southern slavery was highly prejudiced, unfair, and incorrect. Rather, as Phillips summarized, "In the actual régime severity was clearly the exception, and kindliness the rule."[3] Phillips's interpretations dominated American understanding of slavery for several decades, and the view that slavery was basically a gentle institution—though incidents of savagery had occurred—became standard in the widely read texts of James G. Randall, Clement Eaton, Avery O. Craven, Arthur Charles Cole, and William B. Hesseltine.[4]

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conditions prevailing in southern servitude. Lorenzo Sears, *Wendell Phillips: Orator and Agitator* (New York, 1909), 24–29; James Brewer Stewart, *Wendell Phillips: Liberty's Hero* (Baton Rouge and London, 1986). Herbert Aptheker has recently reconnected abolitionism with southern slavery in his *Abolitionism: A Revolutionary Movement* (Boston, 1989), 59–76.

[2] James Freeman Clarke, *Anti-Slavery Days: A Sketch of the Struggle . . .* (New York, 1884), 99. See Albert Bushnell Hart, *Slavery and Abolition, 1831–1841* (New York and London, 1906), 92, 109, 112–15, 121, 167.

[3] Ulrich Bonnell Phillips, *American Negro Slavery: A Survey of the Supply, Employment and Control of Negro Labor as Determined by the Plantation Regime* (New York and London, 1918), 306; see also Phillips, *Life and Labor in the Old South* (Boston, 1929), 188–217.

[4] On the influence of U. B. Phillips consult C. Vann Woodward, introduction to the 1963 edition of Phillips, *Life and Labor in the Old South*, iii–iv; and Richard Hofstadter, "U. B. Phillips and the Plantation Legend," *Journal of Negro History*, XXXIX (April 1944), 109–24. Clement Eaton, *A History of the Old South* (New York, 1949), 236–37; Eaton, *The Growth of Southern Civilization, 1790–1860* (New York, 1961), 56–65; Arthur Charles Cole, *The Irrepressible Conflict, 1850–1865* (New York, 1934), 40–41; William B. Hesseltine, *A History of the South, 1607–1936* (New York, 1936), 328–29; Avery O. Craven, *The Coming of the Civil War* (New York, 1942), 74–75, 85–89; and James G. Randall, *The Civil War and Reconstruction* (Boston and other cities, 1937), 62–66. Randall's first edition makes for an interesting comparison with the revision performed by David Donald in 1961 on the subject of the cruelty of slavery: James G. Randall and David Donald, *The Civil War and Reconstruction* (2d ed.; Boston, 1961), 59, 62–65, 71. Interestingly, Charles A. Beard and Mary Beard never felt that slavery was particularly kindly, as it was driven by the planters' profit motive: see Charles A. Beard and Mary Beard, *The Rise of American Civilization* (2 vols.; New York, 1927), I, 655. Many state studies of slavery published prior to the 1960s stressed that while some cruelty was always present, benevolence on the part of the slaveowner tended to be the norm. Also consistently present in these studies is the verification of the claim of slaveholders that the material lives of southern slaves was at least equal to that of northern free workers. Chase C. Mooney, *Slavery in Tennessee* (Bloomington, Ind., 1957), 86, 98; Orville W. Taylor, *Negro Slavery in Arkansas* (Durham, N. C., 1958), 131–49, 203; Ralph Betts Flanders, *Plantation Slavery in Georgia* (Chapel Hill, 1933), 141–42, 159, 299–300; James Benson Sellers, *Slavery in Alabama* (University, Ala., 1950), 45–46, 80–83; Harrison A. Trexler, *Slavery in Missouri, 1804–1865* (Baltimore, 1914), 90–95. Two studies of importance that were more circumspect in their handling of benevolence versus cruelty were Charles Sackett Sydnor, *Slavery in Mississippi* (New York and London, 1933), 86, 90, 252–53; and Joe Gray Taylor, *Negro Slavery in Louisiana* (Baton Rouge, 1963), 194–201, 225–27.

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CHAPTER 12 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A12.28 - The Protracted Meeting Myth: Awakenings, Revivals, and New York State Baptists, 1789-1850

Curtis D. Johnson

ARTICLE	The Protracted Meeting Myth: Awakenings, Revivals, and New York State Baptists, 1789-1850
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The Protracted Meeting Myth

Awakenings, Revivals, and New York State Baptists, 1789–1850

CURTIS D. JOHNSON

Few would dispute that Charles Finney was the most famous evangelist of the Second Great Awakening. Historians have described Finney as the architect of a Rochester crusade that supposedly turned the city from vice to holiness and as the figure who moved staunch northeastern Calvinists, principally Congregationalists, Presbyterians, and Baptists, into the revivalist camp with his "new measures." Mark Noll typifies historical assessments of Finney, saying that he "may have had a greater impact on the public life of antebellum America than any of the nation's politicians."[1]

Finney's fame rests on many factors—his successful Arminianization of Calvinism, his presidency at Oberlin College, his commitment to social reform, and his doctrine of entire sanctification. Most of all, Finney is remembered as an effective evangelist, one whose message and techniques brought thousands of converts into evangelical churches. Finney saw the "new measures" as central to his efforts. The centerpiece of Finney's approach was the protracted meeting, a series of evangelistic services held in churches consecutively from four days to several weeks.

Curtis D. Johnson is associate professor of history at Mount Saint Mary's University in Emmitsburg, Maryland. While many people have helped him with this essay, he particularly is particularly indebted to Lita Johnson, Eleanor Loveland, and Lisa Rush for their valuable assistance and to the *Journal of the Early Republic*'s anonymous reviewers who offered excellent insights, provocative questions, and constructive criticism.

1. Mark Noll, *A History of Christianity in the United States and Canada* (Grand Rapids, MI, 1992), 170.

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At such evangelistic services, Finney abandoned Jonathan Edwards's portrayal of a revival as "a very extraordinary dispensation of Providence." For Finney, the conventional approach of waiting for God to create a revival reminded him of foolish farmers who did not plant and cultivate their land but waited for the Almighty to "give them a crop only when it pleases him." Instead, Finney argued that through the proper use of means, skilled preachers could elicit conversions immediately through powerful sermons in combination with protracted meetings.[2]

To those who challenged his methods, Finney responded, "Show me the fruits of your ministry and if they so far exceed mine as to give me evidence that you have found a more excellent way, I will adopt your views." In other words, Finney claimed that because he could gain converts in larger numbers than his critics, God was blessing his efforts and sanctioning his methods. Ultimately, Finney's numerical approach to religious revivals became widespread. William McLoughlin observed that a major change occurred in the early 1830s as "the new criteria of religious fervor were quantitative, to be measured by the number of days a revival lasted and by the number of conversions obtained." In short, Finney boasted that his "new measures" were superior to earlier forms of evangelism in terms of gaining converts, a claim that this essay refers to as the "protracted meeting myth."[3]

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2. For Finney's entire career, see Charles Finney, *The Memoirs of Charles G. Finney: The Complete Restored Text*, ed. Garth M. Rosell and Richard A. G. Dupuis (Grand Rapids, MI, 1989). Finney's thinking regarding revivals is presented in Charles Grandison Finney, *Lectures on Revivals of Religion*, ed. William G. McLoughlin (Cambridge, MA, 1960), esp. 9–23, quotation on 14. Modern biographies include Keith J. Hardman, *Charles Grandison Finney, 1792–1875: Revivalist and Reformer* (Grand Rapids, MI, 1990); and Charles E. Hambrick-Stowe, *Charles G. Finney and the Spirit of American Evangelicalism* (Grand Rapids, MI, 1996). For Finney's initial campaign, see Marianne Perciaccante, *Calling Down Fire: Charles Grandison Finney and Revivalism in Jefferson County, New York, 1800–1840* (Albany, NY, 2003). For Oneida County, see Mary P. Ryan, *Cradle of the Middle Class: The Family in Oneida County, New York, 1790–1865* (Cambridge, UK, 1981), especially 60–104. For Rochester, the key work is Paul E. Johnson, *A Shopkeeper's Millennium: Society and Revivals in Rochester, New York, 1815–1837* (New York, 1978). Jonathan Edwards, "A Faithful Narrative of the Surprising Work of God (1737)," in *A Jonathan Edwards Reader*, ed. John E. Smith, Harry S. Stout, and Kenneth P. Minkema (New Haven, CT, 1995), 64.

3. Charles Grandison Finney, quoted in William G. McLoughlin, *Modern Revivalism: Charles Grandison Finney to Billy Graham* (New York, 1959), 100; McLoughlin, *Modern Revivalism*, 129. More recently, Daniel Feller observes that

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CHAPTER 12 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A12.29 - 'Pen and Ink Communion': Evangelical Reading and Writing in Antebellum America

Mary Kelley

ARTICLE	'Pen and Ink Communion': Evangelical Reading and Writing in Antebellum America
JOURNAL	The New England Quarterly 84, no. 4 (2011)
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"Pen and Ink Communion": Evangelical Reading and Writing in Antebellum America

MARY KELLEY

WRITING to his mother and sister on 31 January 1834, minister and moral reformer Samuel Francis Smith highlighted the crucial role that evangelically oriented reading and writing played in the lives of his family. "You will receive," he told Sarah Smith and Susan Eleanor Smith Parker, "a Waterville Journal Feb. 1, & another by Sat. following, each contains 2 of my articles—also, perhaps, a Zion's Advocate pretty soon, with another. The Watchman soon has one from me, & Temperance Journals." In addition to contributing to various newspapers and magazines, Smith, who had taken a Baptist pulpit in Waterville, Maine, and had begun teaching at the local college, was circulating among his parishioners other popular forms of print, including the tracts his family was sending him from Boston. In his reading and writing, he also depended on and made reference to "steady sellers," devotional works in which he had immersed himself as a student at

I am indebted to the Huntington Library and, in particular, to Director Roy Ritchie, now retired, for the funding that supported the research for this essay. I am grateful to readers whose particular interests helped me to frame an essay that reaches across various disciplines and fields. Special thanks to Michael Ermarth, Dena Goodman, Robert Gross, Christine Heyrman, Carol Holly, Susan Juster, Steven Mullaney, David Nord, Daniel Ramirez, and Sidonie Smith. At the University of Michigan, Marie Stango has defined the exemplary research assistant, responding to a host of queries with a readiness that was matched by insight and imagination. I also wish to thank Michigan's Howard Brick, who in organizing a session at the 2010 annual meeting of the Organization of American Historians gave me the opportunity to share my ideas about evangelical reading and writing practices. Philip Pochoda posed larger questions about legibility and significance.

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Harvard College and Andover Theological Seminary as well as, more recently, popular titles such as Harriet Newell's memoir and Lyman Beecher's sermons.[1]

"'Pen and Ink Communion,'" as Smith, on 15 January 1834, christened the letters he exchanged with his family, marries the field of cultural history and the analytic of book history, particularly the latter's concern with the hermeneutics of reading and writing practices. It asks, as Janice Radway has, whether there might be an alternative to Robert Darnton's communications circuit, which treats authors, publishers, booksellers, and readers as discrete entities. Authors, as she remarks, are always readers, and during the process of creation they work with phrases, narrative conventions, character types, and plot devices they have encountered in other texts. And, as she reminds us further, readers engage texts from their own perspectives, raiding and revising them to suit their purposes.[2]

The letters written by Smith, Sarah Smith, Susan Parker, and Mary White, the woman Smith would marry after he had settled in Waterville, are themselves a narrative, a story about

[1]Samuel Francis Smith to Sarah Smith and Susan Eleanor Smith Parker, 31 January 1834, Samuel Francis Smith Papers, Huntington Library, San Marino, Calif. All further citations to the Smith family's correspondence will be to this collection and will be cited by date in the text. I wish to thank the Huntington Library for permission to quote from the Samuel Francis Smith Papers and Olga Tsapina, the collection's curator, and Karen Lystra for valuable information about the collection. "Steady sellers" is the descriptor used for religious books that remained in print for several decades. For an analysis of their significance in devotional practice, see David D. Hall, *Cultures of Print: Essays in the History of the Book* (Amherst: University of Massachusetts Press, 1996), pp. 61–64, 66–68.

[2]I have chosen the term "analytic" to suggest that the history of the book as it is currently pursued brings together particular theoretical premises, research agendas, and bodies of evidence. In this formulation, I am indebted to the introduction to *American Studies: An Anthology*, ed. Janice Radway, Barry Shank, Penny Von Eschen, and Kevin Gaines (Malden, Mass.: Wiley-Blackwell, 2009), pp. 4–5. In "What's the Matter with Reception Study? Some Thoughts on the Disciplinary Origins, Conceptual Constraints, and Persistent Viability of a Paradigm," in *New Directions in Reception Study*, ed. Philip Goldstein and James L. Machor (New York: Oxford University Press, 2008), pp. 327–51, esp. 338–39, Janice Radway responds to Robert Darnton's now classic circuit, which appeared originally in "What Is the History of Books?" *Daedalus* (Summer 1982): 65–83 (the essay has been reprinted most recently in Darnton's *The Case for Books* [New York: Public Affairs, 2009], pp. 175–206). For an introduction to the scholarship on reading, see Hall, "Readers and Reading in America: Critical Perspectives," in *Cultures of Print*, pp. 169–88, and, more recently, Leah Price, "Reading: The State of the Discipline," *Book History* 7 (2004): 303–20.

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CHAPTER 12 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A12.30 - Hymnody as History: Early Evangelical Hymns and the Recovery of American Popular Religion

Stephen Marini

ARTICLE	Hymnody as History: Early Evangelical Hymns and the Recovery of American Popular Religion
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Hymnody as History: Early Evangelical Hymns and the Recovery of American Popular Religion

Stephen Marini

The hymns of evangelical Protestantism are the most widely used spiritual texts in American history. Sacred lyrics like "All hail the power of Jesus' name," "Jesus, lover of my soul," "How firm a foundation," and "When I survey the wondrous cross" have been sung, preached, and prayed by millions of Americans since the eighteenth century. At worship, revivals, youth services, conferences, conventions, and colleges, and in the family circle, these hymns have been ceaselessly repeated in an unending round of living oral tradition. Since the Great Awakening two and a half centuries ago, the churches of the evangelical tradition have published tens of thousands of hymn texts and tunes. This continuous popularity since colonial times establishes hymnody as a crucial expression of American evangelical religiousness.

Hymns have performed vital functions in evangelical religious culture. The experience of singing is central to revivalism, the characteristic evangelical ritual mode, and hearing or meditating upon hymns often mediates the new birth, the movement's classic form of spiritual experience. For all evangelicals, hymn-singing has been a primary vehicle of transcendence, the very wind of the Spirit itself. Hymns have also served as educational media for children, aids to prayer for adults, homiletic devices for preachers, and literary material for poets and novelists. They played a crucial role in the transmission of Christianity to African Americans and Native Americans. Above all, hymns have articulated the everyday beliefs and practices of generations of American evangelicals. In all these ways hymnody

Earlier versions of this essay have been read in April 1996 at a conference on music and religious experience sponsored by the Divinity School and the Department of Music of the University of Chicago and in October 2001 at the American Music History Colloquium at the American Antiquarian Society, Worcester, Massachusetts. I am grateful to Edith Blumhofer and Phillip Bohlman, sponsors of the Chicago conference, and to John Hench and Caroline Sloat of the Antiquarian Society for the opportunity to share this work with interdisciplinary scholarly audiences.

Stephen Marini is Elisabeth Luce Moore Professor of Christian Studies at Wellesley College.

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has played a crucial role in creating the evangelical movement in America. This essay is an initial attempt to use the most widely circulated evangelical hymns of the colonial, federal, and antebellum periods as an interpretive lens through which to explore early American popular religion.

I. Defining Popular Religion and American Hymnody

What can we learn from hymn texts that amplifies our understanding of evangelicalism as a cultural reality in colonial, revolutionary, and antebellum America? Several recent studies have created a new discourse on American popular religion that supplies a promising approach to this question. All of them agree that a significant dimension of religion exists alongside and outside the institutional and cultural control of ecclesiastical bodies and that it has played a far more important role in American religiousness than historians have generally granted. These studies of popular religion complement each other and should inform any study of hymnody. On the other hand, the content of early evangelical hymns also challenges some of their central conclusions.

Peter Williams's now classic study *Popular Religion in America: Symbolic Change and the Modernization Process in Historical Perspective* suggests three conditions that define popular religion. It is "usually 1) found outside formal church structures, 2) transmitted outside the established channels of religious instruction and communication employed by these structures, and 3) preoccupied with concrete manifestations of the supernatural in the midst of the secular world."[1] These conditions generally obtained for early American evangelical hymnody. Despite the strenuous efforts of many denominations to control their hymnody, early American evangelicals of all theological stripes persistently borrowed hymns from one another. The hymn texts and tunes they used were in this sense "found outside formal church structures," and before 1860 their hymn collections and tune books were most often provided by entrepreneurial editors like William Billings, Isaiah Thomas, Jesse Mercer, Samuel Worcester, John Wyeth, and William Walker rather than authorized denominational "channels of religious instruction and communication."[2]

1. Peter W. Williams, *Popular Religion in America: Symbolic Change and the Modernization Process in Historical Perspective,* 2d ed. (Urbana, Ill.: University of Illinois Press, 1989), xi.
2. This short list names just a few of the most significant among many editors whose hymn collections and tune books enjoyed enormous sales and played a vital role in the shaping early American popular religion. See William Billings, *The Complete Psalm Singer* (Boston: Edes and Gill, 1770); Jesse Mercer, *The Cluster of Spiritual Songs, Divine Hymns, and Social Poems* 3d ed., rev. (Augusta, Ga.: Hobby and Bunce, 1810); Samuel

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CHAPTER 12 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A12.31 - The Second Great Awakening as an Organizing Process, 1780-1830: An Hypothesis

Donald G. Mathews

ARTICLE	The Second Great Awakening as an Organizing Process, 1780-1830: An Hypothesis
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DONALD G. MATHEWS
University of North Carolina at Chapel Hill

The Second Great Awakening as an Organizing Process, 1780-1830: An Hypothesis

THE "SECOND GREAT AWAKENING" IS ONE OF THOSE HAPPILY VAGUE GENeralizations which American historians use every now and again to describe a movement whose complexity eludes precision. The term usually includes monumental changes such as the "break-up of Calvinism," an event which, like the thawing of northern rivers in the spring, heralded a new burst of creativity, energy and warmth. The Awakening is also understood as a conservative assertion of a new mode of religious authority by ministers who, fearful of losing their traditional role in New England society, tried to tame the rising democracy. It provided new channels not only for social control, but also for social service which some scholars have said was but a manifestation of the former. It burned in white-hot emotionalism in Kentucky, spreading along the frontier like a prairie fire, sweeping even beyond the backfires set by cautious seaboard ecclesiastics who had hoped to control it. It was an expansion of religious feeling unknown in American history.

To be able to say so much about the Awakening might be taken as evidence that it is not such a vague term after all. Yet there are too many unsettling things about the literature relating to it to conclude that present interpretations are sufficiently comprehensive. The difficulties are a mixture of too much emphasis upon the truly intricate and challenging intellectual problems of the New England theology, and a certain awesome impressionability in regard to the non-rational phenomena of revivalism in the burned-over districts of New York and Vermont, and the campmeeting grounds of the South and West. In fact, it is emotionalism and devout piety, heart over reason, commitment as opposed to disinterestedness which characterizes the revival for many scholars. And it is its impact upon Congregationalist-Presbyterian dogmas of "inability" which invites the scrutiny of intellectual historians who quite rightly

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are concerned with the metamorphosis of ideas. Considering both these problems, historians of American religion have, by and large, been interested in one or two aspects of the Second Great Awakening—either its western phase or its New England manifestations. To be sure, some, perhaps most, have identified both as in some way being a part of the other because they both included revivals and because leaders of both were interested in each others' activities as evidence of the power of God. Impressed by the changes which the revivals forced upon theological discussion, most historians consider the Second Great Awakening a transformation from Predestinarianism to Arminianism. And at this point they often discuss the tracts defending revivalism written in the 1830s by such moderate Presbyterians as William B. Sprague. The "heroes" of this transformation are Timothy Dwight who saved Yale from infidelity, Nathaniel William Taylor who made the intellectual shift from inability to commitment possible, and Lyman Beecher, political prophet of the new American church. In spite of a few observations reserved for acknowledging the emotionalism of Baptists and the circuit riding of Methodists, students of the Second Great Awakening have usually explained it from the viewpoint of one theological tradition. Most historians apparently assume, Timothy L. Smith to the contrary notwithstanding, that the Holy Spirit came to the New World by way of Geneva, Cambridge and Boston only.[1]

Another major problem with conventional views of the Second Great Awakening is that they focus rather persistently upon revivalism as an emotional or intellectual problem. The spectacular character of revivals as exceptional outbursts in a presumably otherwise undramatic process of ecclesiastical development has encouraged historians to explain the Second Great Awakening as characterized primarily by revivals. They cite outbursts in Vermont, and never fail to examine the Cane Ridge Revival of 1803 when literally thousands of people met in a model of evangelistic activity that affected the vision of the western churches for years afterward. It is assumed that revivals in the West were the same as revivals in New England. It is assumed that churchmen, impressed as they were by such phenomena, believed that the great revival was the proper goal of ministerial activity and therefore epitomized the Awakening. Now, to be sure, churchmen such as Francis Asbury wanted great

[1] Timothy L. Smith, *Revivalism and Social Reform in Mid-Nineteenth Century America* (New York, 1957), pp. 32-33. The author is indebted to the Social Science Research Council for a Faculty Research Grant which made possible the time to think about the matters discussed here. He also gratefully acknowledges the criticism and encouragement offered by Professors Lawrence Stone and John F. Wilson of the Departments of History and Religion respectively of Princeton University.

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CHAPTER 12 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A12.32 - 'A Faith for Freedom': The Political Gospel of Abolition

Daniel J. McInerney

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"A FAITH FOR FREEDOM": THE POLITICAL GOSPEL OF ABOLITION

Daniel J. McInerney

Historians have long held that the roots, character, and conduct of the abolition movement grew out of evangelical Protestantism. In his history of the movement in 1853, reformer William Goodell wrote that "missionary and evangelizing orators . . . were God's instruments for putting into the minds of others 'thoughts that burned,' for the emancipation of the enslaved." Dwight L. Dumond echoed this point almost nine decades later, describing abolition as "a powerful religious crusade" in which "from first to last churches were the forums, preachers the most consistent and powerful advocates, and the sin of slavery the cardinal thesis of the new social philosophy." Following Dumond's lead, Bertram Wyatt-Brown maintained that "the abolitionist movement was primarily religious in its origins, its leadership, its language, and its methods of reaching the people."[1]

A large body of work has examined the relationship between abolition and evangelicalism. One set of studies focuses on the doctrinal influence of religion on antislavery, emphasizing the importance of a belief in human efficacy and millennialism for the life of faith as well as for acts of reform. Believers capable of accepting the grace of God could also prepare the way of the Lord; the faithful body that detected and immediately denounced sin, especially the sin of

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Daniel J. McInerney is a member of the department of history at Utah State University in Logan. He wishes to thank Lester H. Cohen for reading and commenting on earlier drafts of this article.

[1] William Goodell, *Slavery and Anti-Slavery: A History of the Great Struggle in Both Hemispheres With a View of the Slavery Question in the United States* (New York 1853), 387-388; Dwight Lowell Dumond, *Antislavery Origins of the Civil War in the United States* (Ann Arbor, Mich. 1939), 35; Bertram Wyatt-Brown, *Lewis Tappan and the Evangelical War Against Slavery* (Cleveland 1969), 287.

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slavery, purified not only themselves but also their churches and world in anticipation of Christ's coming.[2] Other studies examine the organizational role of religion in abolition, describing the institutional base of evangelical churches, the schisms that rocked religious groups, the tactics drawn from the "Benevolent Empire" of reform, and the leadership cadre that emerged out of seminaries and congregations.[3] A third body of historiography draws attention to the personal dimension of religion and reform by exploring the powerful, transformative effects of the conversion experience and analyzing the responses of individuals caught in generational conflict or vocational crisis.[4]

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[2] The work of David Brion Davis offers a masterful analysis of immediatism, millennialism, ideas of progress, and the relation of spiritual and material quests. See Davis,"The Emergence of Immediatism in British and American Antislavery Thought," *Mississippi Valley Historical Review*, 49 (Sept. 1962), 209-230; Davis, *The Problem of Slavery in Western Culture* (Ithaca 1966); Davis, *The Problem of Slavery in the Age of Revolution, 1770-1823* (Ithaca 1975); and Davis, *Slavery and Human Progress* (New York 1984). Other key works include Gilbert Hobbs Barnes, *The Anti-Slavery Impulse, 1830-1844* (New York 1933); Whitney R. Cross, *The Burned-Over District: The Social and Intellectual History of Enthusiastic Religion in Western New York, 1800-1850* (Ithaca 1950); Merton L. Dillon, *Benjamin Lundy and the Struggle for Negro Freedom* (Urbana, Ill. 1966), esp. 150-154; Clifford S. Griffin, *Their Brothers' Keepers: Moral Stewardship in the United States, 1800-1865* (New Brunswick, N.J. 1960); Anne C. Loveland, "Evangelicalism and 'Immediate Emancipation' in American Antislavery Thought," *Journal of Southern History*, 32 (May 1966), 172-188; Lewis Perry, *Radical Abolitionism: Anarchy and the Government of God in Antislavery Thought* (Ithaca 1973); Timothy L. Smith, *Revivalism and Social Reform: American Protestantism in Mid-Nineteenth-Century America* (Nashville 1957); Gerald Sorin, *Abolitionism: A New Perspective* (New York 1972), esp. chs. 2-3; Richard S. Taylor, "Beyond Immediate Emancipation: Jonathan Blanchard, Abolitionism, and the Emergence of American Fundamentalism," *Civil War History*, 27 (Sept. 1981), 260-274; and John L. Thomas, "Romantic Reform in America, 1815-1865," *American Quarterly*, 17 (Winter 1965), 656-681.

[3] Charles C. Cole, Jr., *The Social Ideas of the Northern Evangelists, 1826-1860* (New York 1954); Charles I. Foster, *An Errand of Mercy: The Evangelical United Front, 1790-1837* (Chapel Hill 1960); Carol V. R. George, "Widening the Circle: The Black Church and the Abolitionist Crusade, 1830-1860," in *Antislavery Reconsidered: New Perspectives on the Abolitionists*, ed. Lewis Perry and Michael Fellman (Baton Rouge 1979), 75-95; John R. McKivigan, *The War Against Proslavery Religion: Abolitionism and the Northern Churches, 1830-1865* (Ithaca 1984); J. F. Maclear, "The Evangelical Alliance and the Antislavery Crusade," *Huntington Library Quarterly*, 42 (Spring 1979), 141-164; Donald G. Mathews, *Slavery and Methodism: A Chapter in American Morality, 1780-1845* (Princeton 1965); Wyatt-Brown, *Lewis Tappan*.

[4] Lois W. Banner, "Religion and Reform in the Early Republic: The Role of Youth," *American Quarterly*, 23 (Dec. 1971), 677-695; Donald M. Scott, "Abolition as

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CHAPTER 12 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A12.33 - Between Progress and Apocalypse: A Reassessment of Millennialism in American Religious Thought, 1800-1880

James H. Moorhead

ARTICLE	Between Progress and Apocalypse: A Reassessment of Millennialism in American Religious Thought, 1800-1880
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Between Progress and Apocalypse: A Reassessment of Millennialism in American Religious Thought, 1800–1880

James H. Moorhead

In 1842 Arthur Cleveland Coxe, a future bishop of the Episcopal church, published a verse that he called "Watch-words: A Hymn for the Times." It read in part:

> We are living—we are dwelling—
> In a grand and awful time:
> In an age, on ages telling,
> To be living is sublime.
>
> Hark! the waking up of nations,
> Gog and Magog to the fray:
> Hark! what soundeth is Creation's
> Groaning for the latter day.[1]

A spate of recent scholarship confirms that Coxe's was indeed a hymn for the times. The images of the book of Revelation that inspired his song were virtually ubiquitous among nineteenth-century Americans. The Apocalypse prompted a few, such as the followers of William Miller, to expect the early end of the world and inspired many more in the mainstream denominations to promote revivals, missionary work, and other benevolent causes as a way of inaugurating the Kingdom of God on earth. Spilling into the secular realm, millennialism sometimes motivated social reforms (as well as opposition to them) and provided a major way in which Americans defined their country as a Redeemer Nation. In the 1860s the Civil War demonstrated how deeply millennial symbols had sunk into the collective psyche as writers and ministers seized the images of the Revelation to portray the struggle as an Armageddon of the Republic.[2]

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[1] Edward S. Ninde, *The Story of the American Hymn* (New York, 1921), 322.

[2] See, for example, James H. Moorhead, *American Apocalypse: Yankee Protestants and the Civil War, 1860–1869* (New Haven, 1978), esp. 42–81; Edwin S. Gaustad, ed., *The Rise of Adventism: Religion and Society in Mid-Nineteenth-Century America* (New York, 1974); Ernest R. Sandeen, *The Roots of Fundamentalism: British and American Millenarianism, 1800–1930* (Chicago, 1970),

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This essay examines one strand of that prevalent symbolism—the postmillennial belief that the Second Coming would occur after the millennium, or thousand years of bliss, foretold in Revelation 20. During the first three quarters of the nineteenth centuy, this view was what one clergyman called in 1859 "the commonly received doctrine" among American Protestants. It dominated the popular denominational magazines as well as the weighty theological quarterlies; it commanded allegiance in leading seminaries and pulpits alike. Premillennialism, the contrary theory that Jesus would return before the thousand years, was not, of course, without disciples. For example, the Millerites predicted the end of the world in 1843 or 1844, and other, more cautious millenarians were scattered throughout the major denominations; but none of those successfully challenged the hegemony of postmillennialism before the last decades of the century.[3]

Although much has been written about this influential eschatology, historians have still not fully appreciated its complexity. They have generally portrayed it as an optimistic doctrine of gradual religious and secular improvement in contrast to premillennialism, which is usually depicted as dubious of any mundane improvement prior to the Second Coming. There is much to commend that reading of postmillennialism. Friends of modern progress, adherents of the theory gloried as much as did Auguste Comte in the advances of their age and expected far greater triumphs to come. They often asserted that the tokens of that happy future would not be (at least not until the far-distant end of the world) graves supernaturally opened and Jesus returning on the clouds. History would spiral upward by the orderly continuation of the same forces that had promoted revivals, made America the model republic, and increased material prosperity.[4]

But the theory also had another side, with which scholars have been less familiar, one whose features included supernatural judgment and overturning. If postmillennialists had one foot in the world of steamships and the telegraph, the other was still firmly planted in the cosmos of John's Revelation—a universe where angels poured out vials of wrath, the dead would rise again, and the wicked would be cast into a lake of fire burning forever. Although the union of progress with the symbols of the Apocalypse may strike the contemporary reader as awkward or quaint, its widespread popularity suggests that

esp. 42–58; Ernest Lee Tuveson, *Redeemer Nation: The Idea of America's Millennial Role* (Chicago, 1968), 137–86; Jack P. Maddex, Jr., "Proslavery Millennialism: Social Eschatology in Antebellum Southern Calvinism," *American Quarterly*, 31 (Spring 1979), 46–62; and Timothy L. Smith, "Righteousness and Hope: Christian Holiness and the Millennial Vision in America, 1800–1900," *ibid.*, 21–45.

[3] "History of Opinions respecting the Millennium," *American Theological Review*, 1 (Nov. 1859), 655; George M. Marsden, *The Evangelical Mind and the New School Presbyterian Experience: A Case Study of Thought and Theology in Nineteenth-Century America* (New Haven, 1970), 185–98; Robert K. Whalen, "Millenarianism and Millennialism in America, 1790–1880" (Ph.D. diss., State University of New York, Stony Brook, 1972), 116; David T. Arthur, "Millerism," in *Rise of Adventism*, ed. Gaustad, 154–72.

[4] See, for example, David E. Smith, "Millenarian Scholarship in America," *American Quarterly*, 17 (Fall 1965), 535–49; Timothy L. Smith, *Revivalism and Social Reform in Mid-Nineteenth-Century America* (New York, 1957), 228–29; and Tuveson, *Redeemer Nation*, 33–35.

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CHAPTER 12 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A12.34 - Social Reform and the Divided Conscience of Antebellum Protestantism

James H. Moorhead

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Social Reform and the Divided Conscience of Antebellum Protestantism

JAMES H. MOORHEAD

It is a commonplace of antebellum historiography that the numerous reforms of the age often bore an intimate connection with Protestant evangelicalism, and Charles Grandison Finney is often portrayed as a symbol of this link. In addition to endorsing such causes as antislavery and temperance, the great evangelist inspired numerous converts to work out their salvation through useful service, including reform; and the areas swept by his revivals provided fertile soil for every manner of ultraism. Both as theological innovator and religious activist, he seemed to epitomize a tide of perfectionist optimism surging with great force against institutional restraints.[1] Yet there was a very cautious side to Finney. He seldom committed himself unreservedly to any cause other than revivalism and generally eschewed the most controversial approaches to reform. Viewing this aspect of his career, one scholar has recently argued that "the basic thrust of Finney's thought and activity was conservative, status conscious, and pessimistic about human nature."[2] Because of these two faces, the historian is tempted to fix on one or the other as the "real" Finney, but it is more profitable to probe his ambiguities than to mitigate them. An examination of Finney offers fruitful insight into nineteenth-century evangelicalism's explosive potential for reform and its equally powerful tendency to limit and contain that impulse.

Central to Finney's thought and crucial to his understanding of reform was his belief that virtue consisted in disinterested benevolence or, as he

1. Information concerning Finney's views of reform and society can be gathered from Charles C. Cole, Jr., *The Social Ideas of the Northern Evangelists* (New York, 1954); William G. McLoughlin, *Modern Revivalism: Charles Grandison Finney to Billy Graham* (New York, 1959), pp. 65–121; and Melvin L. Vulgamore, "Social Reform in the Theology of Charles Grandison Finney" (Ph.D. diss., Boston University, 1963). My thinking about evangelical Protestantism's relationship to reform is especially indebted to David B. Davis, "The Emergence of Immediatism in British and American Anti-Slavery Thought," *Mississippi Valley Historical Review* 49 (September 1962): 209–230; Anne C. Loveland, "Evangelicalism and 'Immediate Emancipation' in American Anti-Slavery Thought," *Journal of Southern History* 32 (May 1966): 172–188; Timothy L. Smith, *Revivalism and Social Reform: American Protestantism on the Eve of the Civil War* (Nashville, 1957); and John L. Thomas, "Romantic Reform in America, 1815–1865," *American Quarterly* 17 (Winter 1965): 656–681.
2. Leonard I. Sweet, "The View of Man Inherent in New Measures Revivalism," *Church History* 45 (June 1976): 206–221.

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explained: "The law of God requires us to will, or intend the promotion of every interest in the universe, according to its perceived value, for its own sake; in other words, that all our powers shall be supremely and disinterestedly devoted to the glory of God, and the good of the universe."[3] By thus defining virtue, Finney was espousing a theory which had been popularized in the eighteenth century and which many American theologians, most notably Jonathan Edwards, had made an important feature of their thought. In Finney's hands, as in those of most antebellum moralists, the concept lost the richly aesthetic and ontological overtones it had possessed for Edwards and became little more than a summons to do good for others.[4] Disinterested benevolence was the keynote in a practical, task-oriented theology ready-made for the adherents of the various voluntary societies. Although he rejected the term, Finney tended toward utilitarianism. He strenuously objected to the thesis that certain acts were in themselves right or wrong, irrespective of the end promoted. This "rightarian" approach was "godless, Christless, and loveless," for it set persons "in chase of a philosophic abstraction" and ignored "the concrete reality of the highest well-being of the universe."[5] Morality was contextual for the evangelist; that is, the rightness of a deed could not be determined *a priori*, but only by looking at specific cases and asking whether they were expressions of "selfish purposes" or "benevolent design."[6] This ethic provided a critical standard by which to judge all practices, no matter how venerable or well-entrenched; and even when it did not lead directly to reform, it narrowed the grounds on which institutions could be justified and placed upon them a burden of proof: were they in fact useful to the well-being of God and humanity? That latent subversiveness was heightened by the enlarged boundaries to which Finney stretched benevolence. The goal was to attain the greatest good for the entire universe, and efforts to achieve less were not virtue. "Aim not merely at being useful," said the evangelist, "but at being so in the highest degree."[7] Rising above merely conventional performance of good deeds, a true believer adventurously sought out "new means and new measures for doing good" and should be willing, noted Finney, to change career if another offered

3. Charles G. Finney, *Finney's Lectures on Systematic Theology* (Grand Rapids, Mich., n. d. [reprint of 1878 ed.]), p. 104.
4. Joseph Haroutunian, *Piety Versus Moralism: The Passing of the New England Theology* (New York, 1932); James E. Johnson, "Charles G. Finney and a Theology of Revivalism," *Church History* 38 (September 1969): 338–358.
5. Finney, *Systematic Theology*, pp. 48, 92–93. Finney rejected Benthamite utilitarianism because it transferred the locus of right and wrong to external action whereas he believed that, strictly speaking, only the will could be moral or immoral. See James E. Hamilton and Edward H. Madden, "Edwards, Finney, and Mahan on the Derivation of Duties," *Journal of the History of Philosophy* 13 (July 1975): 347–360.
6. Finney, *Systematic Theology*, p. 92.
7. *Oberlin Evangelist*, August 17, 1842, p. 131. The *Oberlin Evangelist* was a fortnightly paper edited by Professor Henry Cowles of Oberlin College.

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CHAPTER 12 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A12.35 - The Search for the Individual: 1750-1850

Russel B. Nye

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THE SEARCH FOR THE INDIVIDUAL: 1750-1850

Russel B. Nye

The Centennial Review Lectureship was established in 1959 to honor that member of the Michigan State University faculty who in the opinion of the Board of Directors and of the Editorial Board best exemplifies the ideals of scholarship and style of The Centennial Review *and of the disciplines represented by the Editorial Board. The Lecture is delivered at a University Convocation open to the public, and the lecturer receives a monetary award; in addition, the Lecture is published in* The Centennial Review.

It is altogether fitting that the first Centennial Review Lectureship should have been awarded to Dr. Russel B. Nye, Professor of English and Director of the Division of Language and Literature of the College of Science and Arts. Born in 1913, Dr. Nye received his doctorate at the University of Wisconsin and came to Michigan State University in 1940. He is the author of George Bancroft: Brahmin Rebel, Fettered Freedom, Midwestern Progressive Politics, *the Penguin* History of the United States, A Baker's Dozen: American Portraits, William Lloyd Garrison, *and* The Emergence of National Culture: 1776-1830. *He won the Pulitzer Prize for his biography of George Bancroft, and he has held Rockefeller Foundation, Newberry Library, and Knopf fellowships. He has lectured at the Institut d'Études Juridiques at the Université d'Aix-Marseilles and the Centre Universitaire Méditerranéen.*

It is a source of great satisfaction to me to have helped in the establishment of the Centennial Review Lectureship, and it is a particular pleasure for me to publish the paper of a distinguished scholar who has been my colleague and friend for 18 years and will be, I hope, for at least as many more to come.—Editor

This essay is concerned with an exploration of certain aspects of American intellectual life during the period 1750 to 1850. Its thesis is not complicated. Stated simply, it is that because of certain major changes in what men believed about human nature and truth, there were corresponding changes, between 1750 and 1850 in the United States, in American

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concepts of individualism and progress—and that the social, political, religious, and cultural thought of this period reflects these changes. To phrase it differently, life in the United States from the middle of the 18th century to the Civil War can be most clearly read in terms of a pervasive popular faith in the individual's adequacy to fulfill all his aims and functions. The framework of American thought in the United States during these years was constructed about this principle.

This belief in individualism and progress, one must hasten to point out, is congruent with the American acceptance of the Romantic movement. But it must be noted first that the United States emphasized certain aspects of Romanticism in a manner, and to a degree, not true of contemporary England or Europe. And second, by reason of its historical and intellectual environment, American thought in the decades after 1750 would naturally have centered about these twin principles of individualism and progress, even had no Romantic movement existed to reinforce them.

These two related doctrines of perfectibility and progress, which provided the foundation for American thought from 1750 to 1850, were part of the great ideological legacy bequeathed to America from the 17th- and 18th-century philosophers. What the 19th century believed to be true about the nature of man, of course, was not the same as the 18th century's heritage, which, like all such legacies, underwent a sea-change. A great deal happened after 1750—in philosophy, politics, society, and in the quality of life itself after the Revolution—to make the generation of Emerson and Jackson much more assured and enthusiastic about mankind's present and future than the age of Franklin and Jonathan Edwards could afford to be. It happened in this way.

I

First, the American belief in the perfectibility of mankind rested on a powerful faith in the intrinsic goodness of human nature. Many Americans of the late 18th century—among them Paine, Barlow, Jefferson, Rush, and Franklin in his more sanguine moments—conceived their fellowmen to be

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CHAPTER 12 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A12.36 - 'Swelling That Great Tide of Humanity': The Concord, Massachusetts, Female Anti-Slavery Society

Sandra Harbert Petrulionis

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"Swelling That Great Tide of Humanity": The Concord, Massachusetts, Female Anti-Slavery Society

SANDRA HARBERT PETRULIONIS

IN 1833, abolitionist leader William Lloyd Garrison predicted that "the destiny of the slaves is in the hands of the American women, and complete emancipation can never take place without their co-operation." Yet it is likely that not even Garrison foresaw the pivotal role women would play in his abolitionist organization. Following the lead of British women a decade earlier, women in the United States began organizing in the 1830s; by 1838, hundreds of women's antislavery societies, with a total membership of over six thousand, were meeting regularly to plan local efforts that would yield tangible political results in the war to end American slavery. From Cincinnati to Boston to Salem to Philadelphia, and numerous small towns in between, women made their voices heard. Only recently, however, have scholars begun to scrutinize the specific accomplishments of these organizations and to identify and credit individual women for their groundbreaking activism.[1]

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[1]Debra Gold Hansen, "The Boston Female Anti-Slavery Society and the Limits of Gender Politics," in *The Abolitionist Sisterhood: Women's Political Culture in Antebellum America*, ed. Jean Fagan Yellin and John C. Van Horne (Ithaca: Cornell University Press, 1994), p. 59. For statistics regarding the number of female antislavery societies in America in the 1830s, see Paul Goodman, *Of One Blood: Abolitionism and the Origins of Racial Equality* (Berkeley: University of California Press, 1998), p. 207.

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In her recent comprehensive study of the female antislavery movement, Julie Roy Jeffrey has shown that despite the fact that large, urban organizations claimed more members, many small women's groups exerted a significant influence.[2] Yet surprisingly, one of the most influential and active of all the female antislavery societies has received virtually no scholarly attention to date, nor does Jeffrey mention it. The Concord, Massachusetts, Female Anti-Slavery Society boasted the wives, sisters, mothers, friends, aunts, and neighbors of men whose public support eventually directed worldwide political and philosophical attention to the antislavery cause. Abolitionist historiography routinely invokes the names of Henry David Thoreau, Ralph Waldo Emerson, Amos Bronson Alcott, and others when recounting Concord's abolitionist past; but adequate recognition of the women who urged them forward is long overdue. Two works that provide the most thorough coverage of the society—Joan Trumbull's 1942 thesis "Concord and the Negro" and Wendell Glick's 1950 dissertation "Thoreau and Radical Abolitionism: A Study of the Native Background of Thoreau's Social Philosophy"—remain unpublished.[3]

[2]Julie Roy Jeffrey, *The Great Silent Army of Abolitionism: Ordinary Women in the Antislavery Movement* (Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 1998).

[3]In particular, the biographers of Henry D. Thoreau, Lidian (Mrs. Ralph Waldo) Emerson, and Abigail "Abby" (Mrs. Amos Bronson) Alcott mention the organization, as do a handful of works chronicling nineteenth-century Concord. See Walter Harding, *The Days of Henry Thoreau* (1962; reprinted, Princeton: Princeton University Press, 1992); Ellen Tucker Emerson, *The Life of Lidian Jackson Emerson,* ed. Delores Bird Carpenter (Boston: Twayne, 1980; reprinted, East Lansing: Michigan State University Press, 1992); Cynthia Barton, *Transcendental Wife: The Life of Abigail May Alcott* (Lanham, Md.: University Press of America, Inc., 1996); Franklin B. Sanborn, "The Women of Concord IV: Mary Merrick Brooks and the Anti-Slavery Movement" (1906), reprinted in *Transcendental Epilogue: Primary Materials for Research in Emerson, Thoreau, Literary New England, the Influence of German Theology, and Higher Biblical Criticism,* 3 vols., ed. Kenneth Walter Cameron (Hartford: Transcendental Books, 1965–82), 3:44–47; Len Gougeon, *Virtue's Hero: Emerson, Antislavery, and Reform* (Athens: University of Georgia Press, 1990); Gary Collison, *Shadrach Minkins: From Fugitive Slave to Citizen* (Cambridge: Harvard University Press, 1997), pp. 151–58. Gougeon credits the influence on Emerson of Mary Merrick Brooks, the society's most persevering member, while Collison narrates one of the most dramatic episodes in the society's history—its members' overnight vigil with the runaway slave Minkins. The two unpublished works are Joan Trumbull's "Concord and the Negro" (B.A. thesis, Vassar College, 1946), and Wendell Glick's "Thoreau and Radical Abolitionism: A Study of the Native Background of Thoreau's Social Philosophy" (Ph.D. diss., Northwestern University, 1950). See also Barbara K. Elliott and Janet W. Jones, *Concord: Its Black History* (Concord: Concord Public Schools, 1976).

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Petrulionis, "'Swelling That Great Tide of Humanity,'" 385–386.

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CHAPTER 12 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A12.37 - 'The Great Majority of Our Subscribers Are Farmers': The Michigan Abolitionist Constituency of the 1840s

John W. Quist

ARTICLE	'The Great Majority of Our Subscribers Are Farmers': The Michigan Abolitionist Constituency of the 1840s
JOURNAL	Journal of the Early Republic 14, no. 3 (1994)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 325-326
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"THE GREAT MAJORITY OF OUR SUBSCRIBERS ARE FARMERS": THE MICHIGAN ABOLITIONIST CONSTITUENCY OF THE 1840s

John W. Quist

The prominent social characteristics of nineteenth-century American antislavery activists have been investigated by a number of historians since David Donald's essay, "Toward a Reconsideration of Abolitionists" was published in 1956. Since then, scholars have provided valuable insights into the abolitionist rank and file who lived in the industrial and urban Northeast. This focus upon abolitionism in the towns and cities, however, provides an incomplete portrait of the movement's base of support. Like the overwhelming majority of antebellum Americans, most abolitionists lived in the rural countryside. This essay will briefly review the scholarship of the antislavery constituency and then examine Michigan's abolitionists found on the subscription list of the state's Liberty party newspaper, the *Signal of Liberty*. This subscription list provides a fuller view of antislavery's anonymous partisans because it identifies abolitionists who lived in a large, contiguous area—the state of Michi-

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John W. Quist teaches in the department of history and philosophy at Eastern Michigan University, Ypsilanti, Michigan. An earlier version of this essay was presented to the eighty-sixth annual meeting of the Organization of American Historians, Anaheim, California, Apr. 13, 1993. The author extends his thanks to Nancy Bartlett of the Bentley Library, and to the following individuals for their comments and suggestions on previous drafts: J. Mills Thornton III, Shaw Livermore, Jr., Daniel Walker Howe, James Brewer Stewart, and the anonymous referees for the *Journal of the Early Republic*.

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gan—rather than a smaller geographical unit. Although a significant minority were village-dwelling artisans, professionals, and merchants, most of the Michigan subscribers to the *Signal of Liberty* were cash-crop farmers. Besides being united by an age cohort that distinguished them from adult male Michiganders, these subscribers were both similar to and different from the collective portrait of state residents in a number of other measurable criteria. These Michigan abolitionists not only were appalled by slavery, but evidence suggests they also were optimistic regarding the growth of the American market economy.

Although Donald's essay has been the object of much historiographical debate, he was not the first to consider the constituency of the antislavery movement. Nineteenth-century political observers occasionally specified those geographic locales and population groups where the abolitionist cause most strongly resonated. Some twentieth-century scholars have used a similar approach with greater sophistication. In his study of reform in western New York, Whitney Cross concluded that abolitionists reflected the prevailing social characteristics of those areas where the Liberty party received the most votes. Accordingly, Cross wrote that "antislavery conviction coincided closely with Yankee derivation, social maturity, superior education, and at least average prosperity." Cross's conclusions were echoed by Lee Benson, who pronounced political abolitionism to be "overwhelmingly a rural movement" that did poorly in cities, but strongest in "small, moderately prosperous Yankee farming communities."[1] But while agreeing with Cross and Benson that the movement's base was in the rural sector, other scholars of grass-roots abolitionism, such as Floyd Benjamin Streeter and Alan M. Kraut—also using aggregate-level data—have argued instead that abolitionists generally resided in the less prosperous neighborhoods of Michigan and New York, respectively. And although Vernon L. Volpe rightly emphasized the cultural and religious impetuses of antislavery voters, he nevertheless concurred with Kraut and Streeter regarding the social and economic correlates of antislavery activity. Specifically, Volpe concluded that the Liberty party in the Old Northwest was "the protest of stagnant communities being surpassed by a world they resented but

[1] "Toward a Reconsideration of Abolitionists," in David H. Donald, ed., *Lincoln Reconsidered: Essays on the Civil War Era* (New York 1956), 19-36; Whitney R. Cross, *The Burned-Over District: The Social and Intellectual History of Enthusiastic Religion in Western New York, 1800-1850* (Ithaca 1950), 226; Lee Benson, *The Concept of Jacksonian Democracy: New York as a Test Case* (1961; rep., New York 1964), 209-210. See also James Brewer Stewart, *Holy Warriors: The Abolitionists and American Slavery* (New York 1976), 78-81.

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Quist, "'The Great Majority,'" 325–326.

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CHAPTER 12 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A12.38 - Free Black Activism in the Antebellum North

Patrick Rael

ARTICLE	Free Black Activism in the Antebellum North
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Free Black Activism in the Antebellum North

Patrick Rael
Bowdoin College

IN FEW OTHER REALMS of historical scholarship have the last three decades witnessed such all-encompassing transformations as in African-American history. The Civil Rights Movement changed the way scholars have written about slavery, but the broad wake created by that revolution in the history of the "peculiar institution" has struck every other facet of African-American history as well. During the 1970s, even as scholars penned now-classic works on the plantation South in the antebellum era, the margins of the institution fell open to detailed investigation. In no instance was this more the case than with the free African Americans who lived in the states outside of the slave South. Since the late 1960s and early 1970s, dozens upon dozens of books and hundreds of journal articles have appeared that seek to understand the significance of those who lived, as Leon Litwack put it, "North of slavery."[1]

In 1860, 226,000 (forty-seven percent) of the nation's 478,000 free blacks lived in free states, and thus totaled over five percent of the black population in America. Though oppressed by popular prejudice and a range of legal and institutional constraints—in 1847, blacks at a convention labeled themselves "slaves of the community"—African Americans outside the South wielded significance far beyond their meager numbers. Urban and often literate, some lived in states where they could vote while others commanded considerable wealth. More importantly, all possessed

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limited rights of assembly and speech. The exercise of these freedoms, however, often incited the violence of the mob because whites feared the liberating possibilities of their free life. Nevertheless, free Northern blacks, by the exercise of public speech and concrete political activism, were able to craft a tradition of protest that shook the foundations of slavery and racial prejudice.

This essay will consider some prominent currents in the historiography of free African Americans in the antebellum North because I believe that the field is at a crossroads, where many strands of scholarship, not all reconcilable, have become intertwined. Great strides have been made, but important questions have not been put to rest. As work on the antebellum North explodes, it is becoming ever more imperative for historians to offer a new and internally consistent vision of black protest and black community in the antebellum North.

The Community/Culturalist Paradigm

Let's start this story with the modern Civil Rights Movement, when a young generation of scholars steeped in the movement's values began investigating the history of slavery in new ways, bringing to bear new sources, new methods, and a new sympathy for those they studied. The work began with Kenneth Stampp's wholesale revision of the "moonlight and magnolias" mythology of plantation slavery in *The Peculiar Institution*.[2] In the late 1960s and 1970s, scholars such as George Rawick, John Blassingame, Herbert Gutman, and Lawrence Levine began writing the history of slavery "from the bottom up," employing the techniques of a "new" social history.[3] Their revisions formed the basis of what has come to be called the "community studies" approach to the history of slavery. This school argued that enslaved African Americans had not been mere victims of a "total" institution, as Stanley Elkins had claimed in 1959, but had crafted for themselves viable and healthy communal lives in the "spaces" they found within an oppressive institution.[4]

The three emphases of community studies—the collective ethos of the enslaved, the underlying health of their communities, and the blacks' own agency in achieving this health—inspired a new wave of writing about free blacks as well.[5] In the 1970s and 1980s, James and Lois Horton, George Levesque, William Piersen, Gary Nash, and others began writing histories of free black communities in the North. Despite the radically different nature of American society above the Mason-Dixon line, African Americans in the North replicated southern experience in important ways. They forged a range of independent community institutions, built networks for mutual aid, and crafted collective responses to racism and slavery.[6]

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CHAPTER 12 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A12.39 - Prohibition as Progress: New York State's License Elections, 1846

W. J. Rorabaugh

ARTICLE	Prohibition as Progress: New York State's License Elections, 1846
JOURNAL	Journal of Social History 14, no. 3 (1981)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 425-426
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PROHIBITION AS PROGRESS: NEW YORK STATE'S LICENSE ELECTIONS, 1846

During the second quarter of the nineteenth century many Americans quit drinking, denounced alcoholic beverages, and became advocates of prohibition. This anti-liquor movement has received a great deal of attention from historians, but until recently most of that attention has focused on the development of temperance organizations, on the leaders of those organizations, and on the rhetoric that these leaders used to exhort Americans to forego alcoholic beverages.[1] At times this focus has caused a popular, broad-based movement to be viewed in an overly narrow fashion. For example, the fact that most temperance leaders, such as Theodore Weld, Justin Edwards, and Lyman Beecher, were middle-class ministers has led to the conclusion that the entire movement was middle-class.[2] The middle class certainly did embrace temperance, but only recently have historians defined more precisely the social groups from which the movement derived its greatest support. A few historians who have examined temperance society rosters and newspaper lists of prominent supporters have found temperance to be a concern of manufacturers, commercial farmers, and artisan mechanics who were seeking wealth and respectability.[3] These studies have two limitations. First, they focus on cities, at a time when most Americans did not live in cities, and, second, they focus on temperance societies, at a time when most Americans were not members of such organizations.[4] By the 1840s total abstinence from alcohol was a popular idea that had transcended both the appeal of membership in a temperance society and the vision and rhetoric of the movement's traditional middle-class leaders. To understand this popular phase of the mid-nineteenth-century temperance movement, it is necessary to examine the movement in some other manner.[5]

One way to gain a fresh perspective on the temperance movement is to examine the election returns for elections in which ordinary Americans, voters, were asked to express their views concerning alcoholic beverages.[6] In 1845 the New York state legislature passed a law requiring each of the 858 townships in the state — except for New York City, which was voted an exemption in February, 1846 — to hold a paper ballot election in May, 1846, for the purpose of deciding whether or not the officials of a town (or township: in New York they are the same) should issue licenses for the retail sale of strong drinks. If a majority of the voters favored 'License,' then the town commissioners were authorized to issue permits to taverns and public houses to serve liquor. If the voters balloted for 'No License,' then the officials were prohibited from issuing such licenses, and no liquor could be sold for consumption on the premises. The law was quite limited, for in neither case was there a prohibition of possession, manufacturing, wholesaling, or retailing of alcohol for consumption off premises. Nor was the statute entirely clear as to the particular beverages being prohibited for retail sale. It was only after the elections that the New York state attorney general, John Van Buren, ruled that the law barred ale, beer, and alcoholic hard cider as well as wine and distilled spirits.[7] Although few anti-liquor leaders were fully satisfied with the 1845 law,

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they sought to obtain a victory for No License, because they saw the abolition of retail licenses as the first step in a long-range plan to make the United States dry. What these leaders found particularly galling about liquor licenses was the implication that society and the government, through licenses, gave tacit approval to alcohol. Few temperance leaders were so naive as to believe that the end of licensing would mean the end of liquor sales; rather, they wanted to drive the sellers underground and destroy their legitimacy within the community.[8]

Despite the prohibition law's murkiness and limitations, and despite the fact that some temperance men opposed prohibition because it substituted legal coercion for moral suasion, the New York license elections of 1846 are as good a gauge of the public's opinion about alcohol in the mid-nineteenth-century United States as we are likely to obtain. New York was a populous, significant, and diverse state, as near a microcosm of the entire nation as a single state could be, and it was the only highly populated state during the 1840s to hold license elections at one time throughout the state. Furthermore, these particular elections were held in each town both independently and simultaneously. That is, unlike a statewide election, such as Pennsylvania's liquor referendum of 1854, the outcome was determined at the local, township level. And since the elections were held in all towns at the same time, they offer a good measure of public opinion operating upon all localities under the same general influences. Townships are also convenient units for examination. They are not arbitrary clumps of individuals brought together for the purpose of a study; rather, towns in New York were masses of people living, working, and praying together. There was, as so many historians have recently reminded us, a sense of community and a resultant community sense.[9] Further, historians who have been studying the temperance movement at the local level thus far have written about urban localities.[10] The examination of mostly rural New York townships will give us a broader perspective. Then, too, in 1845 the state of New York took a detailed census of population, agriculture, and manufacturing. The rich social and economic data from this census can be compared with the data from the 1846 license elections. Finally, the license returns can be compared to partisan political returns that are available for townships.

The campaign surrounding the license elections was rather dull. Ten days before the vote the *Poughkeepsie Journal & Eagle* commented, "At present we see very little said on the subject throughout the state by the papers, many scarcely allude to it, and among the people themselves there appears to be no excitement." There were many reasons for the lack of "popular excitement."[11] For one thing, because the license issue had been around for several years, all the arguments had been heard before. Then, too, in many parts of the state it had become common for local officials to run for office pledged not to grant licenses. As early as 1842 the *Ulster Republican* reported that temperance had "exercised a controlling influence upon the election" in the village of Kingston, New York. That village's board of directors met in a temperance hotel (where no liquor was served), refused to license any retail groceries, and only grudgingly licensed five taverns for the convenience of travellers. In Penn-Yan village, just a month before the 1846 license elections, the *Yates County Whig* reported that a village government pledged to prohibition had been elected without opposition.[12]

The lackluster campaign came to an end amid a torrent of other events. In March and early April villages, towns, and cities throughout the state had held their regular annual elections, and on April 28th the voters had elected delegates to a state constitutional convention. Just three weeks later the license elections

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CHAPTER 12 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A12.40 - A Women's Awakening: Evangelical Religion and the Families of Utica, New York, 1800-1840

Mary P. Ryan

ARTICLE	A Women's Awakening: Evangelical Religion and the Families of Utica, New York, 1800-1840
JOURNAL	American Quarterly 30, no. 5 (1978)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 602-603
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A WOMEN'S AWAKENING: EVANGELICAL RELIGION AND THE FAMILIES OF UTICA, NEW YORK, 1800–1840

MARY P. RYAN
State University of New York at Binghamton

WRITING MORE THAN A QUARTER CENTURY AGO, WHITNEY CROSS OBSERVED that women "should dominate a history of enthusiastic movements, for their influence was paramount."[1] Although Cross retreated from the question of the relationship between sex and revivalism, his history of religion and reform in western New York state was riddled with evocative references to women. The women of the "Burned-Over District" still stand in the sidelines of antebellum history ready to play a variety of roles. First of all, there is woman as convert, piously, at times hysterically, approaching the anxious seat. Then there is her more audacious sister, perhaps her alter ego, who grasped for social power under cover of religious enthusiasm as she led men in private prayer or even preached. Finally, hidden in the history of American revivalism, is woman the power behind the pulpit, the minister's financial and moral support, the convert's evangelizing wife or mother.

A trail of anecdotes leads out of this literature into the eastern section of the Burned-Over District, to the county of Oneida and its bustling regional marketplace, the town of Utica. The grand master of antebellum re-

[1] Whitney R. Cross, *The Burned-Over District: The Social and Intellectual History of Enthusiastic Religion in Western New York, 1800 to 1850* (Ithaca: Cornell Univ. Press, 1950), 84.

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vivalism, Charles Finney, experienced childhood, courtship, and conversion in Oneida County. More to the point, Finney's career as an evangelist began with a tour of Oneida funded by the Female Missionary Society of the Western District. The direct antecedent of this organization had been established in 1806 at a tiny trading post in the frontier township of Whitestown, the village of Utica. For nearly 20 years the women of Utica carefully prepared the soil, planted and nourished the seeds for Finney's renowned evangelical harvest of 1825 and 1826. Utica, then, is an appropriate place to begin writing the women's history of the Burned-Over District.[2]

Utica and its environs, like other bounded localities, also provides the specific population and a concrete and manageable body of records through which to identify the precise roles women played in the Second Great Awakening. The names of converts were inscribed in the registries of four local churches: the First Presbyterian Church of Utica; its parent church, the First Presbyterian Society of Whitestown, located in the adjacent town of Whitesboro; its offshoot, the Second Presbyterian Church; and one of its denominational rivals, the Whitesboro Baptist Church. Each of these lists of church members was arranged according to the date when a parishioner formally professed his or her faith. Admissions to all churches clustered in a similar chronological pattern with each peak of new entries matching the dates of revivals designated by contemporary observers. Altogether, these lists yield a revival population consisting of over 1,400 men and women who proclaimed their salvation during the years 1814, 1819, 1826, 1830 to 1832, and 1838. The distribution of Christian names within this population indicates that women were in the majority during each revival and at every church. The proportion of female converts ranged from a low of approximately 52 percent in the Whitesboro Baptist Church in 1814 to a high of around 72 percent during the revival that occurred in the same church in 1838. All these proportions were above the sex ratio of the population at large: women constituted slightly less than 50 percent of the combined population of Utica and Whitestown at the beginning of the revival cycle and accounted for only 51.3 percent by 1838. Within the membership of each church, however, women outnumbered men by a larger margin, accounting for 62 to 65 percent of the total admissions. The ratio of females to males occasionally fell below this percentage during seasons of revival. In other words, most revivals, and particularly those of the 1820s and 1830s, saw a relative

[2] Charles Finney, *Memoirs of Reverend Charles G. Finney* (New York, 1876), chaps. 1 and 2; "Records of the Female Charitable Society of Whitestown," MS, The Whitestown Collection, Oneida Historical Society, Utica, N. Y. (hereafter OHS).

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CHAPTER 12 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A12.41 - The Power of Women's Networks: A Case Study of Female Moral Reform in Antebellum America

Mary P. Ryan

ARTICLE	The Power of Women's Networks: A Case Study of Female Moral Reform in Antebellum America
JOURNAL	Feminist Studies 5, no. 1 (1979)
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THE POWER OF WOMEN'S NETWORKS: A CASE STUDY OF FEMALE MORAL REFORM IN ANTEBELLUM AMERICA

MARY P. RYAN

One of the first impulses of the feminist historians in the early 1970s who set about discovering women's past was simply to chart the course of sexual inequality and the oppression of women. The advances of women's scholarship since then have raised more complicated historical issues. Women's historians are now looking to the past for evidence of women's power and autonomy rather than their simple subordination. Within segregated female spheres and women's networks they have discerned evidence of the ability of women to maximize their freedom and exert considerable social influence. This trend in women's history has given new currency to Mary Beard's notion, first enunciated in the 1940s, that contrary to being oppressed and victimized, women have acted throughout the American past to shape events and to make history. This scholarly perspective has given us a richer, multi-dimensional picture of women's history. There are, at the same time, some hazards inherent in this emphasis on women's culture and women's power. The first possible risk is that by exonerating the women of the past from the charge of being eternal victims and passive objects of history, we will also lose sight of the societal inequality which has consistently marked womanhood and been a central component of nearly every sex/gender system. Secondly, we are in some danger of oversimplifying the historical process. If women are a force in history, if they make their own history, then we must also face the possibility that females have participated in creating and reproducing the less-sanguine aspects of the gender system. We are now in a position, after scarcely a decade of intense research, to recognize women as full agents in history, who for all their power and freedom have not circumvented the constraints, ironies, and contradictions that confront human beings in the past and into the future.[1]

This paper explores one manifestation of this more complex historical relationship drawn from the annals of antebellum American

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reform movements. The American Female Moral Reform Society seems to represent women entering history in a powerful, militant, some have said feminist posture. More than 400 chapters of the national moral reform association grew up throughout New England and the Middle-Atlantic States in the 1830s and 40s. Their goal was to reform standards of sexual morality and regulate sexual behavior in their communities. They assailed the double standard, forcefully pursued and exposed licentious men, and extended their protection to seduced women and reformed prostitutes. In Female Moral Reform, Carroll Smith-Rosenberg has found expressions of women's discontent with their assigned sphere, contempt for tyrannical males and militant defense of members of their own sex. More recently, Barbara Berg has relied heavily on the records of the American Female Moral Reform Society to argue that the origins of American feminism lay not in the abolitionist movement but in the women's benevolent organizations that flourished in the nineteenth-century city and often dated from an earlier period.[2] At the same time any casual reader of the Society's periodical, *The Advocate of Moral Reform*, will also notice a contrary tendency. The *Advocate* reveled in portraying the innate purity, domestic virtue, and maternal priorities of the female sex. In fact they were among the earliest and most enthusiastic exponents of these features of the nineteenth-century stereotype of "true womanhood." Female Moral Reform, in other words, presents two apparently contradictory uses of woman's power: to attack the double standard, on the one hand, and to celebrate a domestic feminine stereotype, on the other. Thus the case of Female Moral Reform offers an excellent opportunity to examine the relationship between women's power and the history of the sex/gender system. It may illuminate the nature, sources, and ambiguous historical impact of women's efforts to exert influence on society at large.

This historical objective is best achieved by minute analysis at the level of local reform organization. This narrow but sensitive compass can locate the specific origins of the female moral reformers' power. The focus of this inquiry is a chapter of the American Female Moral Reform Society founded in Utica, New York in 1837. The Utica Society was also served by rural tributaries, including chapters in such satellite farming and factory villages as Whitesboro, Clinton, New York Mills, and Westmoreland. In the 1830s and 40s, Utica and these surrounding towns of Oneida County were alive with moral reform, and consequently prolific of documents for historians of women.

Female moral reform grew up in the interstices of the expanding agricultural market economy which centered in the village of Utica.

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CHAPTER 12 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A12.42 - Religious Tracts, Evangelical Reform, and the Market Revolution in Antebellum America

Mark S. Schantz

ARTICLE	Religious Tracts, Evangelical Reform, and the Market Revolution in Antebellum America
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EXCERPT	Original journal pages 425-426
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RELIGIOUS TRACTS, EVANGELICAL REFORM, AND THE MARKET REVOLUTION IN ANTEBELLUM AMERICA

Mark S. Schantz

Let us begin with the literary production of an artisan. A master craftsman is writing a letter of advice to a young apprentice who is about to leave his service. Rather than reminding the young man of the mysteries he has learned about his craft, the master offers instruction pertaining to the mysteries of the soul. "See that the foundation of religion will be laid," he tells the young man, "in a sincere conversion." He encourages, as well, a hearty respect for hard work and the self-discipline necessary to "watch over the natural appetites of the body." Surely such counsel will allow the young man to prosper in his business. But, ultimately, the master is less concerned with temporal success than he is with eternal salvation. "Be very watchful against an inordinate affection for the present world," he warns. His parting words, too, encourage a spirit of benevolence rather than the clutching materialism of the day: "Watch, therefore, against a contracted, selfish spirit, as no less injurious to yourself than to others; and be diligent, prudent, and frugal in all your management; that you may have the privilege of being a great blessing to others." Satisfied that he has discharged his duties in a

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Mark S. Schantz is associate professor of history at Hendrix College. He is completing a book on religious culture and social class in antebellum Providence, Rhode Island, for Cornell University Press. The author wishes to thank Nancy Ellen Barr, Steven Hornsby, Jeanne Kilde, Jama Lazerow, Jonathan Prude, Martha Sledge, Mart Stewart, and the anonymous readers of the *Journal of the Early Republic* for their helpful comments. He also acknowledges gratefully the support of the Woodrow Wilson National Fellowship Foundation, a Frances Hiatt Fellowship at the American Antiquarian Society and a Hendrix College Faculty Project Grant which aided in the completion of this work.

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Christian fashion, the master bids his apprentice an "affectionate" farewell.

This extraordinary letter is not to be discovered in a mechanic's correspondence or account book, nor in a labor newspaper, and not even in the minutes of a church meeting. Instead, it forms the text of Tract No. 100, entitled *Advice from A Master to His Apprentice, When Leaving His Service, and Entering on Life for Himself,* published by the American Tract Society in New York.[1] As such, it represents only one of the more than five hundred titles of duodecimo tracts published by the society between 1825 and 1850, the first twenty-five years of its existence. So popular were tracts such as this one that the Tract Society produced more than thirty-two million of them within a decade of its formation. Evincing an abiding faith in the transforming power of religious print, the Tract Society and its auxiliaries across the nation sought to hasten the coming of the millennium by distributing tracts to every person in America. The efforts of this host of distributors, although they failed to divinize the country and to produce the Second Coming of Christ, may well have forged the first "mass media" market in American history.[2]

For more than thirty years, historians examining the efforts of the American Tract Society and other reform ventures of the "Benevolent Empire" have stressed their essential compatibility with the emergence of the market economy in antebellum America.[3] And in some respects, the

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[1] Since the American Tract Society typically did not include publication dates or editions on its tracts, citing their materials is somewhat problematic. Even authors were rarely acknowledged. Since the tracts were collected in bound volumes, they also might contain two systems of pagination. The tracts are cited by name, number, and page, regardless of the bound volume pagination. Since the tracts may often be found outside their volumes, this system seemed to make more sense. Thus, for the tract cited above, *Advice from A Master to His Apprentice, When Leaving His Service, and Entering on Life for Himself*, no. 100, 1, 5, 4, 6. On determining the dating of individual tracts and other bibliographic matters, see Lawrence Thompson, "The Printing and Publishing Activities of the American Tract Society from 1825 to 1850," *The Papers of the Bibliographic Society of America*, 35 (Second Quarter 1941), 81-114.

[2] According to Thompson, the Tract Society's publishing list in 1850 included 529 numbered titles. See Thompson, "Printing and Publishing Activities," 91; the American Tract Society, *Tenth Annual Report* (New York, 1835), 24, reported that a total of 32,179,250 copies of tracts had been printed "since the Formation of the Society." This total does not include other advice literature, hymn books, pocket manuals, and other materials; on the last point see David Paul Nord, "The Evangelical Origins of Mass Media in America, 1815-1835," *Journalism Monographs,* no. 88 (May 1984), 1-31.

[3] This line of interpretation gathered strength in the 1950s and 1960s with the work of scholars who viewed religious reform under the general rubric of "social control." As Clifford S. Griffin argued, at the forefront of religious benevolence stood "wealthy men

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CHAPTER 12 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A12.43 - The Scope of the Second Great Awakening: Andover, Massachusetts, as a Case Study

Richard D. Shiels

ARTICLE	The Scope of the Second Great Awakening: Andover, Massachusetts, as a Case Study
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EXCERPT	Original journal pages 223-224
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THE SCOPE OF THE SECOND GREAT AWAKENING: ANDOVER, MASSACHUSETTS, AS A CASE STUDY

Richard D. Shiels

The Second Great Awakening was a national phenomenon that began in the late eighteenth century and continued through the first third of the nineteenth. Americans in virtually every town or county experienced religious revivals and organized evangelical voluntary societies. Such a far-reaching, long-lasting, grass-roots movement defies explanation or even definition when considered as a whole.[1] Consequently, most historians write about one or another part of the awakening: the ''new measures'' used in revivals, for example, or the New Haven theology; voluntary societies or Methodist camp meetings. Some study short periods of revival rather than the entire period of the awakening, and most focus upon one or another group of participants.

Recent works by William G. McLoughlin and Donald Scott focus primarily upon the clergy. McLoughlin is interested in what it was that preachers said which met with such popular response. He argues that social changes resulting from the American Revolution required new ideas of personal and national identity. Scott looks beyond the rhetoric of the clergy to the changing structure

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Mr. Shiels is a member of the Department of History at the Ohio State University at Newark. He wishes to thank the staff of the Andover Historical Society for their assistance, especially Marsha Rooney, Patricia Babson, and Joan Patrakis. Research for this article was supported by a grant from the Research and Scholarly Activity Committee of the Ohio State University at Newark. Stephanie Johnston assisted with the tables.

[1] Donald G. Mathews, ''The Second Great Awakening as an Organizing Process, 1780-1830: An Hypothesis,'' *American Quarterly,* 21 (Spring 1969), 23-43.

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of religious leadership and the changing relationship of clergy to their flocks. Both suggest that the key to the awakening is what clergymen did when facing a new situation.[2]

Several other studies examine the converts in this awakening, seemingly discounting the role of clergy. Paul Johnson finds male shopkeepers at the heart of the revival in Rochester, New York, in 1831. He concludes that the revival was related to a changing relationship between these men and their employees.[3] Nancy Cott focuses upon young women in New England's awakening and Mary Ryan describes the role of adult women in the movement in Oneida County, New York, in the 1820s. Cott and Ryan look for its causes in newly emerging sex roles and family structures.[4] Randall Roth identifies young male converts in frontier communities in Vermont. He and Joseph Kett suggest that the awakening was linked to new circumstances confronting youth.[5] Although parallel in focusing upon the question "who was converted?" these studies provide different answers and therefore different interpretations of the awakening.

This study is limited to the Second Great Awakening in South Parish, Andover, Massachusetts. Its purpose is to discover the scope of the movement within one community over the entire period of the awakening. (In Andover, the awakening began about 1812 and ended in the early 1830s.)[6] How deep were the changes

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[2] William G. McLoughlin, *Revivals, Awakenings, and Reform: An Essay on Religion and Social Change in America, 1607-1977* (Chicago 1978), 98-140; Donald M. Scott, *From Office to Profession: The New England Ministry, 1750-1850* (Philadelphia 1978). McLoughlin employs the concept of awakening as a "revitalization movement," which implies a focus on the converts as well as the clergy; however, his sources for the Second Awakening in New England enable him to focus most directly upon the clergy. Scott treats the awakening as one part of a study of the transformation of the ministry.

[3] Paul E. Johnson, *A Shopkeeper's Millennium: Society and Revivals in Rochester, New York, 1815-1837* (New York 1978).

[4] Nancy F. Cott, "Young Women in the Second Great Awakening in New England," *Feminist Studies,* 3 (Fall 1975), 15-29; Mary Ryan, *Cradle of the Middle Class: The Family in Oneida County, New York, 1790-1865* (New York 1981). See also Barbara Leslie Epstein, *The Politics of Domesticity: Women, Evangelicalism, and Temperance in Nineteenth Century America* (Middletown, Conn. 1981).

[5] Randolph Anthony Roth, "Whence This Strange Fire? Religious and Reform Movements in the Connecticut River Valley of Vermont, 1791-1843" (Ph.D. diss., Yale University 1981); Joseph Kett, *Rites of Passage: Adolescence in America, 1790 to the Present* (New York 1977), 62-85.

[6] The awakening came late to Essex County, Massachusetts. In Andover,

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CHAPTER 12 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A12.44 - To 'Cast Just Obliquy' on Oppressors: Black Radicalism in the Age of Revolution

Manisha Sinha

ARTICLE	To 'Cast Just Obliquy' on Oppressors: Black Radicalism in the Age of Revolution
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To "cast just obliquy" on Oppressors: Black Radicalism in the Age of Revolution

Manisha Sinha

HISTORIANS have yet to fully appreciate the alternative and radical nature of black abolitionist ideology and its origins in the revolutionary era and the early Republic. Most continue to portray black abolitionists, in Patrick Rael's words, not as "counter-hegemons" but as "cofabricators" of northern political culture. They argue that African Americans appropriated mainstream values and ideas to construct a black protest tradition. But the terms adoption, assimilation, or appropriation hardly do justice to African Americans' intellectual and political engagement with the revolutionary tradition. A commitment to revolutionary republicanism could range from a conservative belief in propertied citizenship to more progressive ideas of universal liberty and equality and even demands for social justice and economic parity. Though racial slavery could act as the material basis for the growth of republicanism, revolutionary ideals also posed a threat to slavery's existence. As David Brion Davis has pointed out, revolutionary ideology furnished the first sustained theoretical critique of slavery in the western world.[1] Black abolitionists not only developed a comprehensive

Manisha Sinha is an associate professor of Afro-American Studies and History at the University of Massachusetts, Amherst. The author wishes to thank Ira Berlin, Iver Bernstein, Eric Foner, Richard Newman, Karsten Stueber, and the anonymous readers for the *William and Mary Quarterly* for their comments. She would also like to thank audiences at the 2004 annual meeting of the Organization of American Historians in Boston, at Columbia University's Contested Democracy conference, and at the American Antiquarian Society Fellows' Seminar, particularly Professor Drew McCoy of Clark University, for their encouraging responses to this article.

[1] Patrick Rael, *Black Identity and Black Protest in the Antebellum North* (Chapel Hill, N.C., 2002), esp. introd., conclusion, 208 ("counter-hegemons"), 5 ("cofabricators"). Rael concludes that African American abolitionists "operated within the paradigm of the continuing revolution. They in fact relied on it so much that they became unparalleled champions of its principles" (ibid., 280). See also Frederick Cooper, "Elevating the Race: The Social Thought of Black Leaders, 1827–50," *American Quarterly* 24, no. 5 (December 1972): 604–25. On revolutionary radicalism, see Alfred F. Young, ed., *The American Revolution: Explorations in the History of*

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critique of slavery in the early Republic but also subjected the American revolutionary tradition to criticism.

African American abolitionists used the metaphor of revolution to argue for a host of ideas and positions, and their use of the revolutionary tradition involved more than just extending the principles of the American Revolution to black Americans. The idea of revolution became the basis of an oppositional tradition of black radicalism that departed dramatically from mainstream American political thought and its premises. Far from simply invoking the ideals of the American Revolution, African Americans emerged as its most stringent and vocal critics. Indeed, they developed a powerful counternarrative to the history of revolutionary republicanism in the United States that highlighted slavery rather than freedom and independence as its central legacy. Revolution to black abolitionists meant not just the incomplete promise of the American Revolution but the Haitian Revolution, a way to justify the overthrow of slavery through slave rebellion and abolitionist instigation.[2] Their notion

American Radicalism (DeKalb, Ill., 1976); Eric Foner, *Tom Paine and Revolutionary America* (New York, 1976); Gary B. Nash, *The Urban Crucible: Social Change, Political Consciousness, and the Origins of the American Revolution* (Cambridge, Mass., 1979); Gordon S. Wood, *The Radicalism of the American Revolution* (New York, 1992); Young, ed., *Beyond the American Revolution: Explorations in the History of American Radicalism* (DeKalb, Ill., 1993); Jesse Lemisch, *Jack Tar vs. John Bull: The Role of New York's Seamen in Precipitating the Revolution* (New York, 1997); Peter Linebaugh and Marcus Rediker, *The Many-Headed Hydra: Sailors, Slaves, Commoners, and the Hidden History of the Revolutionary Atlantic* (Boston, 2000). On republicanism, see J. G. A. Pocock, *The Machiavellian Moment: Florentine Political Thought and the Atlantic Republican Tradition* (Princeton, N.J., 1975); Bernard Bailyn, *The Ideological Origins of the American Revolution* (Cambridge, Mass., 1967), chap. 6. For the relationship between slavery and republicanism, see Duncan J. MacLeod, *Slavery, Race, and the American Revolution* (New York, 1974); Edmund S. Morgan, *American Slavery, American Freedom: The Ordeal of Colonial Virginia* (New York, 1975); Nash, *Race and Revolution* (Madison, Wis., 1990). On northern emancipation and the growth of free black communities, see Ira Berlin, "The Revolution in Black Life," in Young, *American Revolution*, 349–82; Nash, *Forging Freedom: The Formation of Philadelphia's Black Community, 1720–1840* (Cambridge, Mass., 1988). On black republicanism, see John Saillant, *Black Puritan, Black Republican: The Life and Thought of Lemuel Haynes, 1753–1833* (New York, 2003), chap. 2. For David Brion Davis's argument that revolutionary ideology furnished a critique of slavery, see Davis, *The Problem of Slavery in the Age of Revolution, 1770–1823* (Ithaca, N.Y., 1975). On the politics of slavery during the American Revolution, see Christopher Leslie Brown, *Moral Capital: Foundations of British Abolitionism* (Chapel Hill, N.C., 2006).

[2] On the early black public sphere, see Vincent Carretta, ed., *Unchained Voices: An Anthology of Black Authors in the English-Speaking World of the Eighteenth Century* (Lexington, Ky., 1996); Carretta and Philip Gould, eds., *Genius in Bondage: Literature of the Early Black Atlantic* (Lexington, Ky., 2001); Joanna Brooks and John Saillant, eds., *"Face Zion Forward": First Writers of the Black Atlantic, 1785–1798* (Boston, 2002); John Ernest, *Liberation Historiography: African American Writers and*

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CHAPTER 12 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A12.45 - Select Men of Sober and Industrious Habits: Alcohol Reform and Social Conflict in Antebellum Appalachia

Bruce E. Stewart

ARTICLE	Select Men of Sober and Industrious Habits: Alcohol Reform and Social Conflict in Antebellum Appalachia
JOURNAL	The Journal of Southern History 73, no. 2 (2007)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 289-290
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Select Men of Sober and Industrious Habits: Alcohol Reform and Social Conflict in Antebellum Appalachia

By Bruce E. Stewart

No other institutions in our opinion, can have a more salutary influence in checking vice, and giving a right direction to our various passions and appetites, than Temperance Societies." So wrote physician Jason F. E. Hardy, explaining why he and other middle-class reformers had founded the Asheville Auxiliary Temperance Society in Buncombe County in April 1831.[1] One of the first of its kind in western North Carolina, this organization was initially a success. Forty mountain residents, mostly from Asheville, joined the society that April because they believed that alcohol was impeding the community's moral and economic prosperity. Two months later the number of members had increased to sixty-five. But support for the Asheville Auxiliary Temperance Society was far from universal, especially in more remote parts of the county. Many farmers argued that the society and its desire to eradicate King Alcohol—as temperance advocates often termed alcoholic beverages—were "a scheme to deprive the people of their liberty." Several mountain churches joined the chorus of opposition, threatening to expel congregants who joined the organization. By 1832 the Asheville Auxiliary Temperance Society faced an uncertain future, as "enem[ies]" reduced its membership "to a bare majority."[2] To the dismay of Hardy and other Asheville reformers, King Alcohol proved to be a formidable adversary.

[1] "Asheville Auxiliary Temperance Society," Rutherfordton *North Carolina Spectator and Western Advertiser*, June 11, 1831. For their comments and suggestions on this essay, I wish to thank John C. Inscoe and the anonymous readers for the *Journal of Southern History*. The research for this article could not have been accomplished without the help of the Dean's Award in Humanities from the University of Georgia.

[2] J. F. E. Hardy, *Second Annual Address: Delivered before the Asheville Temperance Society, on the 4th of July, 1832: With the Executive Committee's First Annual Report* (Rutherfordton, N.C., 1832), 4 (first quotation), 9 (second and third quotations).

Mr. Stewart is a graduate student at the University of Georgia and has been appointed assistant professor of history at Appalachian State University.

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Since the 1980s historians have debunked the notion that southerners were not receptive to alcohol reform during the antebellum period.[3] Ian R. Tyrrell, John W. Quist, and other scholars have argued persuasively that the temperance movement in the South differed little from that elsewhere in the United States. Like their cohorts in the North, most southern reformers were middle-class professionals who tended to reside in towns with a thousand or more inhabitants. There members of the urban middle class were numerous enough to influence local politics, and they embraced the temperance movement, believing that it would improve their communities both morally and economically. These towns, mostly situated in the lowland South, also tended to have large African American populations, whose presence further encouraged whites to promote alcohol reform as an instrument of social control.[4]

Nonetheless, when examining the antebellum temperance movement, historians continue to characterize southern Appalachia as exceptional. Believing that the region remained isolated from the outside world, Tyrrell and other scholars have insisted that mountain residents retained cultural values hostile to a temperance ethic that was emerging in areas experiencing urban and industrial growth before the Civil War.[5] Although they question the extent of isolation in mountain society, historians of Appalachia have agreed with Tyrrell. In her groundbreaking work on the Hatfield-McCoy feud, for instance, Altina L. Waller notes that "[t]he temperance crusade that began in 1830s New England had never reached Appalachia, which simply continued a cultural tradition once dominant in all regions."[6]

A closer examination of one section of Appalachia, however, reveals that the anti-alcohol crusade had not bypassed the region during the antebellum period. Despite its rural character, absence of large towns,

[3] Until the 1980s most historians argued that the temperance movement failed to develop in the South due to the movement's close association in the North with antislavery efforts. See Joseph R. Gusfield, *Symbolic Crusade: Status Politics and the American Temperance Movement* (Urbana, 1963); Clement Eaton, *The Freedom-of-Thought Struggle in the Old South* (New York, 1964); and C. S. Griffin, *The Ferment of Reform, 1830–1860* (New York, 1967).

[4] See John W. Quist, *Restless Visionaries: The Social Roots of Antebellum Reform in Alabama and Michigan* (Baton Rouge, 1998); Douglas W. Carlson, "'Drinks He to His Own Undoing': Temperance Ideology in the Deep South," *Journal of the Early Republic*, 18 (Winter 1998), 659–91; Ellen Eslinger, "Antebellum Liquor Reform in Lexington, Virginia: The Story of a Small Southern Town," *Virginia Magazine of History and Biography*, 99 (April 1991), 163–86; Stanley K. Schultz, "Temperance Reform in the Antebellum South: Social Control and Urban Order," *South Atlantic Quarterly*, 83 (Summer 1984), 322–39; Ian R. Tyrrell, "Drink and Temperance in the Antebellum South: An Overview and Interpretation," *Journal of Southern History*, 48 (November 1982), 485–510; and W. J. Rorabaugh, "The Sons of Temperance in Antebellum Jasper County," *Georgia Historical Quarterly*, 64 (Fall 1980), 263–79.

[5] Tyrrell, "Drink and Temperance in the Antebellum South," 505–7, 509.

[6] Altina L. Waller, *Feud: Hatfields, McCoys, and Social Change in Appalachia, 1860–1900* (Chapel Hill, 1988), 202.

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CHAPTER 12 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A12.46 - Benevolent Calvinism and the Moral Government of God: The Influence of Nathaniel W. Taylor on Revivalism in the Second Great Awakening

William R. Sutton

ARTICLE	Benevolent Calvinism and the Moral Government of God: The Influence of Nathaniel W. Taylor on Revivalism in the Second Great Awakening
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Benevolent Calvinism and the Moral Government of God: The Influence of Nathaniel W. Taylor on Revivalism in the Second Great Awakening

William R. Sutton

In the early nineteenth century, when theological disputes centered on suggestions of a kinder, gentler God, Yale's Nathaniel William Taylor brought to fruition America's "one great contribution to the theological thinking of Christendom," the New Haven theology.[1] Taylor's theology combined elements of Calvinist and Newtonian worldviews and centered on three critical assumptions: the benevolence of God, his moral government, and human free agency. Thus, Taylor held that God was both a wise and powerful creator and a good and just ruler, whose concern for and involvement with his creation extended into contemporary human affairs. Moreover, he believed that men and women were moral agents whose sinfulness was worthy of divine condemnation as well as empirically inevitable, but that human sin was in no way preordained or necessary to the prevailing system of moral government. Taylor developed his theology within the philosophical context of Enlightenment rationalism and Reformed revivalism, and his work offers evidence for the assumption that ideas do play pivotal roles as historical actors. At the same time, Taylor's ideas demanded practical application, which was provided by Taylor's longtime friend and fellow revivalist, Lyman Beecher. The result of their Enlightenment-inspired efforts was a rationalistic and democratic melioration of Calvinist revivalism which empowered one phase of the Second Great Awakening. Their contribution was crucial to the hegemonic success of that Protestant evangelicalism Perry Miller termed the "dominant mentality" in the antebellum period.[2]

The "Second Great Awakening" describes the attempt to both organize and revitalize various segments of the nascent American religious and social order in the first third of the nineteenth century. Grounded in the Reformed Protestant tradition, it included both Calvinist and Arminian elements as well as populist and traditionalist revival expressions, which accentuated dissimilar or antagonistic

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approaches to religious experience. The revivalism connected with the Second Great Awakening became notorious for boisterous camp meetings, aggressive proselytizing, and unusual preaching practices, but it also involved ratiocinative theological adjustments and regular congregational expansion. In New England, the traditionalist expression began around the turn of the eighteenth century with Timothy Dwight's efforts to stem the tide of infidelity and to restore evangelical Calvinism to respectability. A second phase of the traditionalist effort emerged roughly two decades later as Calvinists addressed the general malaise associated with disestablishment and religious liberalism. To consolidate the latter effort, Taylor and his associates at Yale developed the New Haven theology; joined together, Taylor's theological innovations and Beecher's organizational skills put forth a coherent program that inspired, enabled, and directed this second phase of Second Great Awakening revivalism.[3]

I

To locate Taylor's system within the theological warfare that characterized the Second Great Awakening in New England, then, requires that it be described and interpreted in terms of revivalism, Calvinism, Arminianism, and the Enlightenment.[4] The right to define and control revivalism—in its theological underpinnings, its experience of converting power, and its concomitant implications for social ordering—was at the heart of this struggle. Calvinism, of course, was the reigning champion in this contest, although even by the late eighteenth century it had split into two fairly well-defined factions. Both claimed to be following in the philosophical footsteps of Jonathan Edwards as they attempted to describe a moral system in which human responsibility could be made compatible with the workings of a loving and sovereign God.[5] The Old Calvinists were those who had kept alive the revivalism of the Great Awakening by continually pressing their audiences for evidences of "hope" of saving faith. Their theology was more utilitarian than strictly Edwardsean and was designed to instill individual piety and to promote public morality in response to specific sociopolitical challenges. Thus, many Old Calvinists marshalled biblical arguments to support the American Revolution and, later, backed Timothy Dwight (the Yale mentor of both Taylor and Beecher) in his fight to eradicate infidelity. Opposed to the Old Calvinists were the Consistent or Edwardsean Calvinists (also known as New Divinity men). Metaphysical, rationalistic, and self-consciously devoted to Edwards, their goal was to reconcile Calvinism with personal moral accountability. The New Divinity men were also effective revivalists,

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CHAPTER 12 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A12.47 - Asylum and Society: An Approach to Institutional Change

Peter L. Tyor and Jamil S. Zainaldin

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ASYLUM AND SOCIETY: AN APPROACH TO INSTITUTIONAL CHANGE

During the past decade there has been a surge of interest in the history of nineteenth-century American social welfare institutions. What was once a minor sub-specialty classified with "reform" now has blossomed into a distinct field of social history.[1] As with other fields of study, the boundaries of this new institutional history are flexible and amorphous. They encompass but are not restricted to studies of crime, poverty, benevolence, education, dependency, youth, insanity, and the mentally disabled. Sharing a similar content but diverging in conception from the older genre of social welfare history, these new works explore in rich detail the association among reformer, asylum, and society.[2]

More recently several broadly conceived studies have attempted to delineate precisely the exchange between asylum and public policy. These works, particularly those of David Rothman, Gerald Grob, and Christopher Lasch, actually comprise a second generation of literature in the new scholarship.[3] Extending the research base to fill a broader societal frame, they have produced insightful overviews of the history of the asylum. Two issues persist in this literature. Why did asylums suddenly appear on the American landscape in the 1830s and 1840s? And how can we explain the apparently early transformation in policy, from one emphasizing regenerative therapy to a later preoccupation with regimentation and custody?

In *The Discovery of the Asylum*, David Rothman broadly focuses on crime, poverty, and insanity. He argues that early nineteenth-century society "discovered" the asylum for two principal reasons. First the asylum represented a corrective (and authoritarian) response to the perceived social turmoil generated by democratization and the decline of communal and familial governance. Second, a new environmental understanding of human disorder surfaced in the early decades causally linking the breakdown of community with patterns of deviance. Implicit in this vision was was a coexistent faith in the perfectibility of man and the regenerative power of the "properly organized asylum." By institutionalizing the "fringe" membership of society and then subjecting them to a regimen of discipline, instruction and moral inculcation, asylum advocates sought to prepare them for leading useful, morally responsible, economically productive lives.

According to Rothman, however, a perversion of that environmental conception transformed the asylum from a reformist to a custodial operation. "The post-Civil War asylum keeper all too predictably succumbed to the fallacy that in administering a holding operation he was still encouraging rehabilitation, that one only had to keep inmates behind walls to effect some good."[4] Perhaps most persuasively, Rothman argues that changes in the character of the inmate population and institutional leadership reinforced the

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custodial inclination.[5] As the older generation of reformers passed away, they were replaced by a nascent group of professional administrators; in addition, the asylums increasingly attracted the most troublesome cases.

In *Mental Institutions in America*, Gerald Grob accounts for the antebellum appearance of the asylum-hospital. Unlike Rothman, he views these new institutions as responsive to demographic change, muting their role as possible correctives to social disorder. Population growth, mobility, social stratification, and urbanization rendered traditional forms of treatment inadequate. The hospital emerged as an alternative method of care.[6] Following the precepts of moral management, these early, intentionally small asylums were designed to create a remote environment of work and rest. Under these ideal conditions, physicians promised that insanity was as curable as any comparably serious disease.

Almost from their foundings these hospitals began to suffer from rapid growth aggravated by myopic planning. Mandated by law, or pressed by local authorities to accept the most dangerous and troublesome cases, the hospitals soon accumulated chronic patients rather than the succession of acute cases superintendents expected. As Grob notes, there were other consequences for psychiatrists.

> Faced with a structure that permitted them relatively little flexibility insofar as the number and type of patients was concerned, superintendents found the gap between theory and practice increasing rather than decreasing. As their hospitals took on more and more of a custodial character, they unwillingly transformed their own occupation into an administrative and managerial specialty, with a consequent loss of the elan and charisma that had marked the first generation of superintendents in the early part of the nineteenth century.[7]

With the rise of "administrative psychiatry" and the change in patient population, Grob also detects the emergence of dual standards of care. Race, class, and ethnicity increasingly elicited differing modes of treatment.[8] This only further undermined therapeutic objectives and hastened the descent to custodialism.

Differing fundamentally from Rothman and Grob, Christopher Lasch is drawn to the spirit of the first great reform movement. In his short theoretical essay, "Origins of the Asylum," Lasch rejects the Rothman arguments that external pressures (public, legislative, and judicial) were the crucial elements in the asylum's transformation. He believes that institutional devolution stemmed inevitably from what he terms the "antagonistic" character of moral reform. Judged from this perspective, the asylum's primary responsibility was the definition and enforcement of a single standard of citizenship. In the guise of reform and human improvement, new forms of regulation replaced older ones. Lasch employs the theory of "total institution" to reveal the latent repressive features in any nineteenth-century institution premised on the curative value of confinement. Applying the sociological criteria of Erving Goffman, he asserts that asylums acquired the characteristics of total institutions as they increasingly practiced the principles of classification and enforced a disciplined regimen on their inmates. Lasch concludes that when concepts of classification, order, discipline, and isolation are established as the distinctive features of the modern asylum, then "the custodians of total institutions are forced to deal with inmates in ways that defeat the purposes of

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CHAPTER 12 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A12.48 - Drink and Temperance in the Antebellum South: An Overview and Interpretation

Ian R. Tyrrell

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Drink and Temperance in the Antebellum South: An Overview and Interpretation

By Ian R. Tyrrell

The study of antebellum social reform has been limited almost exclusively to its northern manifestations. Historians such as Avery O. Craven and Clement Eaton have noted the South's reform efforts, but even these writers have had to admit that, in comparison with the North, there was a "neglect of social reform in the South."[1] Only temperance among the northern reform enthusiasms attracted substantial southern support; yet, even in the case of the antiliquor crusade, the South lagged behind. The region had 44 percent of the nation's population but only 8.5 percent of the temperance pledges in 1831.[2] Of the thirteen states and territories that adopted prohibition by the 1850s, only Delaware had slaves. Explanations of the sluggish pace of temperance agitation in the antebellum South have usually focused on abolitionism. Fear of slave revolts engendered "a profoundly conservative attitude toward social reforms."[3] According to Joseph R. Gusfield's standard interpretation of the temperance crusade, "the identification with antislavery was strong enough to stifle completely the organization of the Temperance movement in the South."[4]

[1] Eaton, *The Growth of Southern Civilization, 1790–1860* (New York, 1961), 97, 293 (quotation); Craven, *The Growth of Southern Nationalism, 1848–1861* ([Baton Rouge], 1953), 163–65. Clifford S. Griffin, *The Ferment of Reform, 1830–1860* (New York and London, 1967), 26–28, summarizes the traditional view of southern reform.

[2] Calculated from the census of temperance societies published in the *Journal of Humanity,* II (January 20, 1831), 138; (January 27, 1831), 141; (February 3, 1831), 147; (February 10, 1831), 150; (February 17, 1831), 154; (February 24, 1831), 158; (March 3, 1831), 162; (March 10, 1831), 165-66; (March 24, 1831), 175; (April 21, 1831), 190. See also John A. Krout, *The Origins of Prohibition* (New York, 1925), 129–31. On the drink and temperance questions see two recent general works: W. J. Rorabaugh, *The Alcoholic Republic*: *An American Tradition* (New York and Oxford, 1979); and Norman H. Clark, *Deliver Us from Evil*: *An Interpretation of American Prohibition* (New York, 1976).

[3] Eaton, *Growth of Southern Civilization,* 97.

[4] Gusfield, *Symbolic Crusade*: *Status Politics and the American Temperance Movement*

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The contribution of the fear of abolitionism to the muzzling of temperance in the South still remains to be assessed by historians. What is most striking is not the absence of temperance agitation, but its attenuated character and its inability to command broad community support. Despite the fears of abolitionism, some southerners did campaign for temperance and prohibition, and any assessment of the role of antislavery in shaping the character of southern reform must involve a close study of those who dissented from the dominant southern attitude of indifference or hostility toward temperance. How did southern reformers differ from other southerners, and, equally important, how did they compare with the groups supporting temperance in the northern states? Answers to these questions throw light both on the course of temperance reform in the South and on the relationship among industrialization, social change, and reform activity throughout the nation.

Though the pattern of southern temperance would soon diverge sharply from that in the North, the South's early participation in temperance reform closely paralleled the northern in timing and inspiration. In October 1826, just a few months after the organization of the American Temperance Society in Boston, the Virginia Society for the Promotion of Temperance was established. By 1831 the temperance movement in the South had strong support in Virginia and Georgia, and there were societies in every state except Louisiana. As in the North, temperance sentiment developed most strongly among the adherents of evangelical religion. Methodists and Baptists, especially, carried the brunt of the early missionary work in the southern states. In both Virginia and Georgia the state temperance societies actually grew out of the active concerns of members of the states' Baptist conventions.[5]

Yet the parallels between northern and southern temperance were superficial and short-lived. By the mid-1830s it was clear to northern temperance leaders that the antiliquor crusade in the South garnered fewer recruits and provoked more open hostility than in any other section of the country. The first official admission that temperance lagged badly in the South came at the National Temperance Convention held in Philadelphia in 1833. Important organizational changes effected at the convention revealed the fears of temperance reformers that too close an association with New England abolitionism had damaged the progress of temperance in the South. Until 1833 the temperance crusade had been led by a centralized group in

(Urbana, 1963), 54. See also Charles C. Pearson and J. Edwin Hendricks, *Liquor and Anti-Liquor in Virginia, 1619–1919* (Durham, N. C., 1967), 88–89, 92; Krout, *Origins of Prohibition,* 176–77, 217–19.

[5] *Journal of Humanity,* II (March 3, 10, 1831), 162, 166; James B. Sellers, *The Prohibition Movement in Alabama, 1702 to 1943* (Chapel Hill, 1943), 15–16.

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CHAPTER 12 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A12.49 - Taking Heaven by Storm: Enthusiasm and Early American Methodism, 1770-1820

John H. Wigger

ARTICLE	Taking Heaven by Storm: Enthusiasm and Early American Methodism, 1770-1820
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TAKING HEAVEN BY STORM: ENTHUSIASM AND EARLY AMERICAN METHODISM, 1770-1820

John H. Wigger

> I went on to church, and the brothers and sisters prayed around me. Then, like a flash, the power of God struck me. It seemed like something struck me in the top of my head and then went on out through the toes of my feet. I jumped, or rather, fell back against the back of the seat. I lay on the floor of the church. A voice said to me, "You are no longer a sinner. Go and tell the world what I have done for you."
>
> —An ex-slave[1]

> The Methodists in America . . .appear determined to take heaven by storm.
>
> —British traveler Isaac Holmes[2]

Between 1770 and 1820 American Methodism achieved a virtual miracle of growth, rising from fewer than 1,000 members to over 250,000. In 1775 fewer than one out of every 800 Americans was a Methodist; by 1812 it was one out of every 36. While other denominations expanded in absolute numbers, the Methodists gained an ever larger share of the religious market. In 1775 Methodists comprised only 2 percent of the total church membership in America. By 1850

John Wigger is a doctoral candidate at the University of Notre Dame. He presented an earlier version of this paper at the joint spring meeting of the American Society of Church History and the American Catholic Historical Association, held at the University of Notre Dame in March 1992. The author wishes to thank Nathan Hatch, George Marsden, Stephen Stein, George Rawlyk, Philip Gleason, John Hass, Michael Hamilton, Bill Svelmoe, and the journal's anonymous referees for their helpful comments on earlier drafts of this essay.

[1] Clifton H. Johnson, ed., *God Struck Me Dead: Religious Conversion Experiences and Autobiographies of Ex-slaves* (Philadelphia 1969), 45.

[2] Isaac Holmes, *An Account of the United States of America* (1823; rep., New York 1974), 388.

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their share had increased to more than 34 percent. This growth terrified the older denominations. At mid-century American Methodism was nearly half again as large as any other Protestant body and almost ten times the size of the Congregationalists, America's largest denomination in 1776.[3]

These figures are even more impressive when one considers the church's wider influence. In the late eighteenth and early nineteenth centuries, membership requirements were relatively strict and discipline, for the most part, was firmly adhered to. All members, for example, were required to attend a weekly ''class meeting'' where their spiritual lives and temporal dealings were open to examination by the class leader and the preacher, if one happened to be present, and where they might be asked to pray in public. This, no doubt, was a threatening proposition for many. Hence it is not surprising that many who had Methodist sympathies declined to enter into full ''connection'' with the church. In 1805 Francis Asbury estimated that membership stood at 100,000, but that up to one million people ''regularly attend our ministry.''[4] Using a more conservative ratio of eight adherents for every one member, it is still reasonable to assume that by 1790 Methodist adherents accounted for almost 15 percent of the aggregate American population, and by 1820 nearly 21 percent (see Graph 1).

Clearly, American Methodism played a leading role in the popularization of religion following the American Revolution. This popularization flowed from, and contributed to, the cultural ethos of the early republic, and allowed evangelical Christianity to become a far more vital force in American society than it had been before the rev-

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By 1876 all the various branches of American Methodism included more than 29,000 itinerant preachers, some 24,000 local preachers, and nearly three million members. On Methodist growth, see Methodist Episcopal Church, *Minutes of the Methodist Conferences, Annually Held in America; From 1773 to 1813, Inclusive* (New York 1813), 612; Robert Emerson Coleman, ''Factors in the Expansion of the Methodist Episcopal Church From 1784 to 1812'' (Ph. D. diss., State University of Iowa 1954), 363-399; Roger Finke and Rodney Stark, *The Churching of America, 1776-1990: Winners and Losers in Our Religious Economy* (New Brunswick, N.J. 1992), 54-108; C.C. Goss, *Statistical History of the First Century of American Methodism: With a Summary of the Origin and Present Operations of Other Denominations* (New York 1866), 88; and Matthew Simpson, ed., *Cyclopedia of Methodism: Embracing Sketches of its Rise, Progress, and Present Condition, with Biographical Notices and Numerous Illustrations* (Philadelphia 1878), 880.

[4] Francis Asbury, *The Journal and Letters of Francis Asbury*, ed. Elmer T. Clark, Jacob S. Payton, and J. Manning Potts (3 vols., Nashville 1958), III, 310 (March 8, 1805).

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CHAPTER 12 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A12.50 - Black Transcendentalism: William Cooper Nell, the Adelphic Union, and the Black Abolitionist Intellectual Tradition

Peter Wirzbicki

ARTICLE	Black Transcendentalism: William Cooper Nell, the Adelphic Union, and the Black Abolitionist Intellectual Tradition
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PETER WIRZBICKI

Black Transcendentalism William Cooper Nell, the Adelphic Union, and the Black Abolitionist Intellectual Tradition

This article explores the thought of the black abolitionist William C. Nell and a literary and intellectual club that he led, Boston's Adelphic Union. It demonstrates that Nell and the Adelphic Union were in contact with New England Transcendentalists, exploring the consequences for their thought and activism. It argues that looking at Nell's abolitionism through the lens of his interaction with Transcendentalism helps us understand the roots of the Elevation impulse. The deep intellectual roots of the Elevation ideology demonstrate the ways black abolitionists engaged with canonical antebellum thought.

William C. Nell was a black abolitionist, activist, historian, and community leader who helped lead one of the most important black intellectual clubs in Boston. He also had sustained and close interactions with New England Transcendentalists, like Ralph Waldo Emerson, Theodore Parker, A. Bronson Alcott and others. These two aspects of his life were not as disconnected as some scholarship on antebellum black radicalism or Transcendentalism might lead us to suspect. In fact, through conversations with Transcendentalists Nell developed strategies for talking about the political and social advancement of African Americans. In particular, he invested the language of Elevation—an idea that developed out of black communities' search for education and economic improvement—with spiritual and political meanings that were, in part, the product of Transcendentalist inspiration.

By studying Nell's fellowship with Transcendentalists, this essay explores the relationship between Nell's intellectual currents and his political commitments as a way of shedding light on the role of black intellectual life in the abolition movement.[1] Nell was both a political leader in the black Boston abolitionist community—where he played central roles in campaigns to desegregate the Boston Public School System, protect fugitive slaves, and memorialize black leaders such as Crispus Attucks—and

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a participant in a broader intellectual culture, forging particularly close connections to the bohemian Transcendentalists.[2] His story demonstrates that being a black intellectual in the 1840s did not mean cutting oneself off from the broader intellectual climate of Transcendentalist Boston. Instead, abolition and Transcendentalism could be mutually supportive; together they produced the conditions for a radical consciousness in antebellum New England, the former providing the moral and political energy and the latter providing a philosophical and existential language. Seeing this interaction sheds new light on both the story of black abolitionism and on the political legacy of New England Transcendentalism.[3]

Scholars have been slow to treat black thinkers as not only participants in the political task of organizing and staffing the abolitionist movement but also theoreticians, developing the ideas that animated both the goals and the strategy of the movement.[4] As a means of demonstrating how important intellectual life was to black abolitionists, this essay will focus on Nell's leadership of the Boston-based literary society and lyceum the Adelphic Union. By reintroducing black intellectuals like William C. Nell into the story of abolitionist ideas and Transcendentalist ones, we can see how the presence of black intellectuals and audience members engaged with and helped to shape the course of New England thought. Black northerners were more than crucial foot soldiers in the abolitionist movement; they were also intellectuals, helping to formulate strategies, ideas, and cultures of resistance that were central to the fight against slavery. Nell helped to push white Transcendentalists to realize the antislavery potential of their own thought. Through Nell's interaction with prominent white intellectuals, he and the Union's black audiences encouraged Transcendentalists to embrace antislavery ideas. Black radicals and Transcendentalists were in discussion about matters like slavery, freedom, and the purpose of intellectual life.

Out of these conversations between white Transcendentalists and black abolitionists like Nell came new ideas about Elevation, religion, and utopian socialism that would be central to the radical abolitionist imagination in Massachusetts. The term "Elevation" bridged the political goals of black abolitionists with the philosophical concerns of Transcendentalists. For Nell and his colleagues in the Adelphic Union, Elevation not only came to describe educational or social uplift but also was tied to Transcendentalist views and shaped by Romantic ideals. The Elevation impulse, in other words, had a philosophical and intellectual complexity that previous scholarship had not fully captured.[5] Nell's religious ideas reflected his encounter with Transcendentalism, illustrating the ways Transcendentalist critiques of religious authority grounded many abolitionist practices.

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CHAPTER 12 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A12.51 - Prelude to Abolitionism: Sabbatarian Politics and the Rise of the Second Party System

Bertram Wyatt-Brown

ARTICLE	Prelude to Abolitionism: Sabbatarian Politics and the Rise of the Second Party System
JOURNAL	The Journal of American History 58, no. 2 (1971)
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Prelude to Abolitionism: Sabbatarian Politics and the Rise of the Second Party System

BERTRAM WYATT-BROWN

FOR the student of abolitionist and religious history, Arthur M. Schlesinger's *The Age of Jackson* is an exasperating book. While Schlesinger recognizes that the Jacksonians failed to grapple with the moral crisis of slavery, he seems wholly unsympathetic toward the northern evangelical movement out of which abolitionist reform emerged. Schlesinger does not see that pious conservatives had good reason to worry about "mobocracy," for the Jacksonian era was more lawless than any previous period in American history. Mob attacks, murders, brawls, and lynchings were as characteristic of the "age of the common man" as toasts to American equality, liberty, and justice. This paradox receives scant attention because Schlesinger is eager to prove that, with the exception of the Civil War, Americans avoided violent upheavals and relied upon political processes to resolve inequities and express discontent. As a result, one would hardly know that Andrew Jackson harshly opposed open discussion of slavery or that he and his party contributed to the seizure of Indian lands and the pathos of Cherokee removal from Georgia. "The empty *name*" of freedom, cried antislavery leader Theodore Weld, "is everywhere,—*free* government, *free* men, *free* speech, *free* people, *free* schools, and *free* churches. . . . FREE! The word and sound are omnipresent masks, and mockers! An impious lie! unless they stand for free *Lynch Law*, and free *murder*; for they *are* free."[1]

Mr. Wyatt-Brown is associate professor of history in Case Western Reserve University. The author wishes to acknowledge the financial assistance of the American Philosophical Society.

[1] Arthur M. Schlesinger, Jr., devotes only three sentences in 527 pages of text to Indian removal. Among the abolitionist leaders, only John Greenleaf Whittier is given any serious attention. See Arthur M. Schlesinger, Jr., *The Age of Jackson* (Boston, 1945), especially 350-60. Theodore Dwight Weld to S. Webb and William H. Scott, Jan. 3, 1838, Gilbert H. Barnes and Dwight L. Dumond, eds., *Letters of Theodore Dwight Weld, Angelina Grimké Weld and Sarah Grimké 1822-1844* (2 vols., New York, 1934), II, 511-12.

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If Schlesinger's views appear to be rather outmoded after twenty-five years in which Weld's lamentation has regained something of its relevance, Schlesinger's critics, the "consensus" historians, of the 1950s, seem scarcely less so. In rejecting the overly simple dualisms of Schlesinger's Beardian analysis, Lee Benson, Louis Hartz, and Bray Hammond have reduced political and social strife to a bland disagreement in a chiefly middle-class setting. Whenever fiercely ideological questions arose, the voters were primarily engaged in the politics of nostalgia, the attempt to recapture a past that never existed and a social status that never was theirs.[2] Much of what the "consensus" historians have written about the Jacksonian era rings true. With the aid of interdisciplinary methods, they have explored complex factors of political behavior, revealed psychological nuances, and shown the uniqueness of American character. But the drama and animation, the violence and commitment of political rivalry have disappeared. For all its faults, *The Age of Jackson* enables one to understand why "Jacksonian Democracy" still symbolizes the search for liberty and equality and why "Whiggery" connotes snobbery and privilege. Schlesinger's intermingling of "the movement of ideas" with "the movement of politics" is a healthy corrective to Daniel Boorstin's celebration of American anti-intellectuality.[3]

Yet, neither Schlesinger nor his critics have fully understood the contribution of religious forces to American humanitarianism. Ironically, these forces, founded upon a puritan hostility to partisan politics, gave birth to the antislavery movement, a greater expression of egalitarian idealism than Jackson ever dreamed of. In fact, the very experience of struggling against

[2] Bray Hammond, *Banks and Politics in America: From the Revolution to the Civil War* (Princeton, 1957); Louis Hartz, *The Liberal Tradition in America: An Interpretation of American Political Thought Since the Revolution* (New York, 1955); Lee Benson, *The Concept of Jacksonian Democracy: New York as a Test Case* (Princeton, 1961); Richard P. McCormick, *The Second American Party System: Party Formation in the Jacksonian Era* (Chapel Hill, 1966); Marvin Meyers, *The Jacksonian Persuasion: Politics and Belief* (Stanford, 1957) are among the leading "consensus" historians. More favorable to Schlesinger are Lynn L. Marshall, "The Genesis of Grass-Roots Democracy in Kentucky," *Mid-America*, XLVII (Oct. 1965), 269-87; Lynn L. Marshall, "The Strange Stillbirth of the Whig Party," *American Historical Review*, LXXII (Jan. 1967), 445-68; Frank Otto Gatell, "Money and Party in Jacksonian America: A Quantitative Look at New York City's Men of Quality," *Political Science Quarterly*, LXXXII (June 1967), 235-52; Charles Grier Sellers, Jr., "Who Were the Southern Whigs?" *American Historical Review*, LIX (Jan. 1954), 335-46. Stanley Elkins found the sentiments, which Weld's remarks represented, to be a product of guilt-ridden irrationality, a peculiarity of American reform "anti-institutionalism." Stanley M. Elkins, *Slavery: A Problem in American Institutional and Intellectual Life* (Chicago, 1959), especially 140-222. See also Aileen S. Kraditor, "A Note on Elkins and the Abolitionists," *Civil War History*, XIII (Dec. 1967), 330-39.

[3] Schlesinger, *Age of Jackson*, ix-x. For an incisive criticism of Daniel Boorstin's *The Americans: The National Experience*, see Richard Hofstadter, *The Progressive Historians: Turner, Beard, Parrington* (New York, 1968), 456-61.

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CHAPTER 12 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A12.52 - The Transformation of the Black Temperance Movement, 1827-1854: An Interpretation

Donald Yacovone

ARTICLE	The Transformation of the Black Temperance Movement, 1827-1854: An Interpretation
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THE TRANSFORMATION OF THE BLACK TEMPERANCE MOVEMENT, 1827-1854: AN INTERPRETATION

Donald Yacovone

Despite the flood of historical literature on antebellum reform and black history, the black temperance movement has received little attention.[1] Historians who have examined the movement tend to view it as a black effort to share in the democratic hopes and the economic boom of Jacksonian America. William and Jane Pease have characterized black temperance as an essentially bourgeois response to white racism, dominated by the belief that blacks "could afford neither the economic drain of intemperance nor the social image of tippling." Although accurate to a point, this interpretation obscures the importance of temperance to the antebellum black community. More important, it fails to account for the transformation of black temperance

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Mr. Yacovone is an editor with the Black Abolitionist Papers Project, Florida State University, Tallahassee. He wishes to thank Dr. Roy Finkenbine, co-editor of the *Black Abolitionist Papers*, for reading the manuscript and offering several valuable suggestions, Cory Burke Smith for her skillful editing, and the anonymous referees for their helpful reader's reports.

[1] No study of black temperance exists but the following texts provide helpful background material: Jane H. Pease and William H. Pease, *They Who Would Be Free* (New York 1974); Benjamin Quarles, *Black Abolitionists* (New York 1969); Howard H. Bell, "The American Moral Reform Society, 1836-1841," *Journal of Negro History* 43 (Winter 1958), 34-40; and Frederick Cooper, "Elevating the Race: The Social Thought of Black Leaders, 1827-50," *American Quarterly* 24 (Dec. 1972), 604-625. For the antebellum temperance movement in general, see W. J. Rorabaugh, *The Alcoholic Republic* (New York 1979); Joseph R. Gusfield, *Symbolic Crusade: Status Politics and the American Temperance Movement* (Urbana 1963); Ian R. Tyrrell, *Sobering Up: From Temperance to Prohibition in Antebellum America, 1800-1860* (Westport, Conn. 1979); Jed Dannenbaum, *Drink and Disorder: Temperance Reform in Cincinnati from the Washingtonian Revival to the WCTU* (Urbana 1984).

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thought and its connection to the emergence of an independent black reform and abolitionist movement. The purpose here is not to present a comprehensive history of black temperance, which deserves its own book-length study. Instead, this essay suggests an interpretive framework that locates black temperance within the larger black struggle for autonomy and freedom before the Civil War.[2]

Antebellum black reform can be divided into three phases: Patronage, or the reliance upon white support and a white reform agenda; Isolation, or the period of struggle against racism and for a reform program aimed at ending slavery and benefiting the larger black community; and Equality, in which blacks abandoned reliance upon moral suasion tactics and sought to secure their civil rights through political effort. These overlapping phases follow a general chronological pattern but they more accurately represent major transitional stages or modes of action adopted by black leaders. Writing in the *Weekly Anglo-African* in 1861, "Caleb" believed the dependent first phase ended with Frederick Douglass war with the Garrisonians. The second phase (roughly 1836 to 1854) aimed at serving the specific interests of the black community by attacking slavery and racism. The third phase (emerging after 1840) was characterized by a new generation of leaders, not "psalm-singing and Bible-quoting saints, but hard-working and clear-headed men" who believed in practical measures (specifically, the exercise of power, political or otherwise), fraternity, and the equality of all men.[3] By examining the transformation of the black temperance movement we can better understand the struggle for an independent black reform movement and more clearly see the tenuous relationship between black and white reformers.

Black interest in temperance appeared as early as 1788 when the Free African Society of Philadelphia refused membership to all drinkers. Organized black efforts against intemperance began about 1829 with the formation of the New Haven Temperance Society of the

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[2] Pease and Pease, *They Who Would Be Free*, 124-125, and Cooper, "Elevating the Race," 614-616, believe black temperance to be a middle class preoccupation. The interpretation presented in this essay is influenced by my own work in preparing volumes three through five of the *Black Abolitionist Papers* [*BAP*], ed., C. Peter Ripley *et al.* (Chapel Hill, forthcoming). It is appropriate here to note the profound debt this paper owes to the microfilm edition of *BAP* (hereafter cited [BAP reel:frame]).

[3] "Caleb" to the Editor of the Anglo-African, Apr. 23, 1861, in *Weekly Anglo-African*, May 4, 1861 [BAP 13:505]. "Caleb" meant to apply his remarks only to the black antislavery movement, but I find them applicable to the entire black reform effort.

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